



Marketing Research

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Preface



Chapter 1

Prerequisites

No prerequisites required to read this book

Chapter 2

Introduction

This is not an actual book or guide on marketing research, but more like a placeholder for major constructs in marketing as well as interesting articles in marketing.

Feel free to comment or suggest changes to the content of this book.

Differences between goods and services:

- Intangibility
- Complexity
- Heterogeneity

Dimensions of Qualitative Research:

1. Ontology: “is a philosophical belief system about the nature of social reality- what can be known and how”.
2. Epistemology: “is a philosophical belief system about who can be a knower”.
3. Methodology (theoretical perspective): “an account of social reality or some component of it that extends further than what has been empirically investigated”:
 - Post-positivist: causal relationship can be tested (i.e., disprove)
 - Interpretive: assumes the world is constantly being constructed through group interactions; hence social reality can be understood via the perspectives of social actors enmeshed in meaning-making

activities”.

- Critical: view social reality as an ongoing construction, and suggest that discourses created in shifting fields of social power shape social reality and its study.

4. Methods: “technique for gathering evidence”.

Chapter 3

Advertising

People don't like intrusive ads, especially when they are vulnerable (Tybout and calkins, 2005, p.143)

Visual Persuasion

- (vis, 1997) and (vis, 2003) are two books on this subject

Prior distribution for TV advertising elasticity for consumer packaged goods can be found in (Shapiro et al., 2018). A substantial portion of products has statistically insignificant or negative estimates for advertising elasticity. TV ads might not be the best vehicle to reach the customer now.

(Gordon et al., 2019) reframe our idea of advertising effect, which should be thought in the sense of incremental effect above the baseline of an ad on consumer behavior.

(Gordon et al., 2017) and (Lewis and Rao, 2015) provided evidence that observational data can hardly detect advertising effect from noise (i.e., we could either over or under-estimate).

The goal standard to measure advertising is random experiment, but it not possible. An improvement is to have panel data from different regions of your market to estimate the baseline for each market. Then, you can uncover the advertising effect.

Spillover effect in advertising:

- (Rutz and Bucklin, 2011)

(McGuire, 1978):

- Information processing model of social influence (e.g., advertising effectiveness)

- Behavioral chain of information profession model. (p. 158) (Markov process) - persuasion
- $P(\text{presentation of message}) \times P(\text{attention to message}) \times P(\text{Comprehension of Conclusion}) \times P(\text{Yielding to the Conclusion}) \times P(\text{retention of the new belief}) \times P(\text{Behaving on the basis of belief})$
 - Presentation of message = # of reach (advertising investment)
 - attention to message = # of true reach or Recognition test
 - comprehension = recall test or semantic differential profiles or checklist tests
 - yielding = attitude change
 - retention = attitude change after time interval
 - behavior = actual observation
- Independent variables (components of persuasive communication): source, message, channel, receiver, and destination (Table 1, p. 167)
- Matrix of persuasion
- Advertising appeals:
 - Positive (gain): reduce anxiety
 - Negative (loss): increase anxiety
- Development in the field: this model assume 1 hierarchy, but later developments change the idea of hierarchy model.

Court et al. (2009)

Traditional funnel:

1. Awareness
2. Familiarity
3. Consideration
4. Purchase
5. Loyalty
 1. Active loyalist
 2. Passive loyalist

Consumer decision journey McKinsey (2009):

1. Initial consideration set
2. Active evaluation
3. Decision at moment of purchase
4. Postpurchase experience

- Customer Decision Journey is from the perspective of consumers
- Customer Funnel is still important but it's from the company's perspective.
- Analogy here is that you look from 3D (Customer Decision Journey) to 2D (Customer Funnel).

(MacInnis and Jaworski, 1989)

1. Hierarchy of effects model (1960s)
2. Multiattribute attitude model and cognitive response models (1970s)

Proposed model:

- Antecedents:
 - Types of needs
 - * Utilitarian needs
 - * Expressive needs
 - Socially expressive needs: to express, or reflect self-image
 - Experiential needs: to satisfy one's cognitive or sensory
 - Motivation (in CB **involvement**): “the desire to process brand information in the ad.” (p. 4)
 - * situational
 - * enduring
- Processing
 - Attention:
 - * higher processing motivation leads to higher attention
 - * higher utilitarian needs, more focused on brand attributes
 - * higher expressive needs, more focused on symbolic/ experiential value
 - Processing capacity:
 - * greater processing motivation leads to greater processing capacity for analyzing the ad
 - * greater the processing capacity results in less processing capacity for other task.
 - Level of brand processing matches processing operations
 1. feature analysis: salient properties/features
 2. basic categorization

- 3. meaning analysis: basic understanding
- 4. information integration: Is this brand association?
- 5. role-taking
- 6. constructive processes

– Ability and opportunity are moderators of processing

- Consequences
 - Cognitive responses (thoughts)
 - Emotional responses (feelings)

Another classifications of responses:

- message-related (brand-relevant)
- execution-related (brand-irreverent)
- viewing-context-related (environment-related)

Advantages of the proposed model: Incorporate

- Elaboration Likelihood model: (Petty and Cacioppo, 1986)
- Mitchell's brand processing model
- Greenwald and Leavitt's model
- Lutz's typology

Note:

- A_{Ad} mediates A_B based on levels of processing (specifically, meaning analysis, information integration, and role taking - high levels).
- Tradeoff between brand/message-related elements and ad-execution elements
- Cohen and chestnut 1990, behavioral loyalty and attitudinal loyalty stem did not stem from the gap between attitude and actual behavioral.

(Vakratsas and Ambler, 1999)

- Advertising input -> Filters -> Consumer (Cognition, Affect, Experience) -> Behavior
- Market Response Models:
 - Aggregate level (Bass' model): market data
 - * 3 exposures per purchase cycle is optimal (p. 29)
 - Individual level: individual brand choice
- Cognitive Information Models (C)

- There is a differential effect between price (increase) and non-price (decrease) advertising on price sensitivity
- Pure Affect Models (A)
 - Mere exposure theories
 - * Response competition and Optimal arousal theories: “wear-in” effect which means it takes time to getting familiar to advertising messages to reach optimal effectiveness.
 - * Two-factor theory: wear-out effect: after optimal exposures, the effect of advertising starts to decrease
 - * Hence, advertising response has an inverted-U shape
 - Affective responses to advertising:
 - * Attitude towards the brand
 - * Attitude towards the ad
- Persuasive Hierarchy Models (CA)
 - Cognition -> Affect -> behavior. (CA)
 - Elaboration Likelihood Model (ELM): (Petty and Cacioppo, 1986)
 - Another model is (MacInnis and Jaworski, 1989)
 - Fishbein-Ajzen (1975) involvement model
 - Batra and Ray (1985): Utilitarian and hedonic effect on attitudes towards the brand
 - Involvement moderates the effect of ad evaluation (persuasion is found in low-involvement consumers with attitude towards the ad).
 - Little support for CA model, but the authors still believe in it.
- Low-involvement (motivation) Hierarchy Models (CEA)
 - Cognition -> Experience -> Affect
- Integrative Models (CAE)
 - Information Integration Response Model (IIRM)
 - Deighton’s (1984, 1986) two-stage model:
 - * first experience = expectations
 - * second stage = product trial/experience
- Hierarchy-Free Models (NH)
- Generalizations:
 1. Experience, affect, cognition are mediators of advertising effects.

2. "Short-term ad elasticities are small and decrease during the product life cycle (p. 35).

(Wind and Sharp, 2009)

- 23 Empirical Generalizations
- Gaps:
 - Boundary conditions
 - Advertising properties
 - Measurement issues

(Batra and Keller, 2016)

- Media:
 - search
 - display
 - mobile
 - TV
 - social media
- Considerations for a well-integrated marketing communications program
 - Consistency
 - Complementarity
 - Cross-effects
- Dynamic Expanded Customer Decision Journey
 - traditional media
 - newer media
 - * Search ads
 - * display ads
 - * websites
 - * email
 - * social media
 - * Mobile
- Interaction and Cross-effects
 - Traditional media synergies
 - sales force and personal selling interactions

3.1. COGNITIVE AND AFFECTIVE MEDIATORS OF ADVERTISING EFFECTS 19

- Online and offline synergies
- Drawbacks
 - Limited outcome variables
 - Limited longitudinal studies
 - Did not account for consumer decision stage
- Media type
 - Paid (TV, print, direct)
 - owned (websites, blogs, apps, social media)
 - earned (WOM, press coverage)
- Factors that affect consumer communication processing (model) (p. 130)
- Communication Matching Model: “matches the expected main and interactive effects of different media options with the communications objectives for a brand”
- Communications Optimization Model
 - Coverage
 - Cost
 - Contribution
 - Commonality: different communications share the same meaning
 - Complementarity
 - Cross-Effects
 - Conformability
- IMC Conceptual Framework

3.1 Cognitive and Affective mediators of Advertising Effects

Evaluative responses = attitude

Cognitive approach -> Affective approach (not only comes from cognitive) -> Behavioral approach (Fishbein & Ajzen, 1975 - theory of planned behavior)

System 2: is kinda of independent of Cognitive, but Affective is system 1.

- Expanded model added subjective norm
- Zajonc (1980)

- Evaluation from cognitive approach is multi-attribute model
- Anthony Greenwald: Cognitive Response Theory: what important is what is in the consumer mind when they see the ad.

Conditioning:

- Classical (Pavlovian) conditioning: physiological automatic reaction occurred after being exposed to an unconditioned stimulus.
- Evaluative conditioning: direct transfer of affect from one stimulus to another via a conditioning paradigm.

Affective route:

Moods = diffuse, hard to pin down the source, more long-lasting

Emotion = specific, discrete

(Wright, 1973)

- Three modes of spontaneous cognitive responses to advertising stimulus:
 - Counterargument
 - Source Derogation
 - Support Argument

$$Acceptance = w_{SA} \sum_i SA_i - w_{CA} \sum_j CA_j - w_{SD} \sum_k SD_k$$

Situational Factors

- Content-processing involvement: “stemming from receiver’s perception of the relevancy”
- Message Modality: audio, print

(Batra and Ray, 1986b)

- Advertising repetition increases brand attitude and purchase intention when support and counter argument production are low; while under high level of such production, brand attitude and purchase intention level off.
- What happen to make the downturn of advertising repetition earlier or later?
- Appropriate interval: purchase cycle (number of exposure per purchase cycle). 3 exposures per purchase cycle is the optimal number
- Wear-in: how many times it takes for the ad to take effect?
- Wear-out: how many times it takes for the ad to bore you?
 - If you change the ad execution, the wear-out is pushed back.

3.1. COGNITIVE AND AFFECTIVE MEDIATORS OF ADVERTISING EFFECTS²¹

- Traditional thoughts advertising repetition would always wear out (inverted-U curve between repetition and impact on customer's attitude) because of wearout and mere exposure
- Ability, motivation and opportunity are antecedents of cognitive processing

(Kupor and Tormala, 2015)

- Momentary interruptions can promote persuasion
 - higher for low need for cognitive individuals (motivation to engage in thoughtful processing) than high ones
- In other words, interruptions can increase consumers' processing of a message.
- Interruption amplified arousal (need for completion/ goal pursuit and curiosity)

(Gibson, 2008): Affective Responses Mediating Acceptance of Advertising

- Using Implicit Association Test (???)
- Evaluative conditioning only influences explicit attitudes when there is no previous strong preference or priori

Batra and Ray (1986a)

- Antecedents of attitude towards the ad:
- Attitude toward the ad leads changes in brand attitudes (MacKenzie et al., 1986; Mitchell and Olson, 1981)
- In low involvement context, execution cues and source likeability (message-oriented and communicator-oriented) have greater impact on persuasion
- Affect typologies (p. 237)

Pham et al. (2013)

- ad-evoked feelings positively influence brand attitudes both directly and indirectly (via changes in attitude toward the ad), regardless of involvement with the product category, products types (e.g., durables, nondurables, services, search or experience goods).
- This effect is greater among hedonic products than utilitarian ones.

Holbrook and Batra (1987)

- emotional reactions mediate the effect of advertising on attitudes toward ad or brand.
- Why divided two articles? the second study claimed that the last paper's list of positive affective mediators was limited, the second one expands to range of emotions.

- Is there a difference between affect and emotions?

(Batra and Ahtola, 1991; Voss et al., 2003) offer scale to measure the hedonic and utilitarian dimensions of consumer attitude

Chapter 4

Brand Equity

- Quantitative measure of brand equity: Kamakura and Russell (1993)

brand and psychological distance: Congruence effect: “information is easier to process, which leads consumers to respond more favorably.” (Connors et al., 2020) “consumer spending higher when distance between consumer and brand matched with construal level of marketing communications.”

Value-added is the difference between a product’s price to consumers and the cost of producing it.

Whereas, brand equity is the difference between a branded product’s price to a generic product’s price.

This generic product can also have value-added in it in other forms (e.g., convenience)

Brand identity offers a value proposition to customers, where “a brand’s value proposition is a statement of the functional, emotional, and self-expressive benefits delivered by the brand that provide value to the customers” (Aaker, 1996, pp.95).

Functional benefits are product attributes that deliver functional utility to customers, while emotional benefits are positive feelings customers feel when using the brand. Ads that provide emotional benefits are higher in effectiveness score compared to functional benefits ads (Aaker, 1996, pp.98).

For example, Evian – “Another day, another chance to feel healthy” ad - which provides emotional benefits of feeling satisfied after a workout. Moreover, self-expressive benefits are when brands provide a means for consumers to express their self-image. A person/ consumer can have multiple roles which associate with multiple self-concepts. Such as a woman, a mother, an author. The difference between emotional benefits and self-expressive benefits can be subtle. Emotional benefits focus on feelings, private setting (e.g., feeling of watching

a TV show), past-oriented (memories), transitory, after-use emotional; In contrast, self-expressive benefits focus on self, public settings (e.g., using cars or clothes to signal), aspiration or future-oriented, permanent (i.e., the self links to person's personality), and during-use (wearing fancy clothes to signify a successful person). (cf. (Aaker, 1996, pp.99))

With the advancement in mass production of high -quality products, quality is no longer a dimension of status signal (Holt, 1998)

In the virality framework, the first and foremost driver is social currency. Social currency refers to things worth sharing. People share so that they can let others know that they are in the know. Sharing a new product to assimilate his or her identity with the product and its brand identity, customers are acquiring social currency. Moreover, brand identity is a driver of brand equity, which refers to the value portion that customers are willing to pay above the product's utility value (practical value). Brand identity offers a value proposition to customers, where "a brand's value proposition is a statement of the functional, emotional, and self-expressive benefits delivered by the brand that provide value to the customers" (Aaker, 1996, p. 95). Functional benefits are product attributes that deliver functional utility to customers, while emotional benefits are positive feelings customers feel when using the brand. Ads that provide emotional benefits are higher in effectiveness score compared to functional benefits ads (Aaker, 1996, p. 99). For example, Evian – "Another day, another chance to feel healthy" ad - which provides emotional benefits of feeling satisfied after a workout. Moreover, self-expressive benefits are when brands provide a means for consumers to express their self-image. A person/ consumer can have multiple roles which associate with multiple self-concepts. Such as a woman, a mother, an author. The difference between emotional benefits and self-expressive benefits can be subtle. Emotional benefits focus on feelings, private setting (e.g., feeling of watching a TV show), past-oriented (memories), transitory, after-use emotional; In contrast, self-expressive benefits focus on self, public settings (e.g., using cars or clothes to signal), aspiration or future-oriented, permanent (i.e., the self links to person's personality), and during-use (wearing fancy clothes to signify a successful person). (cf. (Aaker, 1996, p. 99)) Hence, one can see that the brand identity portion that provides self-expressive benefits is social currency while exhaustively different from the brand identity portion that provides functional benefits (i.e., the practical value/ usefulness/ utility) .

We acknowledge that some might view usefulness/ utility as a dimension of brand equity (perceived quality): the perceived quality dimension can signal the true practical value. However, the practical value that drives virality is usually understood, experimented, experienced; while perceived quality is subjective comprehension that is hard to demonstrate. Moreover, quality used to be the status signal. However, with the advancement in mass production of high-quality products, quality is no longer a status signal dimension (Holt, 1998). Thus, we believe that the distinction between the two understandings should be appreciated.

4.1 Brand Association

“different groups of people can have different or even contradictory associations with the same stimulus” (Wheeler & Berger, 2007)

4.2 Brand Loyalty

- (Berkowitz et al., 1978; Berkowitz, 1978) reviews on Brand Loyalty: Measurement and Management by Jacoby and Chestnut 1978, which pioneered the idea of **attitudinal** and **behavioral loyalty**.

Chapter 5

Celebrity Endorsement

Based on Power Distance Theory, power distance beliefs moderates the positive effect of celebrity endorsers on evaluations of advertising (Winterich et al., 2018)

Chapter 6

Innovation

(Chandrasekaran et al., 2020) introduce a model for successive technologies adoption that accounts for:

- Different rate of technology disengagement
- Different rate of technology adoption

Diffusion

Bass Model (Bass, 1969)

$$h(t) = p + qF(t)$$

where

- $h(t)$ = rate of adoption, given not adopted so far
- $F(t)$ = cumulative fraction of adopters
- p = coefficient of innovation, tendency to adopt independent social contagion
- q = coefficient of imitation tendency to adopt due to social contagion
- m = market size

After going public, firms increase their innovation levels (i.e., have more innovation), but those innovation are less risky (i.e., fewer breakthrough). (Wies and Moorman, 2015)

Chapter 7

WOM / Virality

To understand virality, we first need to comprehend its root, which is WOM. Acknowledging that there are subtle differences among WOM, virality, and sharing, we use the three terms interchangeably in this paper. Previous authors provide strong supports for the similarity between virality and WOM (Camarero & San José, 2011; Phelps, Lewis, Mobilio, Perry, & Raman, 2004).

Formally, (Westbrook, 1987, p. 261) defined WOM as “informational communication directed at other consumers about the ownership, usage, or characteristics of particular goods and services or their sellers.” In the age of the Internet, WOM evolves to “word of mouse” (or e-WOM). Both virality and WOM take advantages of the network effect to reach wide audiences (Vilpponen, Winter, & Sundqvist, 2006), but virality does it better due to its competitive cost, rapid diffusion, and better targeting (Bampo, Ewing, Mather, Stewart, & Wallace, 2008; Khan & Vong, 2014). Hence, virality is more synonymous with e-WOM.

Virality comes up as a by-product of the Internet, social media platforms, and network theory developments. In network theory, researchers from the domain of sociology or computer science study the structural characteristics/properties of a node (an individual) or a network, such as a node’s position in a network or network’s cluster. While epidemiologists, management, and marketing researcher study the characteristics of the entity being transmitted, such as virus or message itself. Thus, virality can be driven by content or context of the message (Berger & Milkman, 2012), nature of the spreader, and audience (Hennig-Thurau, Gwinner, Walsh, & Gremler, 2004; Iyengar, van den Bulte, & Valente, 2011), seeding strategies (Kalish, Mahajan, & Muller, 1995; Libai, Muller, & Peres, 2005), and social network structure (Bampo et al., 2008). In this conceptual development, we focus on the content and context drivers of virality.

Virality is defined as the probability of an entity being passed along (Hansen, Arvidsson, Nielsen, Colleoni, & Etter, 2011). The entity can be a message,

content, video, knowledge, or disease. Alternatively, (Tucker, 2015) defines virality as “a process whereby an ad is successively shared by viewers.” These two definitions focus on virality as a process; instead, we focus on viral as a construct. Hence, we are in line with (Chandler & Munday, 2016) defining virality (social media virality, social shareability, social media shareability) as “the potential for spreadability of any given content; or particular qualities which are considered to have led to content ‘going viral’”

For WOM to work, people must share brand-related content, and attention needs to be translated into sales. With these positive associations towards a brand, marketers can increase a customer’s positive brand attitude and later purchase behavior (Faircloth, Capella, & Alford, 2001).

81 percent of a telecom firm indicated that they are likely to refer other to the company; however, only 33 percent actually did. And of those who are referred, only 8 percent became profitable customer. (Kumar et al., 2007)

Even though suffering from the same fate as brand equity, WOM has made it come back under a different alias - virality. The attention that virality has garnered in recent years can be attributed to several reasons:

- (1) the dawn of the Internet helps propel marketing into a new paradigm - digital marketing - where earned media is the new king
- (2) the introduction of social network platforms such as Facebook, Twitter that facilitate the transmission of information and messages seamlessly and provide an unlimited source of data
- (3) The advancement in network theory both theoretically, and empirically.

One platform that can be representative of this digital revolution is Twitter. According to a recent report, Twitter has 145 million monetizable daily active users. Twelve percent of Americans get their news from Twitter. And Twitter has 2 billion video impressions per day (25 Twitter Stats All Marketers Need to Know in 2020. There are more than 500 million Tweets are sent per day. (The 2014 #YearOnTwitter, 2014). One cannot deny the power of online WOM as well as its potential reach; hence, viral marketing has been born with these platforms.

The age group from 18-24 can be more challenging to target since they reported fewer positive responses compared to other age groups (Libert, 2014). Since their threshold is higher due to the overwhelming digital content they encounter, their emotions are harder to activate.

Wide gaps between two opposing opinions can increase future discussion (reviews); however, fluctuation around one opinion does not. Higher informational content moderate positively the relationship between opposing opinions and future reviews. (Nagle and Riedl, 2014)

WOM should be taken under the context of the evolution of conversation. (Berger, 2014)

Contagion/ Virality used to be thought of in term of S-shaped curve, but there are problems with this notion:

1. S-shaped could result from different processes that are not contagion
 1. Population heterogeneity (Chatterjee and Eliashberg, 1990)
 2. Marketing efforts (den Bulte and Lilien, 2001)
2. Selection bias (or survival bias)

Questions:

- When diffusion is “viral”?
- What does viral diffusion look like?
 - (Goel et al., 2012):
 - * 90% events have no adoption
 - * less than 99% events has less than 2 viral adoptions
- Can we predict it?

Viral is different from Popular (Goel et al., 2015)

- Popular = Broadcast
- Viral = Cascades
 - needs diversity (i.e., differences/ distinction)
- Total number of retweet over time is not a good approximate of virality

“Big data” help understand rare events.

Valuable virality (Akpinar and Berger, 2017)

Establishes causality of appeals and brand integralness to virality.

- Compared to informative appeal ads (focus on product features), emotional appeal ads (drama, mood, music, emotion-eliciting strategies) are more likely to be shared.
- Informative appeals boost brand evaluations and purchase because the brand is an integral part of the ad content.
- Hence, to combine the best of both worlds, emotional brand-integral ads boost sharing while also bolstering brand-related outcomes (embedded the brand into the stories).
- The mechanism that ads affect brand evaluation through two simultaneous mechanisms: persuasive attempt and brand knowledge.

“keeping viewers involved depends in large part on two emotions: joy and surprise”(Teixeira, 2012) - “Research: The Emotions that Make Marketing Campaigns Go Viral”

“ads that produce stable emotional states generally aren’t effective at engaging viewers for very long.” And “shock may get people to watch an ad privately, it often works against their desire to share the spot. Like Clothing Drive that try to mimic”Swear Jar” by Bud Light” (Teixeira, 2012)

(Westbrook, 1987, p. 261) defined WOM as “informational communication directed at other consumers about the ownership, usage, or characteristics of particular goods and services or their sellers.” WOM evolves to “word of mouse” (or e-WOM).

(Berger, 2014):

WOM is goal-driven and serves five key functions:

- Impression Management
- Emotion regulation
- Information acquisition
- Social bonding
- Persuasion

The motivation behind this process is self -serving and even subconscious level. Hence, we can predict the types of news and information people are most likely to discuss.

- Over 70% of everyday speech is about the self, such as personal experiences or relationships (Dunbar et al., 1997). Consistent with previous research, online behaviors exhibit the same pattern: over 70% of social media posts are about self (Naaman et al., 2010).
- At any given point in time, multiple drivers can be present.

7.1 Structural Virality

(Goel et al., 2015)

$$S = f(Q) + E$$

where

- Q = skill
- E = luck
- S = successful viral process

Measure fraction of variance remaining after conditioning on Q

$$F = \frac{E(\text{var}(S|Q))}{\text{var}(S)} = 1 - R^2$$

Hence, if

- $R^2 \rightarrow 1$, you can succeed in the world we created based on “pure skill”
- $R^2 \rightarrow 0$ you can’t succeed in the world we created (because it’s based on luck)

The more variations in the initial seed, the more likely there is a larger variation in the prediction, which means lower R-squared

They show there is a theoretical limit to the predictive power of predicting cascade event due to its intrinsic dynamic properties.

7.2 Mechanisms/ Processes

7.2.1 Impression Management

Consumers buy to signal their derived identities to achieve desired impressions (J. Berger & Heath, 2007)

Interpersonal communication (WOM) influences impression management in 3 ways: (1) self-enhancement, (2) identity -signaling, and (3) filling conversational space.

- **Self-enhancement:** human has a tendency to self-enhance (Markus, 1987). Hence, people like to share things to help them look good (Chung & Darke, 2006; Hennig-Thurau et al., 2004). Since bragging too much about oneself might have an opposite effect. People sometimes engage in “humblebragging”: brag but self-deprecating at the same time. (Sezer et al., 2018)
- **Identity-signalling:** they talk about themselves to signal they have certain traits or expertise (G. Packard & Wooten, 2013), such as opinion leaders talk to signal their identity (share to show their knowledge).
- **Filling conversational space:** (small talk) people engage in small talk to avoid pauses and silence in between conversations so that the other party would not make lousy inferences about the person. (J. Berger, 2014)

Hence impression management induces people to share things that are

- **Entertaining** (i.e., interesting, surprising, funny or extreme) so that they shared look more interesting, and in-the-know. Interesting products get more word of mouth (J. Berger & Iyengar, 2013; J. Berger & Milkman, 2012; J. Berger & Schwartz, 2011). Moderate controversy is a catalyst for word of mouth to spread (Chen & Berger, 2013). And sometimes, people even exaggerate stories to make things more interesting (C. Heath, 1996); around 60% of the stories are distorted (Marsh & Tversky, 2004). Things

that can be considered interesting are those that are either novel, exciting, or violate previous expectations (i.e., surprise) (Berlyne, 2006; Silvia, 2008). Nevertheless, comprehensibility can be a moderate of whether a novel thing is interesting: novel and comprehensible equals interesting, while novel and incomprehensible equal confusing (Silvia, 2008). Novelty refers to things that are new, surprising, exciting, or complex (Berlyne, 1960). Comprehensibility refers to the fact that the novelty must be understandable.

- **Useful:** because it makes the sharer smart and helpful. Empirical evidence show that useful stories (J. Berger & Milkman, 2012) and higher quality brands (Lovett et al., 2013) are more likely to be shared.
- **Self-concept relevant:** different people see different domain as the optimal signal amplifier such as politics, economics, etc. hence symbolic products are more likely to be shared than utilitarian ones (Chung & Darke, 2006) (even though useful information is helpful, but the signal to be smart and helpful are not appreciated as being interesting and entertaining).
- **Status related:** premium brands are talked about more (Lovett et al., 2013). Knowledge is can also be considered as a status symbol, and people share to signal that they re in the know (Ritson & Elliott, 1999)
- **Unique:** unique products are more likely to be shared, but people with a high need for uniqueness will be less likely to share positive WOM because they do not want people to adopt the product and reduces their uniqueness (Cheema & Kaikati, 2010). Sometimes they even scare others by citing product complexity (Moldovan et al., 2015)
- **Common ground:** sharing common things induces listener to convey that there is interpersonal similarity and facilitates conversation.
- **Emotional valence:** people prefer to share positive things than negative news (J. Berger & Milkman, 2012). However, in some special cases, negative WOM can be perceived as a desired component such as reviewers are seen as more intelligent, (Amabile, 1983). Which is moderated by whether people are refereeing to themselves or others will affect WOM valence (positive vs. negative)(Kamins et al., 1997). Positive WOM when talking oneself conveys a positive image, while negative WOM about others convey that they are relatively better than the other party.
- **Incidental arousal:** unrelated arousal (e.g., running in place) can increase sharing in general (J. Berger, 2011) because of the increase in arousal levels.
- **Accessible things:** products with more cued or triggered will be discussed more (J. Berger & Schwartz, 2011). Hence, more advertised products generate more WOM (Onishi & Manchanda, 2012). “top of mind” and “tip of the tongue.” Availability bias means that the easier we can

recall something, the more likely we are going to talk about it. Publicly visible products also have more WOM (J. Berger & Schwartz, 2011)

7.2.2 Emotion regulation

WOM help consumers regulate their emotions. Emotion regulation refers to “a person’s ability to effectively manage and respond to an emotional experience” (Rolston & Lloyd-Richardson, 2017). and sharing with other (WOM) can facilitate emotion regulation by:

- **Generating social support:** sharing can give you comfort and consolation (Rimé, 2009). For example, after a negative emotional experience, sharing can help increase well-being through perceived social support (J. A. Berger & Buechel, 2012)
- **Venting:** WOM (sharing) helps people achieve catharsis when experiencing negative experiences (Alicke et al., 1992): consumers express when they are angry (Wetzer et al., 2007) or dissatisfied (Anderson, 1998).
- **Sensemaking:** “talking can help people understand what they feel and why” (J. Berger, 2014)
- **Reducing dissonance:** even after making a decision, we want to make sure we make the right choice by talking to others to reduce feelings of doubt (Rosnow, 1980)
- **Taking vengeance:** to punish the company (different from venting, which makes you feel better), consumers share negative consumption experience (Ward & Ostrom, 2006)
- **Rehearsal:** people talk to relive positive experiences (Rimé, 2009)

Emotion regulation drives people to share (1) emotional content (2) influence the valence of the content shared, (3) lead people to share more emotionally arousing content:

- **Emotionality:** more emotional intensity, more sharing (J. Berger & Milkman, 2012), people share more emotional social anecdotes (Peters et al., 2009). But not all emotions increase sharing: for example, shame and guilt decreases sharing (Finkenauer & Rimé, 1998) since sharing those things makes people look bad.
- **Valence:** “Emotion regulation tends to focus on the management of negative emotions” (J. Berger, 2014), but a counter vailing effect is that under impression management, people avoid sharing negative stories since it might reflect on the shares. Sharing negative things can decrease willingness to share (Chen & Berger, 2013)
- **Emotional arousal:**
 - **Negative** side: low arousal emotion (sadness), high arousal (anger or anxiety) should increase the need to vent.
 - **Positive** side: low arousal (contentment), high arousal (awe, excitement or amusement) increase desires for rehearsal.

7.2.3 Information acquisition

WOM helps acquire information.

- **Seeking advice:** (Hennig-Thurau et al., 2004; Rimé, 2009). Rather than trial and error, or direct observation, gossip serves as another form of learning (Baumeister et al., 2004)
- **Resolving problems:** online forums or other online opinion platforms help customers find a solution quickly from others (Hennig-Thurau et al., 2004)

Hence the process of information acquisition would induce to talk more about

- **Risky, important, complex, or uncertainty-ridden decision:** talking to others can reduce risk, simplify complexity, and increase consumer's confidence (Hennig-Thurau et al., 2004)
- **Lack of (trustworthy) information:**

7.2.4 Social bonding

“people have a fundamental desire for social relationships (Baumeister & Leary, 1995), and interpersonal communication fills that need (Hennig-Thurau et al., 2004)”. Empirically, people in brand communities because want to connect with others like them (Muniz & O’Guinn, 2001). Sharing facilitates social bonding through

- **Reinforce shared views:** group memberships, and one’s place in the social hierarchy. WOM (sharing) allows people to fit in as a group member (J. Berger & Heath, 2007; Ritson & Elliott, 1999)
- **Reducing loneliness and social exclusion:** sharing decrease interpersonal distance and decreases loneliness and exclusion (Maner et al., 2007)

Social bonding drives what people share: people share things are :

- **Common ground:** social bonding drives people to talk about things they have in common because it makes them feel socially connected (Clark & Kashima, 2007)
- **Emotionality:** “sharing an emotional story or narrative increases the chance that others will feel similarly” (J. Berger, 2014). Emotional similarity increase group cohesiveness (Barsade & Gibson, 2007). And emotion sharing and social bonding can be a simultaneous process since previous works found that emotion sharing bonds people (Peters & Kashima, 2007) and high arousal emotion increase social bonding needs (Chen & Berger, 2013)

7.2.5 Persuading others

people use WOM to persuade others to affect their satisfaction or choices (J. Berger, 2014). Persuasive drive people to share things that are

- **Emotionally polarized** (polarized valence): since the goal is to convince something is good or bad (i.e., people share extremely rather than moderately positive(negative) information
- **Arousing content**: “people who want to persuade others may find shared arousing content to incite others to take desired actions” (J. Berger, 2014)

7.3 Moderators

- Two key moderators when different WOM functions have a greater impact:
 - **Communication audience**:
 - * Tie strength
 - * Audience size
 - * Tie status
 - **Communication Channel**
 - * Written vs. oral
 - * Identifiability: whether communicators are identifiable. (anonymously)
 - * Audience salience: whether the audience is salient during communication (online communication, the audience is less salient).

Social motivation: why we share :(why_some_videos_go_viral_2015)

- Impression management:
 - authority (e.g., “I want to demonstrate my knowledge”)
 - Social utility (e.g., this could be useful to my friends)
 - coolhunter (e.g., I want to be the first o tell my friends)
 - Zeitgeist (e.g., It’s about a current trend or event)
 - Conversation starting (e.g., I want to start an online conversation)
 - Self-expression (e.g., it says something about me)
 - Social good (e.g., It’s for a good cause, and I want to help”).
- Information acquisition:
 - Opinion seeking (e.g., ”I want to see what my friends think)
- Social bonding:
 - Shared passion (e.g, ”it lets me connect with my friends bout a shared interest)
 - Social in real life (e.g., it will help me socialize with my friends of-fline).

More frequent exposure to perceptually or conceptually related cues increases product accessibility and makes the product easier to process. In turn, this increased accessibility influences product evaluation and choice, which are found to vary directly with the frequency of exposure to conceptually related cues. These results support the hypothesis that conceptual priming effects can have a strong impact on real-world consumer judgment” (Berger and Fitzsimons, 2008)

7.4 Drivers of Virality

7.4.1 Social Currency

Different people see different domain as the optimal signal amplifier, such as politics, economics

Even though useful information is helpful, the signal of being smart and helpful is not appreciated as being interesting and entertaining (Berger, 2014).

People talk more about status-related products because they enhance their impression.

In extreme cases, they even scare others by citing product complexity (Moldovan, Steinhart, & Ofen, 2015).

Interesting things are discussed more in online settings (J. Berger & Milkman, 2012), but this effect fails to replicate in the case of face-to-face settings (Berger & Schwartz, 2011). Hence, research has found that written communication (e.g., texting, messaging, posting online) leads people to talk more about interesting products or brands than oral communication because they have more time to think and polish what to say, leading to more prevalent self-enhancement motives (Berger & Iyengar, 2013). In other words, not because people do not have self-enhancement motives, but because synchronous conversations do not allow for much time to think and polish ideas, people might talk about mundane things to fill the gaps between conversational turns (Berger, 2014).

7.4.2 Accessibility

Accessibility drives ongoing WOM (i.e., publicly visible products are cued more in the environment – top of mind), regardless of how mundane it might be.

From the theory of semantic process (Collins & Loftus, 1975), priming can help activate related perceptual or conceptual constructs in memory spontaneously (Berger & Fitzsimons, 2008). For example, prior exposure affects the brand choice of both target brand and competing brands (Nedungadi, 1990). In other words, the activation of one brand can lead to others more accessible, which increases the chance of remembered brands to be included in the consideration set. (Lee & Labroo, 2004) argues that ease of processing drives our positive evaluation, which is also consistent with the discrepancy -attribution hypothesis. The Discrepancy-attribution hypothesis states that if people cannot easily attribute

the ease of processing to a source, they will likely attribute it to the positive quality of the target. Additionally, (Nedungadi, 1990) found that recently exposed brands are more likely to be included and chosen from consumers' consideration set. Repeated exposure to an object increases favorable ratings (e.g., an object, or person) (Zajonc, 1968), which also apply to attractive people (Moreland & Beach, 1992), and brand (Baker, 1999). Behavioral can be influenced by incidental exposure to stimuli because the primes can activate relevant constructs associated in memory (Christian Wheeler & Petty, 2001; Dijksterhuis & Bargh, 2001; Wheeler & Berger, 2007)

7.4.3 Emotions

(Milkman & Berger, 2014) found that contents that are (1) emotional aroused, (2) useful, or (3) interesting have a higher chance of being shared. Consistently, (Milkman & Berger, 2014) also found that women produce articles that are more likely to be shared because female authors write more comprehensible, useful, and interesting articles.

People share their extreme emotional experience (i.e., either highly satisfied or highly dissatisfied) (Anderson, 1998)

Lastly, people use WOM to persuade others to affect their satisfaction or choice (Berger, 2014). Thus, emotionally polarized (polarized valence) are more likely to be shared due to persuasion reasons. Since the goal is to convince something is good or bad, people share extremely rather moderately positive (negative) information.

Virality is partially driven by physiological arousal (Berger, 2011; Berger & Milkman, 2012). These results hold even when the authors control how surprising, interesting, or practically useful content is (all of which are positively linked to virality) and external drivers of attention (e.g., how prominently content was featured) (Berger & Milkman, 2012). Different emotion evokes different levels of physiological arousal (i.e., activation) (Smith & Ellsworth, 1985). Arousal is an excitatory state that increases action-related behavior, such as helping others (Gaertner & Dovidio, 1977). Hence, we see contents that are physiological arousal get shared more. Specifically, Negative high arousal emotions (e.g., anger or anxiety) are shared more than negative low arousal (e.g., sadness). Moreover, sharing negative experiences can help people vent to regulate their emotions (Berger, 2014). On the other hand, positive emotion high arousal emotions (e.g., awe, excitement, or amusement) are shared more than positive low arousal (e.g., contentment). Furthermore, sharing for the purpose of rehearsal (i.e., people talk to relive positive experiences) helps people regulate their emotions (Rimé, 2009).

7.5 Other variables

7.5.1 Contractuality

(Lisjak et al., 2021) defined contractuality as ” the extend to which a perk is perceived to be conditional on specific behaviors and contingencies dictated by a company.”

- Consumers like to have perks with less salient contractuality.
- The existing relationship with the company (e.g., dislike, distrusted) may giving consumers the wrong intention, or let them interpret the park as a manipulative act with ulterior motives.
- Low contractuality perks can foster “real” authentic WOM, but you have to trade off with effectiveness and efficiency (e.g., as in the case of filling out satisfaction survey).

7.5.2 Locus of Control

(Lam and Mizerski, 2005)

- An individual personality construct is locus of control
- Locus of control is defined as ”individuals’ general and daily expectancies about the causes of their reward and punishment (Lam and Mizerski, 2005, pp. 216), consisting of internal (i.e., one can control his or her lives) and external (i.e., external factors can control their lives such as luck, or fate).
 - Internals tended to be more educated (Lachman and Leff, 1989), higher household incomes (Hoffman et al., 2003), men and those in senior positions (Smith et al., 1997). Internals are more action-oriented, risk-taking.
 - Externals perform avoidance behavior, greater needs for affiliation
- Individuals with high internal locus of control are more likely to engage in WOM communication with their out-groups.
- Individuals with high external locus of control are more likely to engage in WOM with their in-group.

7.5.3 Horizontal/Vertical Individualism

(Choi and Kim, 2019)

- Antecedents of WOM: homophily, tie strength, trust.
- Culture affects individuals’ communication attitudes and styles.
- Vertical (i.e., emphasizing hierarchy) and horizontal (i.e., emphasizing equality) dimensions of individualism and collectivism (HVIC) (Singelis et al., 1995)

- opinion leadership: “the tendency that an individual attempts to influence the decisions of others by giving his or her opinion about products, services, or firms” (Choi and Kim, 2019, pp. 294)
 - * socially appropriate (horizontal orientation)
 - * show off knowledge (vertical orientation)
- opinion seeking “the tendency that an individual seeks information or opinions from more knowledgeable others to find out about and/or evaluate products or services” (Choi and Kim, 2019, pp. 294)
 - * well-informed decisions (individualism)
 - * find values and beliefs of the reference group (collectivism)
- Horizontal individualism is “a cultural pattern where an autonomous self is postulated but the individual is more or less equal in status with others” (Singelis et al., 1995, pp. 245)
- Vertical individualism is “a cultural pattern in which an autonomous self is postulated, but individuals see each other as different, and inequality is expected” (Singelis et al., 1995, pp. 245).
- Horizontal collectivism is “a cultural pattern in which the individual sees the self as an aspect of an in-group” (Singelis et al., 1995, pp. 244).
- Vertical collectivism is “a cultural pattern in which the individual sees the self as an aspect of an in-group, but the members of the in-group are different from each other, some having more status than others” (Singelis et al., 1995, pp. 244).
- Collectivist culture will have greater levels of opinion seeking, whereas individualist culture has greater information-giving. (Fong and Burton, 2008)
- Results:
 - “horizontal individualism to opinion leadership, vertical individualism to opinion leadership and opinion seeking”
 - “horizontal collectivism to opinion leadership, and vertical collectivism to opinion leadership and opinion seeking”

7.6 Articles

- Empirical evidence
 - contagion in consumer packaged goods (Du and Kamakura, 2011)
- Interesting stat:

- “Articles by business academics, psychologists, and economists, for example, are more likely to be shared than articles by physicists, geneticists, and biochemists” (Milkman & Berger, 2014)
“Specifically, men see the same scientific summaries as more comprehensible ($P < 0.001$), interesting ($P < 0.001$), and useful” hence they share more than women (Milkman & Berger, 2014)
- “though intentionally outrageous videos command attention (Tellis 2004), an ad design of this type ultimately detracts from the ad’s persuasiveness” (Tellis, 2004)
- (Godes & Mayzlin, 2004) the impact of dispersion declines over time; hence should measure WOM early in a product’s life. Main finding: higher WOM dispersion leads to higher future ratings. WOM is both precursors and consequences of consumer behavior.
- Promotional giveaways increase WOM (Berger & Schwartz, 2011)

Chapter 8

Customer Lifetime Value (CLV)

also known as Lifetime Value (LTV)

“A year’s projected business gives a number that is normally about half of a customer’s full lifetime value, although that can vary by industry.” (Kumar et al., 2007)

(Kumar et al., 2008) CLV model

$$CLV_i = \sum_{j=T+1}^{T+N} \frac{p(Buy_{ij} = 1) \times \hat{C}M_{ij}}{(1+r)^{j-T}} - \frac{\hat{M}C_{ij}}{(1-r)^{j-T}}$$

where

- CLV_i = lifetime value for customer i,
- $p(Buy_{ij})$ = predicted probability that customer i will purchase in period j,
- $\hat{C}M_{ij}$ = predicted contribution margin provided by customer i in period j,
- $\hat{M}C_{ij}$ = predicted marketing costs directed toward customer i in period j,
- j = index for time periods (semiannual or annual)
- T = the end of the calibration or observation time frame (usually 1 year projection),

- N = total number of prediction periods,
- r = semiannual discount factor (e.g., 0.07238 (Kumar et al., 2008) = 15% annual rate)

8.1 Example

This example is subscription customers by Sergey Bryl' in which he adapted model Fader and Hardie (2007)

```
library(tidyverse)

## Warning: package 'tidyverse' was built under R version 4.0.5
## -- Attaching packages ----- tidyverse 1.3.1 --
## v ggplot2 3.3.5      v purrr   0.3.4
## v tibble  3.1.2      v dplyr  1.0.6
## v tidyr   1.1.3      v stringr 1.4.0
## v readr   2.0.1      v forcats 0.5.1
## Warning: package 'ggplot2' was built under R version 4.0.5
## Warning: package 'readr' was built under R version 4.0.5
## Warning: package 'dplyr' was built under R version 4.0.5
## -- Conflicts ----- tidyverse_conflicts() --
## x dplyr::filter() masks stats::filter()
## x dplyr::lag()    masks stats::lag()
library(reshape2)

##
## Attaching package: 'reshape2'
## The following object is masked from 'package:tidyr':
##
##      smiths
library(MLmetrics)

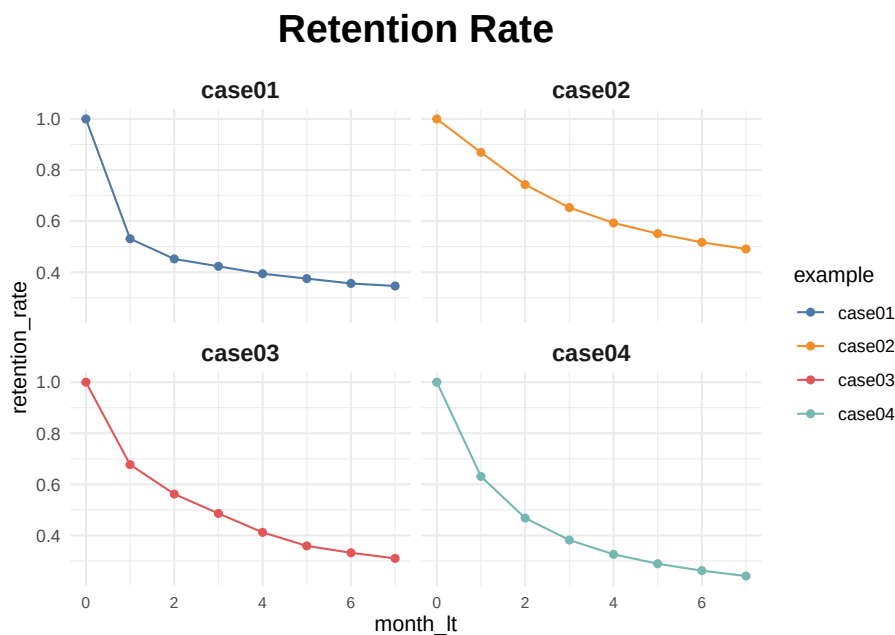
##
## Attaching package: 'MLmetrics'
## The following object is masked from 'package:base':
##
##      Recall
# retention rate data
df_ret <- data.frame(month_lt = c(0:7),
                     case01 = c(1, .531, .452, .423, .394, .375, .356, .346),
```

```

case02 = c(1, .869, .743, .653, .593, .551, .517, .491),
case03 = c(1, .677, .562, .486, .412, .359, .332, .310),
case04 = c(1, .631, .468, .382, .326, .289, .262, .241)
) %>%
melt(., id.vars = c('month_lt'), variable.name = 'example', value.name = 'retention_rate')

ggplot(df_ret, aes(x = month_lt, y = retention_rate, group = example, color = example)) +
  theme_minimal() +
  facet_wrap(~ example) +
  scale_color_manual(values = c('#4e79a7', '#f28e2b', '#e15759', '#76b7b2')) +
  geom_line() +
  geom_point() +
  theme(plot.title = element_text(size = 20, face = 'bold', vjust = 2, hjust = 0.5),
        axis.text.x = element_text(size = 8, hjust = 0.5, vjust = .5, face = 'plain'),
        strip.text = element_text(face = 'bold', size = 12)) +
  ggtitle('Retention Rate')

```



Prediction when we only have values on certain months

```

# functions for sBG distribution
churnBG <- Vectorize(function(alpha, beta, period) {
  t1 = alpha / (alpha + beta)
  result = t1
  if (period > 1) {
    result = churnBG(alpha, beta, period - 1) * (beta + period - 2) / (alpha + beta +

```

```

    }
    return(result)
}, vectorize.args = c("period"))

survivalBG <- Vectorize(function(alpha, beta, period) {
  t1 = 1 - churnBG(alpha, beta, 1)
  result = t1
  if(period > 1){
    result = survivalBG(alpha, beta, period - 1) - churnBG(alpha, beta, period)
  }
  return(result)
}, vectorize.args = c("period"))

MLL <- function(alphabeta) {
  if(length(activeCust) != length(lostCust)) {
    stop("Variables activeCust and lostCust have different lengths: ",
         length(activeCust), " and ", length(lostCust), ".")
  }
  t = length(activeCust) # number of periods
  alpha = alphabeta[1]
  beta = alphabeta[2]
  return(-as.numeric(
    sum(lostCust * log(churnBG(alpha, beta, 1:t))) +
    activeCust[t]*log(survivalBG(alpha, beta, t))
  ))
}

df_ret <- df_ret %>%
  group_by(example) %>%
  mutate(activeCust = 1000 * retention_rate,
         lostCust = lag(activeCust) - activeCust,
         lostCust = ifelse(is.na(lostCust), 0, lostCust)) %>%
  ungroup()

ret_preds01 <- vector('list', 7)
for (i in c(1:7)) {

  df_ret_filt <- df_ret %>%
    filter(between(month_lt, 1, i) == TRUE & example == 'case01')

  activeCust <- c(df_ret_filt$activeCust)
  lostCust <- c(df_ret_filt$lostCust)

```



```

    opt <- optim(c(1, 1), MLL)
    retention_pred <- round(c(1, survivalBG(alpha = opt$par[1], beta = opt$par[2], c(1:7))),

    df_pred <- data.frame(month_lt = c(0:7),
                          example = 'case01',
                          fact_months = i,
                          retention_pred = retention_pred)
    ret_preds01[[i]] <- df_pred
  }

## Warning in log(churnBG(alpha, beta, 1:t)): NaNs produced
## Warning in log(churnBG(alpha, beta, 1:t)): NaNs produced
## Warning in log(survivalBG(alpha, beta, t)): NaNs produced
## Warning in log(churnBG(alpha, beta, 1:t)): NaNs produced
## Warning in log(survivalBG(alpha, beta, t)): NaNs produced
## Warning in log(churnBG(alpha, beta, 1:t)): NaNs produced
## Warning in log(survivalBG(alpha, beta, t)): NaNs produced
## Warning in log(churnBG(alpha, beta, 1:t)): NaNs produced
## Warning in log(survivalBG(alpha, beta, t)): NaNs produced
ret_preds01 <- as.data.frame(do.call('rbind', ret_preds01))

ret_preds02 <- vector('list', 7)
for (i in c(1:7)) {

  df_ret_filt <- df_ret %>%
    filter(between(month_lt, 1, i) == TRUE & example == 'case02')

  activeCust <- c(df_ret_filt$activeCust)
  lostCust <- c(df_ret_filt$lostCust)

  opt <- optim(c(1, 1), MLL)
  retention_pred <- round(c(1, survivalBG(alpha = opt$par[1], beta = opt$par[2], c(1:7))),

  df_pred <- data.frame(month_lt = c(0:7),
                        example = 'case02',
                        fact_months = i,
                        retention_pred = retention_pred)
  ret_preds02[[i]] <- df_pred
}

```

```

## Warning in log(churnBG(alpha, beta, 1:t)): NaNs produced

## Warning in log(churnBG(alpha, beta, 1:t)): NaNs produced

## Warning in log(churnBG(alpha, beta, 1:t)): NaNs produced

## Warning in log(churnBG(alpha, beta, 1:t)): NaNs produced

## Warning in log(churnBG(alpha, beta, 1:t)): NaNs produced

## Warning in log(churnBG(alpha, beta, 1:t)): NaNs produced

ret_preds02 <- as.data.frame(do.call('rbind', ret_preds02))

ret_preds03 <- vector('list', 7)
for (i in c(1:7)) {

  df_ret_filt <- df_ret %>%
    filter(between(month_lt, 1, i) == TRUE & example == 'case03')

  activeCust <- c(df_ret_filt$activeCust)
  lostCust <- c(df_ret_filt$lostCust)

  opt <- optim(c(1, 1), MLL)
  retention_pred <- round(c(1, survivalBG(alpha = opt$par[1], beta = opt$par[2],

  df_pred <- data.frame(month_lt = c(0:7),
                        example = 'case03',
                        fact_months = i,
                        retention_pred = retention_pred)
  ret_preds03[[i]] <- df_pred
}

ret_preds03 <- as.data.frame(do.call('rbind', ret_preds03))

ret_preds04 <- vector('list', 7)
for (i in c(1:7)) {

  df_ret_filt <- df_ret %>%
    filter(between(month_lt, 1, i) == TRUE & example == 'case04')

  activeCust <- c(df_ret_filt$activeCust)

```

```

lostCust <- c(df_ret_filt$lostCust)

opt <- optim(c(1, 1), MLL)
retention_pred <- round(c(1, survivalBG(alpha = opt$par[1], beta = opt$par[2], c(1:7))),

df_pred <- data.frame(month_lt = c(0:7),
                      example = 'case04',
                      fact_months = i,
                      retention_pred = retention_pred)
ret_preds04[[i]] <- df_pred
}

ret_preds04 <- as.data.frame(do.call('rbind', ret_preds04))

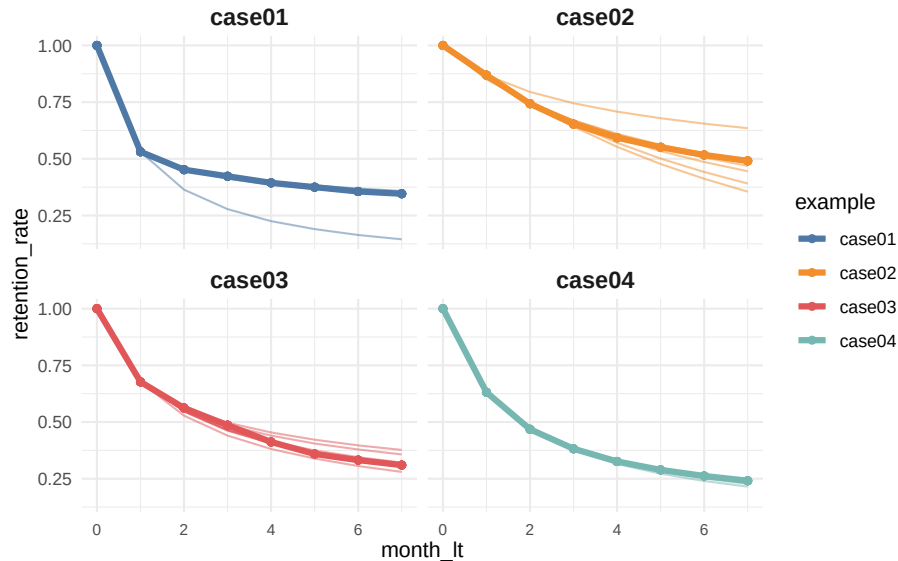
ret_preds <- bind_rows(ret_preds01, ret_preds02, ret_preds03, ret_preds04)

df_ret_all <- df_ret %>%
  select(month_lt, example, retention_rate) %>%
  left_join(., ret_preds, by = c('month_lt', 'example'))

ggplot(df_ret_all, aes(x = month_lt, y = retention_rate, group = example, color = example)) +
  theme_minimal() +
  facet_wrap(~ example) +
  scale_color_manual(values = c('#4e79a7', '#f28e2b', '#e15759', '#76b7b2')) +
  geom_line(size = 1.5) +
  geom_point(size = 1.5) +
  geom_line(aes(y = retention_pred, group = fact_months), alpha = 0.5) +
  theme(plot.title = element_text(size = 20, face = 'bold', vjust = 2, hjust = 0.5),
        axis.text.x = element_text(size = 8, hjust = 0.5, vjust = .5, face = 'plain'),
        strip.text = element_text(face = 'bold', size = 12)) +
  ggtitle('Retention Rate Projections')

```

Retention Rate Projections



calculate the average LTV for case03 based on two historical months with a forecast horizon of 24 months and a subscription price of \$1

```
### LTV prediction ###
df_ltv_03 <- df_ret %>%
  filter(between(month_lt, 1, 2) == TRUE & example == 'case03')

activeCust <- c(df_ltv_03$activeCust)
lostCust <- c(df_ltv_03$lostCust)

opt <- optim(c(1, 1), MLL)
retention_pred <- round(c(survivalBG(alpha = opt$par[1], beta = opt$par[2], c(3:24))),

df_pred <- data.frame(month_lt = c(3:24),
  retention_pred = retention_pred)

df_ltv_03 <- df_ret %>%
  filter(between(month_lt, 0, 2) == TRUE & example == 'case03') %>%
  select(month_lt, retention_rate) %>%
  bind_rows(., df_pred) %>%
  mutate(retention_rate_calc = ifelse(is.na(retention_rate), retention_pred, retention_rate),
    ltv_monthly = retention_rate_calc * 1,
    ltv_cum = round(cumsum(ltv_monthly), 2))
# average LTV of $9.33. actual data for the observed periods (from 0 to 2nd months) and
```

8.2 Referral value (CRV)

“Referrals made by customers after a referral-incentive marketing campaign can be attributed to that campaign for about a year.” (Kumar et al., 2007). Hence, we usually count those referrals made after one year of a campaign.

2 types of referral:

- Type-one referral: Would not join without referral.
- Type-two referral: still join without referral.

(Kumar et al., 2007) estimated that each customer made about half type-one and half type-two referrals.

Referral value = PV(Type-one referrals) + PV(Type-two referrals)

where

- PV(type-two referrals) = the present value of the savings in acquisition costs.

$$CRV_i = \sum_{t=1}^T \sum_{y=1}^{n1} \frac{A_{ty} - a_{ty} - M_{ty} + ACQ1_{ty}}{(1+r)^t} + \sum_{t=1}^T \sum_{y=n1+1}^{n2} \frac{ACQ2_{ty}}{(1+r)^t}$$

where

- T = the number of periods that will be predicted into the future (e.g., typically 1 year)
- A_{ty} = the gross margin contributed by customer y who otherwise would not have bought the product,
- a_{ty} = the cost of the referral for the customer y (this is what you set up)
- $n1$ = the number of customers who would not join without the referral,
- $n2 - n1$ = the number of customers who would have joined anyway,
- M_{ty} = the marketing costs needed to retain the referred customers,
- r = semiannual discount factor ((Kumar et al., 2008) used .07238 = 15% annual rate)
- $ACQ1_{ty}$ = the savings in acquisition costs from customers who would not join without the referral,
- $ACQ2_{ty}$ = the savings in acquisition cost from customers who would have joined anyway.

Customers with high CLV does not guarantee high CRV (Kumar et al., 2007). Hence, (Kumar et al., 2007) proposed the customer value matrix

```
## Warning: package 'jpeg' was built under R version 4.0.5
```

The Customer Value Matrix

When we segmented the customers in our telecom sample according to their lifetime values and referral values, it was easy to see which customers needed to be encouraged to buy more and which should be nudged to make more recommendations.

Average CRV after one year

Average CLV after one year		Average CRV after one year	
		LOW	HIGH
HIGH	AFFLUENTS 29% of customers CLV = \$1,219 CRV = \$49	CHAMPIONS 21% of customers CLV = \$370 CRV = \$590	
LOW	MISERS 21% of customers CLV = \$130 CRV = \$64	ADVOCATES 29% of customers CLV = \$180 CRV = \$670	

Note: Cutoff points for the low and high CLVs and CRVs were set at the median value for both measures.

Chapter 9

Finance-Marketing Interface

Market-based assets are: relational and intellectual.

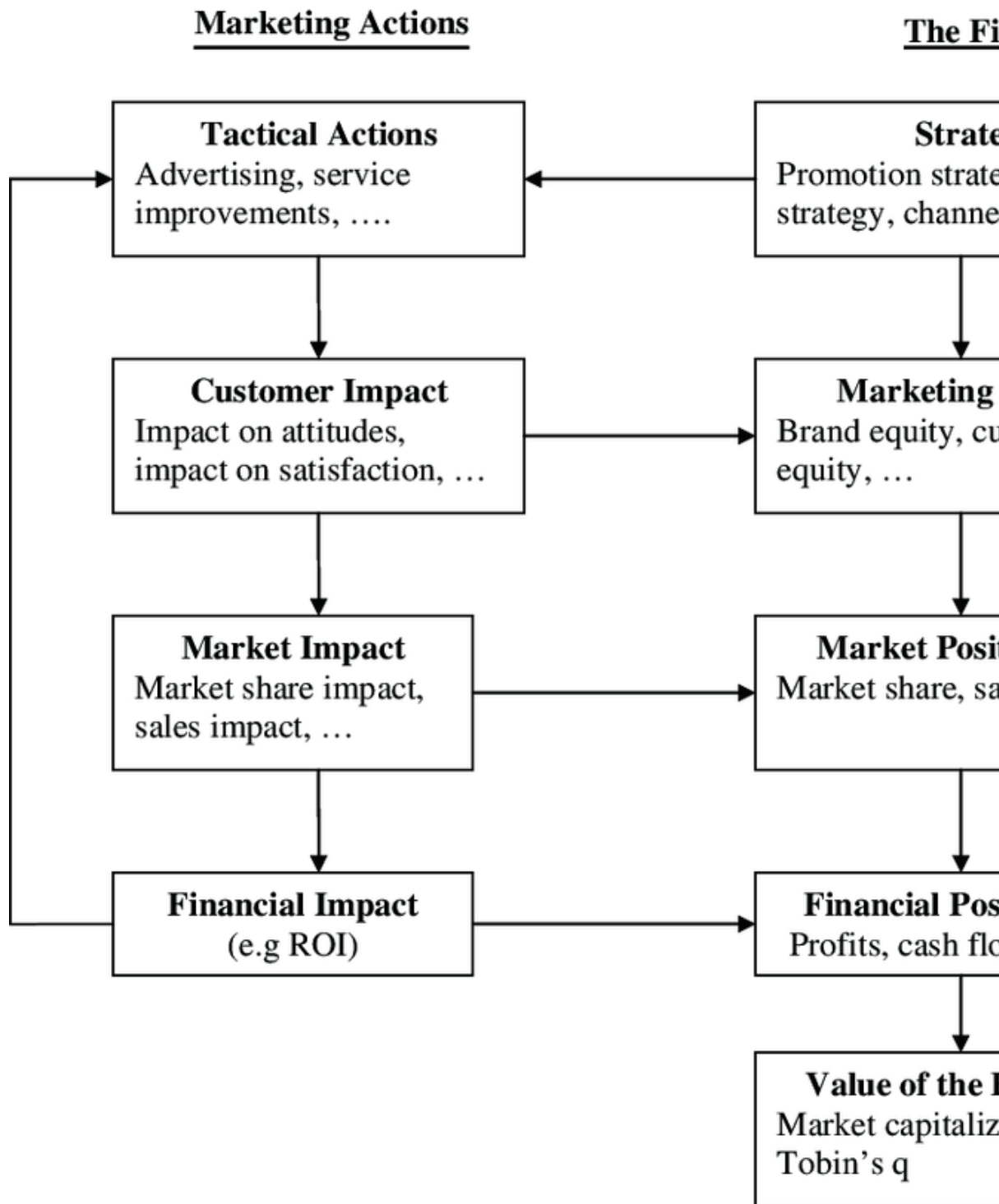
Relational market-based assets are “outcomes of the relationship between a firm and key external stakeholders, including distributors, retailers, end customers, other strategic partners”. (Srivastava et al., 1998)

For example, brand equity = relational assets between firms and their customers, while channel equity - relational assets between firms and their channel partners.

Intellectual market-based assets are “the types of knowledge a firm possesses about the environment, such as the emerging and the potential state of market conditions and the entities in it, including competitors, customers, channels, suppliers, and social and political interest group.” (Srivastava et al., 1998)

Marketing actions (e.g, advertizing, product innovation) can build long-term assets (e.g., brand equity, customer equity), in turn increase short-term profitability (e.g., increase marketing effectiveness for dollars spent on advertising) (Rust et al., 2004)

Warning: package 'jpeg' was built under R version 4.0.5



The Chain of Marketing Productivity (source (Rust et al., 2004))

Relationship between marketing and finance (Srivastava et al., 1998)

Stage 1: Market-based Assets

- Customer relationships: Brands, installed base.
- Partner Relationship: channels, co-branding network.

Stage 2:

- Faster Market penetration
- Price premium
- share premium
- extensions
- reduce sales/service costs
- Loyalty/ Retention

Stage 3: Shareholder value:

- Accelerate Cash Flows
- Enhance Cash Flows
- Reduce Volatility and Vulnerability of Cash flows
- Enhance Residual Value of Cash Flows.

(Grewal et al., 2010; McAlister et al., 2016; Morgan and Rego, 2009) used Tobin's Q in marketing research. since it is "forward-looking, risk-adjusted, and less easily manipulated by managers" (Wies et al., 2019). When probing factors affecting Tobin's Q, it was suggested to control for Financial Leverage, Cash flows

(Anderson et al., 2018) found that there is a significant improvements from increasing both business skills (marketing and finance). However, the pathway to improve profits from marketing skills is via growth focus (e.g., higher sales, more investments in products, and employees). The pathway to improve profits from the finance skills is via efficiency or cost focus. Hence, the recommendation is that marketing/sales skills have better fit for startups, while finance/accounting skills are more needed in mature companies.

Chapter 10

Communication

10.1 Information Theory

10.1.1 Entropy

Most of the examples are taken from `philentropy` package in R, which can be accessed via [this link](#)

10.1.1.1 Discrete Entropy

If $\mathbf{p}_X = (p_{x1}, p_{x2}, \dots, p_{xn})$ is the probability distribution of the discrete random variable X with $P(X = x) = p_{xi}$. Then, the **entropy** of the distribution is (Shannon, 1948)

$$H(\mathbf{p}_X) = - \sum_{x_i} p_{xi} \log_2 p_{xi}$$

where

- entropy unit is **bits**, and $H(p) \in [0, 1]$ and max at $p = 0.5$
- or the unit is **nats** ($\log_e$)
- or the unit is **dits** ($\log_{10}$)

In general, if you have different bases, you can convert between units. Given bases a and b

$$\log_a k = \log_a b \times \log_b k$$

where $\log_a b$ is a constant.

Generalize

$$H_b(X) = \log_b a \times H_a(X)$$

Equivalently,

$$H(X) = E\left(\frac{1}{\log p(x)}\right)$$

Entropy is the measure of how much information gained from learning the value of X (Zwillinger, 1995, pp.262). Entropy depends on the distribution of X .

Example:

If X has 2 values, then $\mathbf{p} = (p, 1 - p)$ and

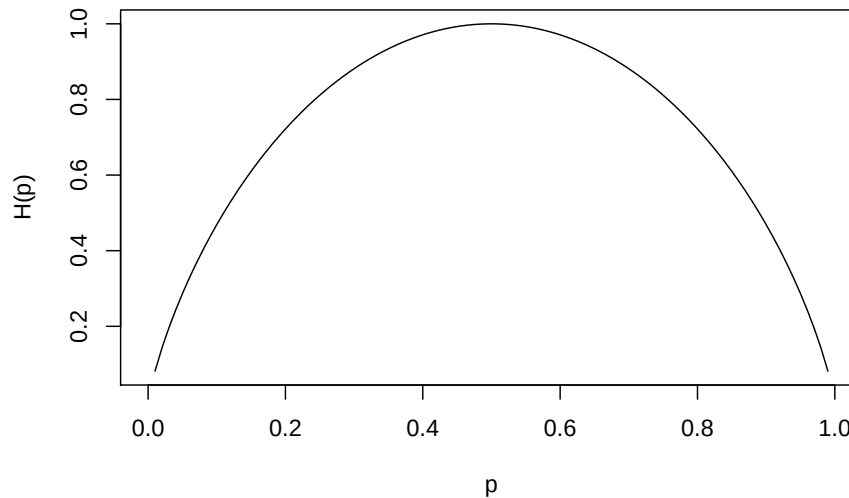
$$H(\mathbf{p}_X) = H(p, 1 - p) = -p \log_2 p - (1 - p) \log_2 (1 - p)$$

which is known as binary entropy function

Plot of p vs. $H(p)$ where $\max$ of $H(\mathbf{p}_X) = \log_2 n$ when $X \sim U$

```
hb <- function(gamma) {
  -gamma * log2(gamma) - (1 - gamma) * log2(1 - gamma) # output in bits
}

xs <- seq(0, 1, len = 100)
plot(xs,
      hb(xs),
      type = 'l',
      xlab = "p",
      ylab = "H(p)")
```



```
library("phileentropy")

## Warning: package 'phileentropy' was built under R version 4.0.5
Prob <- 1:10/sum(1:10) # probabilities P(X)
H(Prob) # Shannon's Entropy

## [1] 3.103643
```

10.1.1.2 Mutual Information

If X and Y are two discrete random variables and $\mathbf{p}_{X \times Y}$ is their joint distribution, the **mutual information** (i.e., learning of a value of X gives information about the value of Y) of X and Y is

$$I(X, Y) = I(Y, X) = H(\mathbf{p}_X) + H(\mathbf{p}_Y) - H(\mathbf{p}_{X \times Y})$$

where $I(X, Y) \geq 0$ and $I(X, Y) = 0$ iff X and Y are independent (information about X gives no information about Y).

Equivalently,

$$MI(X, Y) = \sum_{i=1}^n \sum_{j=1}^m P(x_i, y_j) \times \log_b \left(\frac{P(x_i, y_j)}{P(x_i) \times P(y_j)} \right)$$

Properties:

- $I(X; X) = H(X)$ known as self-information
- $I(X; Y) \geq 0$ with equality iff $X \perp Y$

```
P_x <- 1:10/sum(1:10) # distribution P(X)
P_y <- 20:29/sum(20:29) # distribution P(Y)
P_xy <- 1:10/sum(1:10) # joint distribution P(X,Y)
MI(P_x, P_y, P_xy) # Mutual Information
```

```
## [1] 3.311973
```

10.1.1.3 Relative Entropy

The measure of the distance between distribution p and q is called **relative entropy**, denoted by $D(p||q)$

Equivalently, it measures the inefficiency of assuming distribution q when the true distribution is p .

The relative entropy between $p(x)$ and $q(x)$ is

$$D(p||q) = \sum_x p(x) \log \frac{p(x)}{q(x)}$$

where

- $D(p||q) \geq 0$ and equality iff $p = q$

10.1.1.4 Joint-Entropy

$$H(X, Y) = - \sum_{i=1}^n \sum_{j=1}^m P(x_i, y_j) \times \log_b(P(x_i, y_j))$$

```
P_xy <- 1:10/sum(1:10) # joint distribution P(X,Y)
JE(P_xy) # Joint-Entropy
```

```
## [1] 3.103643
```

10.1.1.5 Conditional Entropy

$$H(Y|X) = - \sum_{i=1}^n \sum_{j=1}^m P(x_i, y_j) \times \log_b\left(\frac{P(x_i)}{P(x_i, y_j)}\right)$$

```
P_x <- 1:10/sum(1:10) # distribution P(X)
P_y <- 1:10/sum(1:10) # distribution P(Y)
CE(P_x, P_y) # Joint-Entropy
```

```
## [1] 0
```

Relation among entropy measures

$$H(X, Y) = H(X) + H(Y|X) = H(Y) + H(X|Y)$$

Properties:

- Chain rule: $H(X_1, \dots, X_n) = \sum_{i=1}^n H(X_i|X_{i-1}, \dots, X_1)$
- $0 \leq H(Y|X) \leq H(Y)$ Information on X does not increase the entropy measure of Y
- If $X \perp Y$, then $H(Y|X) = H(Y)$; $H(X, Y) = H(X) + H(Y)$
- $H(X) \leq \log|n_X|$ where n_X = number of elements in X
- $H(X) = \log(n_X)$ iff $X \sim U$
- $H(X_1, \dots, X_n) \leq \sum_i^n H(X_i)$
- $H(X_1, \dots, X_n) = \sum_i^n H(X_i)$ iff X_i 's are mutually independent.

10.1.1.6 Continuous Entropy

If X is a continuous variable, its entropy is

$$h(\mathbf{X}) = - \int_{R^d} p(\mathbf{x}) \log p(\mathbf{x}) dx$$

where d is the dimension of X.

If X and Y are continuous random variables with density functions $p(\mathbf{x})$ and $q(\mathbf{y})$, the relative entropy is

$$H(X, Y) = \int_{R^d} p(x) \log \frac{p(x)}{q(x)} dx$$

More advance analysis can be access [here](#)

10.1.2 Divergence

Three metrics for divergence can be found [here](#):

- Kullback-Leibler
- Jensen-Shannon
- Generalized Jensen-Shannon

10.1.3 Channel Capacity

The information channel capacity of a discrete memoryless channel is

$$C = \max_{p(x)} I(X; Y)$$

which is the highest rate use at which information can be sent without much error.

More information can be found [here](#)

Chapter 11

Metrics

11.1 Return on Investment (ROI)

$$ROI = \frac{\text{Net Profit}}{\text{Investment}}$$

Similarly, return on marketing investment

$$ROIM = \frac{IRAM - CM}{MS}$$

where

- IRAM = Incremental Revenue Attributable to Marketing
- CM = Cost of the Marketing Investment
- MS = Marketing Spending

If ROMI is positive, then firm is on doing well.

11.2 Economic Value Added

- also known as economic profit.
- is a measure based on the residual wealth calculated by deducting its cost of capital from its operating profit, adjusted for taxes on a cash basis.
- measures the value a company generates from its invested funds.
- EVA relies heavily on invested capital. Hence, more suitable for asset-rich companies, whereas companies with intangible assets, such as technology businesses, may not be good candidates.

$$EVA = NOPAT - (InvestedCapital * WACC)$$

where

- NOPAT = Net Operating profit after taxes = Operating Profit x (1-Tax Rate)
- Invested capital = Debt + capital leases + shareholders' equity = Equity + long-term debt at the beginning of the period
- WACC = Weighted average cost of capital (average rate of return a company expects to pay its investors).

$$- WACC = \frac{K_e \times E}{E+D} + \frac{K_d \times (1-t) \times D}{E+D}$$

* K_e = required return on equity

* $K_d(1-t)$ = after tax return on debt.

- (WACC* capital invested) is also known as a **finance charge**

Invested capital can also be calculated as (Total Assets - Current Liabilities). Hence, the modified version of EVA is:

$$EVA = NOPAT - (\text{total assets} - \text{current liabilities}) * WACC$$

11.3 Market Value Added

- is the amount of wealth that a company is able to create for its stakeholders since its foundation.
- (the current market value of the company's stock - the initial invested capital)

MVA = market value of shares (or enterprise value)—book value of shareholders' equity

11.4 Unexpected size-adjusted advertising investments

(Chakravarty and Grewal, 2016; Kim and McAlister, 2011; Liu et al., 2017) used

11.5 Shareholder Complaints

(Wies et al., 2019) used data from RiskMetrics

11.6 Profitability

(Grewal et al., 2008; McAlister et al., 2016)

$$\text{profitability} = \frac{\text{operating income before depreciation}}{\text{total assets}}$$

11.7 Firm Size

(Grewal et al., 2010; McAlister et al., 2016; Nezami et al., 2018) used log of total asset in million as firm size

$$\text{firm size} = \log(\text{total assets})$$

Sales Growth (Grewal et al., 2010; Nezami et al., 2018; Rao et al., 2004)

Percentage change in gross sales = sales growth

11.8 Financial Flexibility

11.8.1 Cash flows

(Chakravarty and Grewal, 2011; Malshe and Agarwal, 2015) Cash flows = $\log(\text{operating cash flow in mil})$

11.8.2 Financial Leverage

(Kashmiri and Mahajan, 2017; Chakravarty and Grewal, 2011)

$$\text{financial leverage} = \frac{\text{long-term debt}}{\text{book value of assets}}$$

11.9 Stock return

(Markovitch et al., 2005; Chakravarty and Grewal, 2011, 2016) used dummy if stock returns exceed industry averaged stock returns

11.10 Financial Flexibility

11.11 Net Contribution

Net contribution = gross margin x sales - cost of marketing

$$NC = m \times S(a) - ka$$

Chapter 12

Data

12.1 MongoDB

in Mongo shell to check the location of your MongoDB files

```
db.adminCommand("getCmdLineOpts")
```

12.2 WRDS

Retrieve data from WRDS

```
## Warning: package 'RPostgres' was built under R version 4.0.5
```

```
## Warning: package 'dplyr' was built under R version 4.0.5
```

```
# to set up connection from R to WRDS (https://wrds-www.wharton.upenn.edu/pages/support/programming)
```

```
library(RPostgres)
```

```
library(dplyr)
```

```
# I've set up wrds connection before hand. Please use your username and password here.
```

```
# wrds <- dbConnect(Postgres(),  
#  
#  
#  
#  
#  
#  
#  
#  
#  
host='wrds-pgdata.wharton.upenn.edu',  
port=9737,  
dbname='wrds',  
sslmode='require',  
user='')
```

```
# Check variables (column headers) in COMP ANNUAL FUNDAMENTAL
```

```
#uses the already-established wrds connection to prepare the SQL query string and save the query
```

```
# check available databases: https://wrds-web.wharton.upenn.edu/wrds/tools/variable.cfm?vendor\_id
```

```

res <- dbSendQuery(wrds, "select column_name
                        from information_schema.columns
                        where table_schema='compa'
                        and table_name='funda'
                        order by column_name")
data <- dbFetch(res, n=-1) # fetches the data that results from running the query res
dbClearResult(res) # closes the connection
head(data)

##   column_name
## 1         acchg
## 2         acco
## 3         accrt
## 4        acctchg
## 5        acctstd
## 6         acdo

# select everything
res <- dbSendQuery(wrds, "select * from compa.funda")

# from compa.funda

# only select the following variables
res <- dbSendQuery(wrds, "select gvkey, datadate, fyear, indfmt, consol, popsrc, dataf")

## Warning in result_create(conn@ptr, statement): Closing open result set,
## cancelling previous query
# res <- dbSendQuery(wrds, "select gvkey, gp from compa.funda") #check variables from
data1 <- dbFetch(res, n=-1)
dbClearResult(res)

data = data1 %>%
  distinct(gvkey, datadate, fyear, tic, comm, .keep_all = T)

```

12.3 YouTube

- YouTube Ads
- YouTube Analytics and Reporting APIs: All YouTube Analytics and YouTube Reporting API requests must be authorized by the channel or content owner that owns the requested data

12.3.1 OAuth

Go to [link](#) to access your API

```
library(tuber)
app_id = "YOUR APP ID"
app_secret = "YOUR APP SECRET"
yt_oauth(app_id, app_secret)

get_stats(video_id = "N708P-A45D0")
```

Note for Ubuntu user

```
httr::set_config(httr::config( ssl_verifypeer = 0L ) )
```

Get info about a video

```
get_video_details(video_id="N708P-A45D0")
```

Get caption of a video

```
get_captions(video_id="yJTXN4xrI8")
```

Search Videos

```
res <- yt_search(term = "test")
head(res[, 1:3])
```

Get Comments of a video

```
res <- get_comment_threads(c(video_id="N708P-A45D0"))
head(res)
```

Get All the Comments Including Replies

```
get_all_comments(video_id = "a-UQz7fqR3w")
```

Get statistics of all the videos in a channel

```
a <- list_channel_resources(filter = c(channel_id = "UCT5Cx114IS3wHkJXNyuj4TA"), part="contentDetails")

# Uploaded playlists:
playlist_id <- a$items[[1]]$contentDetails$relatedPlaylists$uploads

# Get videos on the playlist
vids <- get_playlist_items(filter= c(playlist_id=playlist_id))

# Video ids
vid_ids <- as.vector(vids$contentDetails.videoId)

# Function to scrape stats for all vids
get_all_stats <- function(id) {
  get_stats(id)
```

```

}

# Get stats and convert results to data frame
res <- lapply(vid_ids, get_all_stats)
res_df <- do.call(rbind, lapply(res, data.frame))

head(res_df)

```

12.3.2 API

```

require(curl)
require(jsonlite)
library(kableExtra)
library(dplyr)
library(ggplot2)
library(plotly)
library(reshape2)

API_key = "YOUR API KEY"

getstats_video<-function(video_id,API_key){

  url=paste0("https://www.googleapis.com/youtube/v3/videos?part=snippet,statistics&id=")
  result <- fromJSON(txt=url)
  salida=list()
  return(data.frame(name=result$items$snippet$channelTitle, result$items$statistics,ti
)

get_playlist_canal<-function(id,API_key,topn=15){

  url=paste0('https://www.googleapis.com/youtube/v3/playlistItems?part=contentDetails&')

  result=fromJSON(txt=url)
  return(data.frame(result$items$contentDetails))
}

getstats_canal<-function(id,API_key){

url=paste0('https://www.googleapis.com/youtube/v3/channels?part=snippet%2CcontentDetail

result <- fromJSON(txt=url)
return(data.frame(name=result$items$snippet$title,result$items$statistics,pl_list_id=r

}

```



```
getall_channels<-function(ids,API_key,topn=5){
  videos=lapply(ids,FUN=get_playlist_canal,API_key=API_key,topn=topn) %>% bind_rows()
  stats=lapply(videos[,1],FUN=getstats_video,API_key=API_key)
  stats=bind_rows(stats)
  stats$vid_id=videos[,1]
  return(stats)
}
```

Statistics per Channel

```
can_st=lapply(comp_data$cha_id,FUN = getstats_canal,API_key=API_key)
can_st=bind_rows(can_st)
can_st$viewCount=as.numeric(can_st$viewCount)
can_st[,1:6] %>% kable() %>%kable_styling()
```

```
can_st$viewCount=round(as.numeric(can_st$viewCount)/1000000,2)
p1=can_st %>% ggplot(aes(x=reorder(name,viewCount),y=viewCount,fill=name))+
  geom_bar(stat="sum")+guides(size=F)+coord_flip()+scale_fill_manual(values = c("red", "darkblue",
  geom_text(inherit.aes = T,aes(label=paste(viewCount,"M")),nudge_y =0,angle = 90)+
  labs(x="Total Visualizations(Millions)",y="Visualizations",fill="")+
  theme(legend.position = "top")+mytheme3

  ggplotly(p1,tooltip=c("name","viewCount")) %>%
    layout(legend = list(orientation = "h",x = 0.01, y = -0.1,autosize=F))
```

Information on Individual Videos per Channel

```
var_to_see="dislikeCount" #favoriteCount or commentCount
```

```
info=getall_channels(ids = can_st$pl_list_id.uploads,API_key = API_key,topn =20)
```

```
datacond=melt(info[,c(1:6,8)],id.vars = c("name","date"))
datacond$date=as.Date(datacond$date)
datacond$value=as.numeric(datacond$value)
```

```
ggplot(filter(datacond,variable==var_to_see),aes(x=as.Date(date),y=value,fill=name))+
  geom_bar(stat="sum")+labs(x=var_to_see,y="",fill="")+guides(size=FALSE)+scale_fill_manual(values
  scale_x_date(limits =as.Date(c(as.Date(min(datacond$date)),as.Date(Sys.time()))),date_breaks =
```

12.3.3 Python

Pytube

```
# from pytube import YouTube
# YouTube('https://youtube.com/watch?v=2lAe1cqCOXo').streams.first().download()

import requests
import json
r = requests.get("http://gdata.youtube.com/feeds/api/standardfeeds/top Rated?v=2&alt=json")
#r.text
data = json.loads(r.text)
data
# for item in data['data']['items']:
#     print "Video Title: %s" % (item['title'])
#     print "Video Category: %s" % (item['category'])
#     print "Video ID: %s" % (item['id'])
#     print "Video Rating: %f" % (item['rating'])
#     print "Embed URL: %s" % (item['player']['default'])
```

Using BeautifulSoup

```
from requests_html import HTMLSession
from bs4 import BeautifulSoup as bs # importing BeautifulSoup

# sample youtube video url
video_url = "https://www.youtube.com/watch?v=jNQXAC9IVRw"
# init an HTML Session
session = HTMLSession()
# get the html content
response = session.get(video_url)
# execute Java-script
response.html.render(sleep=1)
# create bs object to parse HTML
soup = bs(response.html.html, "html.parser")
# write all HTML code into a file
open("video.html", "w", encoding='utf8').write(response.html.html)
```

Generate random video

```
import json
import urllib.request
import string
import random

count = 50
API_KEY = 'your_key'
random = ''.join(random.choice(string.ascii_uppercase + string.digits) for _ in range(count))

urlData = "https://www.googleapis.com/youtube/v3/search?key={}&maxResults={}&part=snippet"
webURL = urllib.request.urlopen(urlData)
```

```

data = webURL.read()
encoding = webURL.info().get_content_charset('utf-8')
results = json.loads(data.decode(encoding))

for data in results['items']:
    videoId = (data['id']['videoId'])
    print(videoId)
    #store your ids

```

Random used by YouTube API, test

```

# -*- coding: utf-8 -*-

# Sample Python code for youtube.search.list
# See instructions for running these code samples locally:
# https://developers.google.com/explorer-help/guides/code_samples#python

import os

import google_auth_oauthlib.flow
import googleapiclient.discovery
import googleapiclient.errors

scopes = ["https://www.googleapis.com/auth/youtube.force-ssl"]

def main():
    # Disable OAuthlib's HTTPS verification when running locally.
    # *DO NOT* leave this option enabled in production.
    os.environ["OAUTHLIB_INSECURE_TRANSPORT"] = "1"

    api_service_name = "youtube"
    api_version = "v3"
    client_secrets_file = "YOUR_CLIENT_SECRET_FILE.json"

    # Get credentials and create an API client
    flow = google_auth_oauthlib.flow.InstalledAppFlow.from_client_secrets_file(
        client_secrets_file, scopes)
    credentials = flow.run_console()
    youtube = googleapiclient.discovery.build(
        api_service_name, api_version, credentials=credentials)

    request = youtube.search().list(
        part="snippet",
        maxResults=25,
        q="surfing"
    )

```

```

response = request.execute()

print(response)

if __name__ == "__main__":
    main()

```

Another way, but this is a dirty crawler, not for production

```

import re, urllib
from random import randint

def random_str(str_size):
    res = ""
    for i in xrange(str_size):
        x = randint(0,25)
        c = chr(ord('a')+x)
        res += c
    return res

def find_watch(text,pos):
    start = text.find("watch?v=",pos)
    if (start<0):
        return None,None
    end = text.find(" ",start)
    if (end<0):
        return None,None

    if (end-start > 200): #silly heuristics, probably not a must
        return None,None

    return text[start:end-1], start

def find_instance_links():
    base_url = 'https://www.youtube.com/results?search_query='
    url = base_url+random_str(3)
    #print url

    r = urllib.urlopen(url).read()

    links = {}

    pos = 0
    while True:
        link,pos = find_watch(r,pos)

```

```

        if link == None or pos == None:
            break
        pos += 1
        #print link
        if (";" in link):
            continue
        links[link] = 1

    items_list = links.items()

    list_size = len(items_list)
    selected = randint(list_size/2, list_size-1)
    return items_list[selected][0]

for i in xrange(1000):
    sleep(randint(7,20)) # pause randomly between 7 and 20 seconds
    link = find_instance_links()
    print link

```

12.4 Consumer Expenditure

- A consumer unit: “a single person, or group of person who live together and who share responsibilities for most major expenditures.”
- The “Reference Person” is **the first person named** when the respondent is asked, “Who is responsible for owning or renting this home?”
- 2 components to the Consumer Expenditure:
 - Interview survey
 - * for “big ticket” and recurring expenditures, and global estimates on others
 - * every three months for four quarter
 - * rotating-panel survey
 - * 6,000 consumer units each quarter
 - Diary survey
 - * small-ticket, frequently purchased items
 - * independent from the interview survey
 - * about 14,000 diaries within families each year
- Table format
 - annual

- * Jan to Dec: since 1984
 - * July to June: since 2013
 - two-year (Jan year 1 - Dec year 2)
 - * since 1986
- Experimental research
 - all consumer units (available on request)
 - E.g., income tables, generational groups (e.g., millennial, gen X)
-

Chapter 13

Modeling Application

13.1 Transformation

13.1.1 Log-transformation

(Manchanda et al., 2004; Wies et al., 2019) used 1 in place of 0 for log-transformation. And also use 0.5 and 0.0001 for sensitivity analysis.

To control for firm size effects, (Wies et al., 2019) scale advertising investments by the firm's total assets in the given year

13.2 Endogeneity

13.2.1 Control Function

In the context of consumer choice model (Petrin and Train, 2010)

Chapter 14

Analytical Models

This theoretical/analytical model part of this section comes mostly from professor Murali Mantrala's Marketing Model Seminar.

Marketing models consists of

1. Analytical Model: pure mathematical-based research
2. Empirical Model: data analysis.

"A model is a representation of the most important elements of a perceived real-world system".

Marketing model improves decision-making

- Econometric models
 - Description
 - Prediction
 - Simulation
- Optimization models
 - maximize profit using market response model, cost functions, or any constraints.
- Quasi- and Field experimental analyses
- Conjoint Choice Experiments.

"A decision calculus will be defined as a model-based set of procedures for processing data and judgments to assist a manager in his decision making"(Little, 1976):

- simple
- robust
- easy to control

- adaptive
- as complete as possible
- easy to communicate with

		Type of game	
Info Content	Complete	Static Nash	Dynamic Subgame perfect
	Incomplete	Bayesian Nash (Auctions)	Perfect Bayesian (signaling)

(Moorthy, 1993)

- Mathematical Theoretical Models
- Logical Experimentation
- An environment as a model, specified by assumptions
 - Math assumptions for tractability
 - Substantive assumptions for empirical testing
- Decision support modeling describe how things work, and theoretical modeling present how things should work.
- Compensation package including salaries and commission is a tradeoff between reduced income risk and motivation to work hard.
- Internal and External Validity are questions related to the boundaries conditions of your experiments.
- “Theories are tested by their predictions, not by the realism of their super model assumptions.” (Friedman, 1953)

(McAfee and McMillan, 1996)

- Competition is performed under uncertainty
- Competition reveals hidden information
 - Independent-private-values case: selling price = second highest valuation
 - It’s always better for sellers to reveal information since it reduces chances of cautious bidding that is resulted from the winner’s curse
- Competition is better than bargaining
 - Competition requires less computation and commitment abilities
- Competition creates effort incentives

(Leeflang et al., 2000)

- Types of model:
 - Predictive model
 - * Sales model: using time series data
 - * Trial rate: using exponential growth.
 - * Product growth model: Bass (1969)
 - Descriptive model
 - * Purchase incidence and purchase timing : use Poisson process
 - * Brand choice: Markov models or learning models.
 - * Pricing decisions in an oligopolistic market Howard and Morgenroth (1968)
 - Normative model
 - * Profit maximization based on price, adverting and quality (Dorfman and Steiner, 1976), extended by (Roberts et al., 1964; Lambin, 1970)

Later, Little (1970) introduced decision calculus and then multinomial logit model (Guadagni and Little, 1983)

Potential marketing decision automation:

- Promotion or pricing programs
- Media allocation
- Distribution
- Product assortment
- Direct mail solicitation

(Moorthy, 1985)

- Definitions:
 - Rationality = maximizing subjective expected utility
 - Intelligence = recognizing other firms are rational.
 - Rules of the game include
 - * # of firms
 - * feasible set of actions
 - * utilities for each combination of moves
 - * sequence of moves
 - * the structure of info (who knows what and when?)

- Incomplete info stems from
 - * unknown motivations
 - * unknown ability (capabilities)
 - * different knowledge of the world.
- Pure strategy = plan of action
- A mixed strategy = probability dist of pure strategies.
- Strategic form representation = sets of possible strategies for every firm and its payoffs.
- Equilibrium = a list of strategies in which “no firm would like unilaterally to change its strategy.”
- Equilibrium is not outcome of a dynamic process.
- Equilibrium Application
 - Oligopolistic Competition
 - * Cournot (1838): quantities supplied: Cournot equilibrium. Changing quantities is more costly than changing prices
 - * Bertrand (1883): Bertrand equilibrium: pricing.
 - Perfect competition
 - Product Competition: Hotelling (1929): Principle of Minimum Differentiation is invalid.
 - Entry:
 - * first mover advantage
 - * deterrent strategy
 - * optimal for entrants or incumbents
 - Channels
- Perfectness of equilibria
 - Subgame perfectness
 - Sequential rationality
 - Trembling-hand perfectness
 - Application
 - * Product and price competition in Oligopolies
 - * Strategic Entry Deterrence
- Dynamic games

- Long-term competition in oligopolies
- Implicit Collusion in practice : price match from leader firms
- Incomplete Information
 - Durable goods pricing by a monopolist
 - predatory pricing and limit pricing
 - reputation, product quality, and prices
 - Competitive bidding and auctions

(KIM and SERFES, 2006): A location model with preference variety

(Hotelling, 1929)

- Stability in competition
- Duopoly is inherently unstable
- Bertrand disagrees with Cournot, and Edgeworth elaborates on it.
 - because Cournot's assumption of absolutely identical products between firms.

seller try to $p_2 < p_1 c(l - a - b)$

the point of indifference

$$p_1 + cx = p_2 + cy$$

- c = cost per unit of time in each unit of line length
- p = price
- q = quantity
- x, y = length from A and B respectively

$$a + x + y + b = l$$

is the length of the street

Hence, we have

$$x = 0.5(l - a - b + \frac{p_2 - p_1}{c}) \quad y = 0.5(l - a - b + \frac{p_1 - p_2}{c})$$

Profits will be

$$\pi_1 = p_1 q_1 = p_1(a+x) = 0.5(l+a-b)p_1 - \frac{p_1^2}{2c} + \frac{p_1 p_2}{2c} \quad \pi_2 = p_2 q_2 = p_2(b+y) = 0.5(l+a-b)p_2 - \frac{p_2^2}{2c} + \frac{p_1 p_2}{2c}$$

To set the price to maximize profit, we have

$$\frac{\partial \pi_1}{\partial p_1} = 0.5(l + a - b) - \frac{p_1}{c} + \frac{p_2}{2c} = 0 \quad \frac{\partial \pi_2}{\partial p_2} = 0.5(l - a + b) - \frac{p_2}{c} + \frac{p_1}{2c} = 0$$

which equals

$$p_1 = c(l + \frac{a-b}{3})p_2 = c(l - \frac{a-b}{3})$$

and

$$q_1 = a + x = 0.5(l + \frac{a-b}{3})q_2 = b + y = 0.5(l - \frac{a-b}{3})$$

with the SOC satisfied

In case of deciding locations, socialism works better than capitalism

(d'Aspremont et al., 1979)

- Principle of Minimum Differentiation is invalid

$$\pi_1(p_1, p_2) = \begin{cases} ap_1 + 0.5(l - a - b)p_1 + \frac{1}{2c}p_1p_2 - \frac{1}{2c}p_1^2 & \text{if } |p_1 - p_2| \leq c(l - a - b) \\ lp_1 & \text{if } p_1 < p_2 - c(l - a - b) \\ 0 & \text{if } p_1 > p_2 + c(l - a - b) \end{cases}$$

and

$$\pi_2(p_1, p_2) = \begin{cases} bp_2 + 0.5(l - a - b)p_2 + \frac{1}{2c}p_1p_2 - \frac{1}{2c}p_2^2 & \text{if } |p_1 - p_2| \leq c(l - a - b) \\ lp_2 & \text{if } p_2 < p_1 - c(l - a - b) \\ 0 & \text{if } p_2 > p_1 + c(l - a - b) \end{cases}$$

14.1 Positioning Models

Tabuchi and Thisse (1995)

- Relax Hotelling's model's assumption of uniform distribution of consumers to non-uniform distribution.
- Assumptions:
 - Equal cost

- Consumers distributed over $[0,1]$
- $F(x)$ = cumulative distribution of consumers where $F(1) = 1$ = total population
- 2 distributions:
 - * Traditional uniform density: $f(x) = 1$
 - * New: triangular density: $f(x) = 2 - 2|2x - 1|$ which represents consumer concentration
- Transportation cost = quadratic function of distance.

Hence, marginal consumer is

$$\bar{x} = (p_2 - p_1 + x_2^2 - x_1^2)/2(x_2 - x_1)$$

then when $x_1 < x_2$ the profit function is

$$\Pi_1 = p_1 F(\bar{x})$$

and

$$\Pi_2 = p_2 [1 - F(\bar{x})]$$

and vice versa for $x_1 > x_2$, and Bertrand game when $x_1 = x_2$

- If firms pick **simultaneously** their locations, and then **simultaneously** their prices, and consumer density function is log-concave, then there is a unique Nash price equilibrium
 - Under **uniform** distribution, firms choose to locate as far apart as possible (could be true when observing shopping centers are far away from cities), but then consumers have to buy products that are far away from their ideal.
 - Under **triangular** density, no symmetric location can be found, but two asymmetric Nash location equilibrium can still be possible (decrease in equilibrium profits of both firms)
- If firms pick **sequentially** their locations, and pick their prices **simultaneously**,
 - Under both uniform and triangular, first entrant will locate at the market center

Sajeesh and Raju (2010)

- Model satiation (variety-seeking) as a relative reduction in the willingness to pay of the previously purchased brand. also known as negative state dependence
- Previous studies argue that in the presence of variety seeking consumers, firms should enjoy higher prices and profits, but this paper argues that average prices and profits are lower.
 - Firms should charge lower prices in the second period to prevent consumers from switching.

Assumptions:

- Period 0, choose location simultaneously
- Period 1, choose prices simultaneously
- Period 2, firms choose prices simultaneously

14.2 Market Response Model

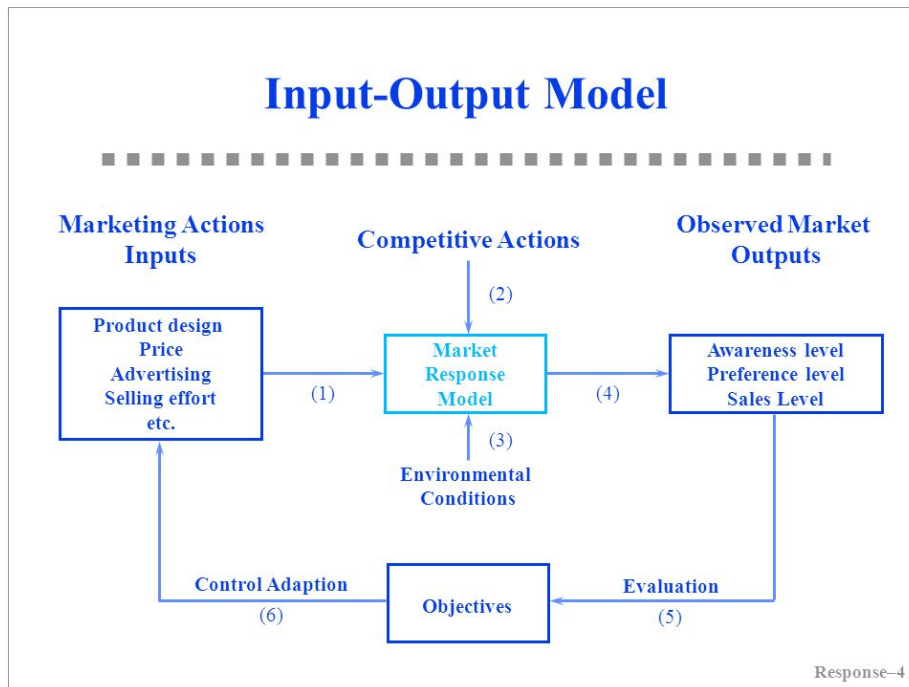
Marketing Inputs:

- Selling effort
- advertising spending
- promotional spending

↓

Marketing Outputs:

- sales
- share
- profit
- awareness



Give phenomena for a good model:

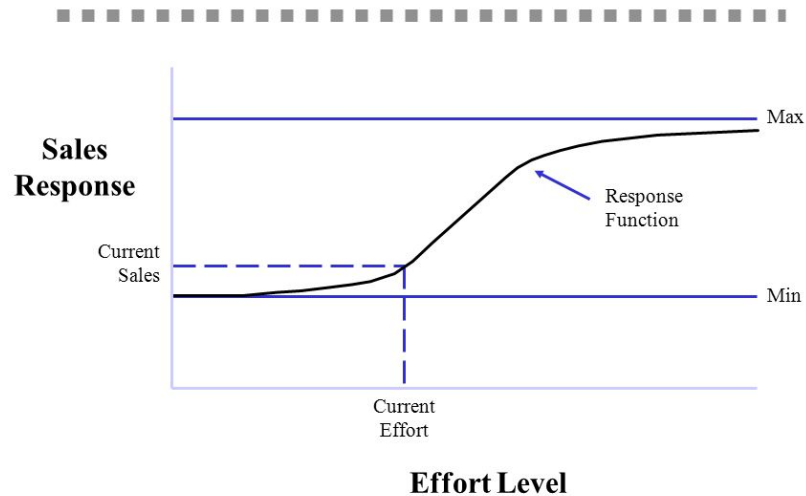
- P1: Dynamic sales response involves a sales **growth rate** and a sales **decay rate** that are different
- P2: Steady-state response can be **concave or S-shaped**. Positive sales at 0 advertising.
- P3: **Competitive effects**
- P4: Advertising effectiveness dynamics due to changes in media, copy, and other factors.
- P5: Sales still increase or fall off even as advertising is held constant.

Saunders (1987) phenomena

- P1: Output = 0 when Input = 0
- P2: The relationship between input and output is linear
- P3: Returns decrease as the scale of input increases (i.e., additional unit of input gives less output)
- P4: Output cannot exceed some level (i.e., saturation)
- P5: Returns increase as scale of input increases (i.e., additional unit of input gives more output)
- P6: Returns first increase and then decrease as input increases (i.e., S-shaped return)
- P7: Input must exceed some level before it produces any output (i.e., threshold)
- P8: Beyond some level of input, output declines (i.e., supersaturation)

point)

Response Function



Aggregate Response Models

- Linear model: $Y = a + bX$
 - Through origin
 - can only handle constant returns to scale (i.e., can't handle concave, convex, and S-shape)
- The Power Series/Polynomial model: $Y = a + bX + cX^2 + dX^3 + \dots$
 - can't handle saturation and threshold
- Fraction root model/ Power model: $Y = a + bX^c$ where c is prespecified
 - $c = 1/2$, called **square root model**
 - $c = -1$, called **reciprocal model**
 - c can be interpreted as elasticity if $a = 0$.
 - $c = 1$, linear
 - $c < 1$, decreasing return
 - $c > 1$, increasing returns
- Semilog model: $Y = a + b \ln X$

- Good when constant percentage increase in marketing effort (X) result in constant absolute increase in sales (Y)
- Exponential model: $Y = ae^{bX}$ where $X > 0$
 - $b > 0$, increasing returns and convex
 - $b < 0$, decreasing returns and saturation
- Modified exponential model: $Y = a(1 - e^{-bX}) + c$
 - Decreasing returns and saturation
 - upper bound = $a + c$
 - lower bound = c
 - typically used in selling effort
- Logistic model: $Y = \frac{a}{a + e^{-(b+cX)}} + d$
 - increasing return followed by decreasing return to scale, S-shape
 - saturation = $a + d$
 - good with saturation and s-shape
- Gompertz model
- ADBUDG model (Little, 1970) : $Y = b + (a - b) \frac{X^c}{d + X^c}$
 - $c > 1$, S-shaped
 - $0 < c < 1$
 - * Concave
 - * saturation effect
 - * upper bound at a
 - * lower bound at b
 - typically used in advertising and selling effort.
 - can handle, through origin, concave, saturation, S-shape
- Additive model for handling multiple Instruments: $Y = af(X_1) + bg(X_2)$
- Multiplicative model for handling multiple instruments: $Y = aX_1^bX_2^c$ where b and c are elasticities. More generally, $Y = af(X_1) \times bg(X_2)$
- Multiplicative and additive model: $Y = af(X_1) + bg(X_2) + cf(X_1)g(X_2)$
- Dynamic response model: $Y_t = a_0 + a_1X_t + \lambda Y_{t-1}$ where a_1 = current effect, λ = carry-over effect

Dynamic Effects

- Carry-over effect: current marketing expenditure influences future sales

- Advertising adstock/ advertising carry-over is the same thing: lagged effect of advertising on sales
- Delayed-response effect: delays between when marketing investments and their impact
- Customer holdout effects
- Hysteresis effect
- New trier and wear-out effect
- Stocking effect

Simple Decay-effect model:

$$A_t = T_t + \lambda T_{t-1}, t = 1, \dots,$$

where

- A_t = Adstock at time t
- T_t = value of advertising spending at time t
- λ = decay/ lag weight parameter

Response Models can be characterized by:

1. The number of marketing variables
2. whether they include competition or not
3. the nature of the relationship between the input variables
 1. Linear vs. S-shape
4. whether the situation is static vs. dynamic
5. whether the models reflect individual or aggregate response
6. the level of demand analyzed
 1. sales vs. market share

Market Share Model and Competitive Effects: $Y = M \times V$ where

- Y = Brand sales models
- V = product class sales models
- M = market-share models

Market share (attraction) models

$$M_i = \frac{A_i}{A_1 + \dots + A_n}$$

where A_i attractiveness of brand i

Individual Response Model:

Multinomial logit model representing the probability of individual i choosing brand l is

$$P_{il} = \frac{e^{A_{il}}}{\sum_j e^{A_{ij}}}$$

where

- A_{ij} = attractiveness of product j for individual i $A_{ij} = \sum_k w_k b_{ijk}$
- b_{ijk} = individual i 's evaluation of product j on product attribute k , where the summation is over all the products that individual i is considering to purchase
- w_k = importance weight associated with attribute k in forming product preferences.

14.3 Marketing Resource Allocation Models

This section is based on (Mantrala et al., 1992)

14.3.1 Case study 1

Concave sales response function

- Optimal vs. proportional at different investment levels
- Profit maximization perspective of aggregate function

$$s_i = k_i(1 - e^{-b_i x_i})$$

where

- s_i = current-period sales response (dollars / period)
- x_i = amount of resource allocated to submarket i
- b_i = rate at which sales approach saturation
- k_i = sales potential

Allocation functions

- Fixed proportion
 - R_i = Investment level (dollars/period)
 - w_i = fixed proportion or weights

$$\hat{x}_i = w_i R; \sum_{t=1}^2 w_t = 1; 0 < w_t < 1$$

- Informed allocator
 - optimal allocations via marginal analysis (maximize profits)

$$\max C = m \sum_{i=1}^2 k_i (1 - e^{-b_i x_i}) x_1 + x_2 \leq R; x_i \geq 0 \text{ for } i = 1, 2, x_1 = \frac{1}{(b_1 + b_2)(b_2 R + \ln(\frac{k_1 b_1}{k_2 b_2}))} x_2 = \frac{1}{(b_1 + b_2)(b_2 R + \ln(\frac{k_1 b_1}{k_2 b_2}))}$$

14.3.2 Case study 2

S-shaped sales response function:

- Optimal vs. proportional at different investment levels
- Profit maximization perspective of aggregate function

14.3.3 Case study 3

Quadratic-form stochastic response function

- Optimal allocation only with risk averse and risk neutral investors.

14.4 Meta-analyses of Econometric Marketing Models

14.5 Dynamic Advertising Effects and Spending Models

14.6 Marketing Mix Optimization Models

Check this post for implementation in Python

14.7 New Product Diffusion Models

14.8 Two-sided Platform Marketing Models

Example of Marketing Mix Model in practice: [link](#)

Chapter 15

Empirical Models

15.1 Attribution Models

15.1.1 Ordered Shapley

Based on (Zhao et al., 2018) (to access paper) Cooperative game theory: look at the marginal contribution of each player in the game, where **Shapley value** (i.e., the credit assigned to each individual) is the expected value value of the marginal contribution over all possible permutations (e.g., all possible sequences) of the players.

Shapely value considered:

- marginal contribution of each player (i.e., channel)
- sequence of joining the coalition (i.e., customer journey).

Typically, we can't apply the Shapley Value method due to computational burden (you need all possible permutations). And a drawback is that all the credit must be divided among your channels, if you have missing channels, then it will distort the estimates of other channels' estimates.

It's hard to use Shapley value model for model comparison since we have no "ground truth"

Marketing application:

- Pardot Einstein features and more

```
library("GameTheory")
```

```
## Loading required package: lpSolveAPI
```

```
## Loading required package: combinat
```

```
##
```

```
## Attaching package: 'combinat'

## The following object is masked from 'package:utils':
##
##      combn

## Loading required package: gtools
## Warning: package 'gtools' was built under R version 4.0.5

## Loading required package: ineq
## Loading required package: kappalab
## Loading required package: lpSolve
## Loading required package: quadprog
## Loading required package: kernlab

##
## Attaching package: 'kappalab'

## The following object is masked from 'package:ineq':
##
##      entropy

packages reference
```

15.1.2 Markov Model

Markov chains maps the movement and gives a probability distribution, for moving from one state to another state. A Markov Chain has three properties:

- **State space** – set of all the states in which process could potentially exist
- **Transition operator** – the probability of moving from one state to other state
- **Current state probability distribution** – probability distribution of being in any one of the states at the start of the process

In mathematically sense

$$w_{ij} = P(X_t = s_j | X_{t-1} = s_i), 0 \leq w_{ij} \leq 1, \sum_{j=1}^N w_{ij} = 1 \forall i$$

where

- The Transition Probability (w_{ij}) = The Probability of the Previous State (X_{t-1}) Given the Current State (X_t)
- The Transition Probability (w_{ij}) is No Less Than 0 and No Greater Than 1

- The Sum of the Transition Probabilities Equals 1 (i.e., Everyone Must Go Somewhere)

To examine a particular node in the Markov graph, we use **removal effect** (s_i) to see its contribution to a conversion. In another word, the Removal Effect is the probability of converting when a step is completely removed; all sequences that had to go through that step are now sent directly to the null node

Each node is called **transition states**

The probability of moving from one channel to another channel is called **transition probability**.

first-order or “memory-free” Markov graph is called “memory-free” because the probability of reaching one state depends only on the previous state visited.

- Order 0: Do not care about where the you came from or what step the you are on, only the probability of going to any state.
- Order 1: Looks back zero steps. You are currently at a state. The probability of going anywhere is based on being at that step.
- Order 2: Looks back one step. You came from state A and are currently at state B. The probability of going anywhere is based on where you were and where you are.
- Order 3: Looks back two steps. You came from state A after state B and are currently at state C. The probability of going anywhere is based on where you were and where you are.
- Order 4: Looks back three steps. You came from state A after B after C and are currently at state D. The probability of going anywhere is based on where you were and where you are.

15.1.2.1 Example 1

This section is by Analytics Vidhya

data link

```
# #Install the libraries
# install.packages("ChannelAttribution")
# install.packages("ggplot2")
# install.packages("reshape")
# install.packages("dplyr")
# install.packages("plyr")
# install.packages("reshape2")
# install.packages("markovchain")
# install.packages("plotly")

#Load the libraries
library("ChannelAttribution")
```

```
## Warning: package 'ChannelAttribution' was built under R version 4.0.5
```

```

## ChannelAttribution 2.0.4

## Looking for attribution at path level? Try ChannelAttributionPro! Visit www.channelattribution.com

library("ggplot2")

## Warning: package 'ggplot2' was built under R version 4.0.5

##
## Attaching package: 'ggplot2'

## The following object is masked from 'package:kernlab':
##
##      alpha

library("reshape")
library("dplyr")

## Warning: package 'dplyr' was built under R version 4.0.5

##
## Attaching package: 'dplyr'

## The following object is masked from 'package:reshape':
##
##      rename

## The following objects are masked from 'package:stats':
##
##      filter, lag

## The following objects are masked from 'package:base':
##
##      intersect, setdiff, setequal, union

library("plyr")

## -----

## You have loaded plyr after dplyr - this is likely to cause problems.
## If you need functions from both plyr and dplyr, please load plyr first, then dplyr:
## library(plyr); library(dplyr)

## -----

##
## Attaching package: 'plyr'

## The following objects are masked from 'package:dplyr':
##
##      arrange, count, desc, failwith, id, mutate, rename, summarise,
##      summarize

```

```
## The following objects are masked from 'package:reshape':
##
##      rename, round_any
library("reshape2")

##
## Attaching package: 'reshape2'

## The following objects are masked from 'package:reshape':
##
##      colsplit, melt, recast
library("markovchain")

## Package:  markovchain
## Version:  0.8.6
## Date:     2021-05-17
## BugReport: https://github.com/spedygiorgio/markovchain/issues
library("plotly")

## Warning: package 'plotly' was built under R version 4.0.5

##
## Attaching package: 'plotly'

## The following objects are masked from 'package:plyr':
##
##      arrange, mutate, rename, summarise

## The following object is masked from 'package:reshape':
##
##      rename

## The following object is masked from 'package:ggplot2':
##
##      last_plot

## The following object is masked from 'package:stats':
##
##      filter

## The following object is masked from 'package:graphics':
##
##      layout

#Read the data into R
channel = read.csv("images/Channel_attribution.csv", header = T) %>% select(-c(Output))
head(channel, n = 2)

##      R05A.01 R05A.02 R05A.03 R05A.04 R05A.05 R05A.06 R05A.07 R05A.08 R05A.09
```



```
Data = channel_fin
head(Data)
```

```
##           path conversion
## 1      1 > 1 > 1 > 20      1
## 2      1 > 1 > 12 > 12      1
## 3  1 > 1 > 14 > 13 > 12 > 20      1
## 4      1 > 1 > 3 > 13 > 3 > 20      1
## 5      1 > 1 > 3 > 17 > 17      1
## 6 1 > 1 > 6 > 1 > 12 > 20 > 12      1
```

```
heuristic model
```

```
H <- heuristic_models(Data, 'path', 'conversion', var_value='conversion')
H
```

```
##   channel_name first_touch_conversions first_touch_value
## 1           1                130                130
## 2          20                 0                 0
## 3          12                75                75
## 4          14                34                34
## 5          13               320               320
## 6           3               168               168
## 7          17                31                31
## 8           6                50                50
## 9           8                56                56
## 10         10               547               547
## 11          11                66                66
## 12          16               111               111
## 13           2               199               199
## 14           4               231               231
## 15           7                26                26
## 16           5                62                62
## 17           9               250               250
## 18          15                22                22
## 19          18                 4                 4
## 20          19                10                10
##   last_touch_conversions last_touch_value linear_touch_conversions
## 1                18                18      73.773661
## 2             1701             1701     473.998171
## 3                23                23      76.127863
## 4                25                25      56.335744
## 5                76                76     204.039552
## 6                21                21     117.609677
## 7                47                47      76.583847
## 8                20                20      54.707124
## 9                17                17      53.677862
```

## 10	42	42	211.822393
## 11	33	33	107.109048
## 12	95	95	156.049086
## 13	18	18	94.111668
## 14	88	88	250.784033
## 15	15	15	33.435991
## 16	23	23	74.900402
## 17	71	71	194.071690
## 18	47	47	65.159225
## 19	2	2	5.026587
## 20	10	10	12.676375
##	linear_touch_value		
## 1	73.773661		
## 2	473.998171		
## 3	76.127863		
## 4	56.335744		
## 5	204.039552		
## 6	117.609677		
## 7	76.583847		
## 8	54.707124		
## 9	53.677862		
## 10	211.822393		
## 11	107.109048		
## 12	156.049086		
## 13	94.111668		
## 14	250.784033		
## 15	33.435991		
## 16	74.900402		
## 17	194.071690		
## 18	65.159225		
## 19	5.026587		
## 20	12.676375		

- First Touch Conversion: credit is given to the first touch point.
- Last Touch Conversion: credit is given to the last touch point.
- Linear Touch Conversion: All channels/touch points are given equal credit in the conversion.

Markov model

```
M <- markov_model(Data, 'path', 'conversion', var_value='conversion', order = 1)

##
## Number of simulations: 100000 - Convergence reached: 2.05% < 5.00%
##
## Percentage of simulated paths that successfully end before maximum number of steps
```

M

##	channel_name	total_conversion	total_conversion_value
## 1	1	82.805970	82.805970
## 2	20	439.582090	439.582090
## 3	12	81.253731	81.253731
## 4	14	64.238806	64.238806
## 5	13	197.791045	197.791045
## 6	3	122.328358	122.328358
## 7	17	86.985075	86.985075
## 8	6	58.985075	58.985075
## 9	8	60.656716	60.656716
## 10	10	209.850746	209.850746
## 11	11	115.402985	115.402985
## 12	16	159.820896	159.820896
## 13	2	97.074627	97.074627
## 14	4	222.149254	222.149254
## 15	7	40.597015	40.597015
## 16	5	80.537313	80.537313
## 17	9	178.865672	178.865672
## 18	15	72.358209	72.358209
## 19	18	6.567164	6.567164
## 20	19	14.149254	14.149254

combine the two models

```
# Merges the two data frames on the "channel_name" column.
R <- merge(H, M, by='channel_name')
```

```
# Select only relevant columns
```

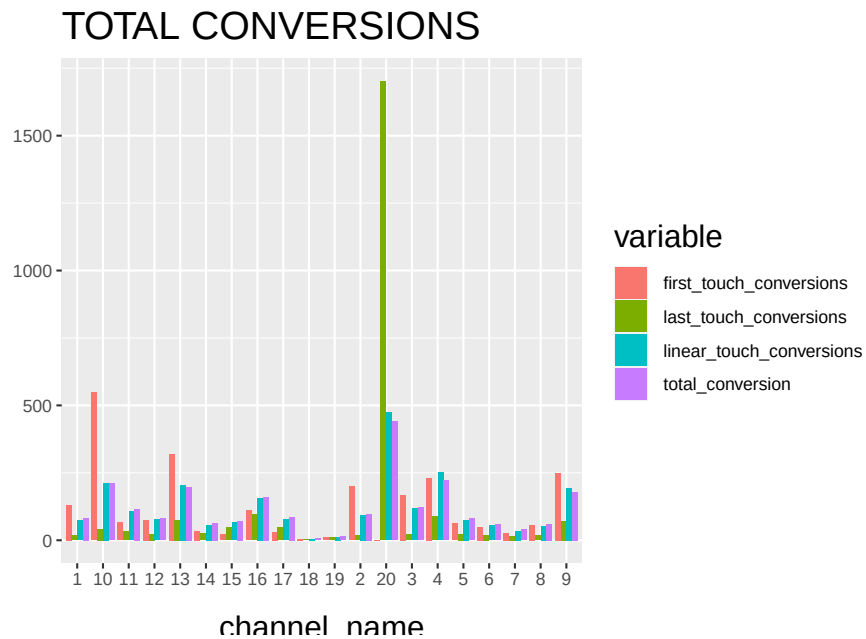
```
R1 <- R[, (colnames(R) %in% c('channel_name', 'first_touch_conversions', 'last_touch_conversions'))]
```

```
# Transforms the dataset into a data frame that ggplot2 can use to plot the outcomes
```

```
R1 <- melt(R1, id='channel_name')
```

```
# Plot the total conversions
```

```
ggplot(R1, aes(channel_name, value, fill = variable)) +
  geom_bar(stat='identity', position='dodge') +
  ggtitle('TOTAL CONVERSIONS') +
  theme(axis.title.x = element_text(vjust = -2)) +
  theme(axis.title.y = element_text(vjust = +2)) +
  theme(title = element_text(size = 16)) +
  theme(plot.title=element_text(size = 20)) +
  ylab("")
```



and then check the final results.

15.1.2.2 Example 2

Example code by Sergey Bryl'

```
library(dplyr)
library(reshape2)
library(ggplot2)
library(ggthemes)
library(ggrepel)
library(RColorBrewer)
library(ChannelAttribution)
library(markovchain)

##### simple example #####
# creating a data sample
df1 <- data.frame(path = c('c1 > c2 > c3', 'c1', 'c2 > c3'), conv = c(1, 0, 0), conv_n

# calculating the model
mod1 <- markov_model(df1,
                      var_path = 'path',
                      var_conv = 'conv',
                      var_null = 'conv_null',
                      out_more = TRUE)
```



```

# extracting the results of attribution
df_res1 <- mod1$result

# extracting a transition matrix
df_trans1 <- mod1$transition_matrix
df_trans1 <- dcast(df_trans1, channel_from ~ channel_to, value.var = 'transition_probability')

### plotting the Markov graph ###
df_trans <- mod1$transition_matrix

# adding dummies in order to plot the graph
df_dummy <- data.frame(channel_from = c('(start)', '(conversion)', '(null)'),
                      channel_to = c('(start)', '(conversion)', '(null)'),
                      transition_probability = c(0, 1, 1))
df_trans <- rbind(df_trans, df_dummy)

# ordering channels
df_trans$channel_from <- factor(df_trans$channel_from, levels = c('(start)', '(conversion)', '(null)'))
df_trans$channel_to <- factor(df_trans$channel_to, levels = c('(start)', '(conversion)', '(null)'))
df_trans <- dcast(df_trans, channel_from ~ channel_to, value.var = 'transition_probability')

# creating the markovchain object
trans_matrix <- matrix(data = as.matrix(df_trans[, -1]), nrow = nrow(df_trans[, -1]), ncol = ncol(df_trans[, -1]))
trans_matrix[is.na(trans_matrix)] <- 0
# trans_matrix1 <- new("markovchain", transitionMatrix = trans_matrix)
#
# # plotting the graph
# plot(trans_matrix1, edge.arrow.size = 0.35)

# simulating the "real" data
set.seed(354)
df2 <- data.frame(client_id = sample(c(1:1000), 5000, replace = TRUE),
                 date = sample(c(1:32), 5000, replace = TRUE),
                 channel = sample(c(0:9), 5000, replace = TRUE),
                 prob = c(0.1, 0.15, 0.05, 0.07, 0.11, 0.07, 0.13, 0.1, 0.06, 0.04))
df2$date <- as.Date(df2$date, origin = "2015-01-01")
df2$channel <- paste0('channel_', df2$channel)

# aggregating channels to the paths for each customer
df2 <- df2 %>%
  arrange(client_id, date) %>%
  group_by(client_id) %>%
  summarise(path = paste(channel, collapse = ' > '),
            # assume that all paths were finished with conversion
            conv = 1,

```

```

        conv_null = 0) %>%
    ungroup()

# calculating the models (Markov and heuristics)
mod2 <- markov_model(df2,
    var_path = 'path',
    var_conv = 'conv',
    var_null = 'conv_null',
    out_more = TRUE)

##
## Number of simulations: 100000 - Convergence reached: 1.40% < 5.00%
##
## Percentage of simulated paths that successfully end before maximum number of steps
# heuristic_models() function doesn't work for me, therefore I used the manual calculation
# instead of:
#h_mod2 <- heuristic_models(df2, var_path = 'path', var_conv = 'conv')

df_hm <- df2 %>%
    mutate(channel_name_ft = sub('>.*', '', path),
           channel_name_ft = sub(' ', '', channel_name_ft),
           channel_name_lt = sub('.*>', '', path),
           channel_name_lt = sub(' ', '', channel_name_lt))
# first-touch conversions
df_ft <- df_hm %>%
    group_by(channel_name_ft) %>%
    summarise(first_touch_conversions = sum(conv)) %>%
    ungroup()
# last-touch conversions
df_lt <- df_hm %>%
    group_by(channel_name_lt) %>%
    summarise(last_touch_conversions = sum(conv)) %>%
    ungroup()

h_mod2 <- merge(df_ft, df_lt, by.x = 'channel_name_ft', by.y = 'channel_name_lt')

# merging all models
all_models <- merge(h_mod2, mod2$result, by.x = 'channel_name_ft', by.y = 'channel_name_ft',
    colnames(all_models)[c(1, 4)] <- c('channel_name', 'attrib_model_conversions'))

library("RColorBrewer")
library("ggthemes")
library("ggrepel")
##### visualizations #####
# transition matrix heatmap for "real" data

```

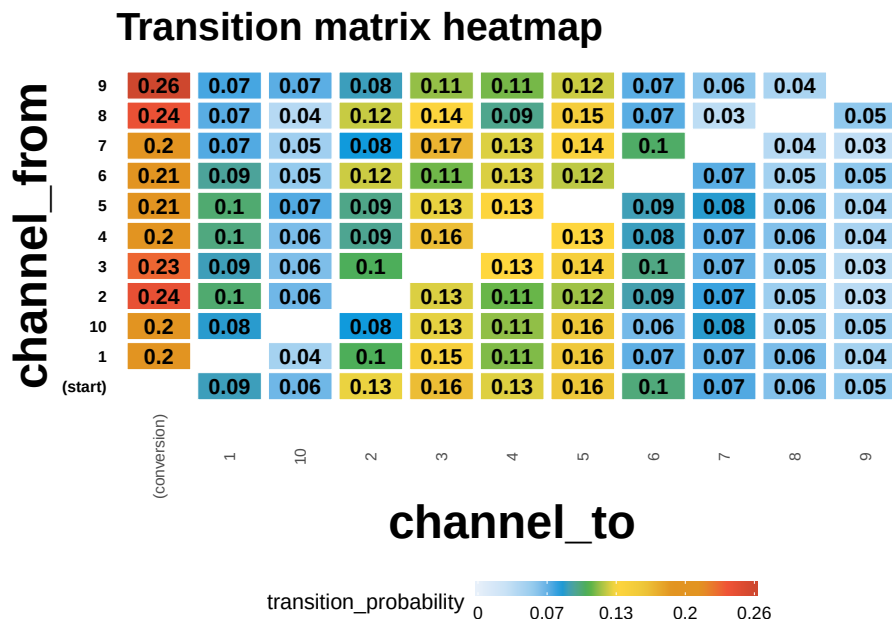
```

df_plot_trans <- mod2$transition_matrix

cols <- c("#e7f0fa", "#c9e2f6", "#95cbee", "#0099dc", "#4ab04a", "#ffd73e", "#eec73a",
          "#e29421", "#e29421", "#f05336", "#ce472e")
t <- max(df_plot_trans$transition_probability)

ggplot(df_plot_trans, aes(y = channel_from, x = channel_to, fill = transition_probability)) +
  theme_minimal() +
  geom_tile(colour = "white", width = .9, height = .9) +
  scale_fill_gradientn(colours = cols, limits = c(0, t),
                      breaks = seq(0, t, by = t/4),
                      labels = c("0", round(t/4*1, 2), round(t/4*2, 2), round(t/4*3, 2), round(t/4*4, 2)),
                      guide = guide_colourbar(ticks = T, nbin = 50, barheight = .5, label = "transition_probability")) +
  geom_text(aes(label = round(transition_probability, 2)), fontface = "bold", size = 4) +
  theme(legend.position = 'bottom',
        legend.direction = "horizontal",
        panel.grid.major = element_blank(),
        panel.grid.minor = element_blank(),
        plot.title = element_text(size = 20, face = "bold", vjust = 2, color = 'black', lineheight = 1),
        axis.title.x = element_text(size = 24, face = "bold"),
        axis.title.y = element_text(size = 24, face = "bold"),
        axis.text.y = element_text(size = 8, face = "bold", color = 'black'),
        axis.text.x = element_text(size = 8, angle = 90, hjust = 0.5, vjust = 0.5, face = "bold"),
        legend.title = element_text(size = 10, face = "bold", color = "black", lineheight = 1))
ggtitle("Transition matrix heatmap")

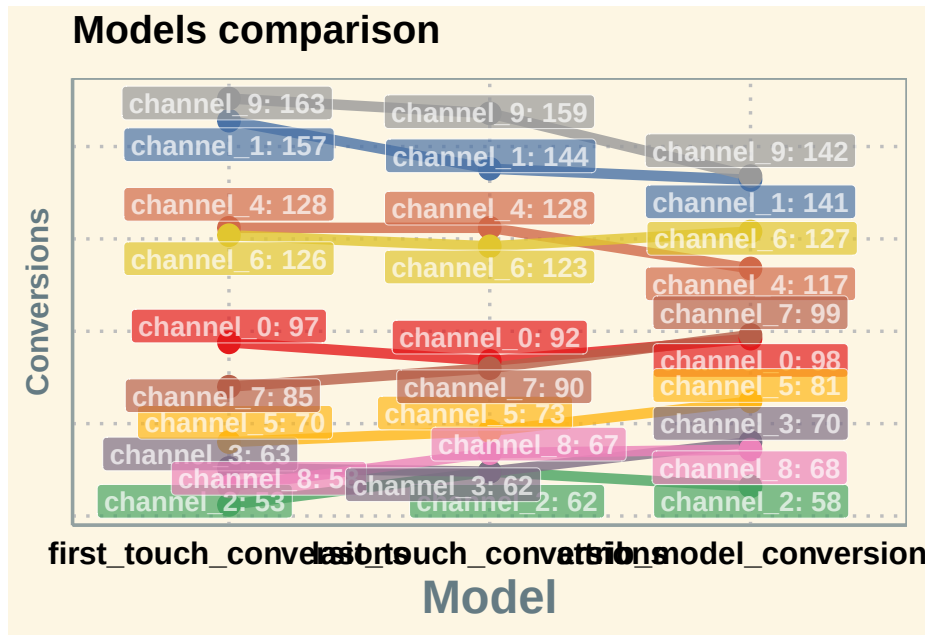
```



```
# models comparison
all_mod_plot <- reshape2::melt(all_models, id.vars = 'channel_name', variable.name = 'conv_type')
all_mod_plot$value <- round(all_mod_plot$value)
# slope chart
pal <- colorRampPalette(brewer.pal(10, "Set1"))
```

```
## Warning in brewer.pal(10, "Set1"): n too large, allowed maximum for palette Set1 is 9
## Returning the palette you asked for with that many colors
```

```
ggplot(all_mod_plot, aes(x = conv_type, y = value, group = channel_name)) +
  theme_solarized(base_size = 18, base_family = "", light = TRUE) +
  scale_color_manual(values = pal(10)) +
  scale_fill_manual(values = pal(10)) +
  geom_line(aes(color = channel_name), size = 2.5, alpha = 0.8) +
  geom_point(aes(color = channel_name), size = 5) +
  geom_label_repel(aes(label = paste0(channel_name, ': ', value), fill = factor(channel_name),
    alpha = 0.7,
    fontface = 'bold', color = 'white', size = 5,
    box.padding = unit(0.25, 'lines'), point.padding = unit(0.5, 'lines'),
    max.iter = 100) +
  theme(legend.position = 'none',
    legend.title = element_text(size = 16, color = 'black'),
    legend.text = element_text(size = 16, vjust = 2, color = 'black'),
    plot.title = element_text(size = 20, face = "bold", vjust = 2, color = 'black'),
    axis.title.x = element_text(size = 24, face = "bold"),
    axis.title.y = element_text(size = 16, face = "bold"),
    axis.text.x = element_text(size = 16, face = "bold", color = 'black'),
    axis.text.y = element_blank(),
    axis.ticks.x = element_blank(),
    axis.ticks.y = element_blank(),
    panel.border = element_blank(),
    panel.grid.major = element_line(colour = "grey", linetype = "dotted"),
    panel.grid.minor = element_blank(),
    strip.text = element_text(size = 16, hjust = 0.5, vjust = 0.5, face = "bold", color = "white"),
    strip.background = element_rect(fill = "#f0b35f")) +
  labs(x = 'Model', y = 'Conversions') +
  ggtitle('Models comparison') +
  guides(colour = guide_legend(override.aes = list(size = 4)))
```



Additional concerns:

```
library(tidyverse)
```

```
## Warning: package 'tidyverse' was built under R version 4.0.5
```

```
## -- Attaching packages ----- tidyverse 1.3.1 --
```

```
## v tibble 3.1.2      v purrr 0.3.4
```

```
## v tidyr 1.1.3       v stringr 1.4.0
```

```
## v readr 2.0.1       v forcats 0.5.1
```

```
## Warning: package 'readr' was built under R version 4.0.5
```

```
## -- Conflicts ----- tidyverse_conflicts() --
```

```
## x ggplot2::alpha() masks kernlab::alpha()
```

```
## x plotly::arrange() masks plyr::arrange(), dplyr::arrange()
```

```
## x purrr::compact() masks plyr::compact()
```

```
## x plyr::count() masks dplyr::count()
```

```
## x purrr::cross() masks kernlab::cross()
```

```
## x tidyr::expand() masks reshape::expand()
```

```
## x plyr::failwith() masks dplyr::failwith()
```

```
## x plotly::filter() masks dplyr::filter(), stats::filter()
```

```
## x plyr::id() masks dplyr::id()
```

```
## x dplyr::lag() masks stats::lag()
```

```
## x plotly::mutate() masks plyr::mutate(), dplyr::mutate()
```

```
## x plotly::rename() masks plyr::rename(), dplyr::rename(), reshape::rename()
```

```
## x plotly::summarise() masks plyr::summarise(), dplyr::summarise()
```

```
## x plyr::summarize() masks dplyr::summarize()
library(reshape2)
library(ggthemes)
library(ggrepel)
library(RColorBrewer)
library(ChannelAttribution)
library(markovchain)
library(visNetwork)
library(expm)

## Loading required package: Matrix
## Warning: package 'Matrix' was built under R version 4.0.5
##
## Attaching package: 'Matrix'
## The following objects are masked from 'package:tidyr':
##
##     expand, pack, unpack
## The following object is masked from 'package:reshape':
##
##     expand
##
## Attaching package: 'expm'
## The following object is masked from 'package:Matrix':
##
##     expm
library(stringr)
library(purrr)
library(purrrlyr)

##### simulating the "real" data #####
set.seed(454)
df_raw <- data.frame(customer_id = paste0('id', sample(c(1:20000), replace = TRUE)), date = sample(
  group_by(customer_id) %>%
  mutate(conversion = sample(c(0, 1), n(), prob = c(0.975, 0.025), replace = TRUE))
  ungroup() %>%
  dmap_at(c(1, 3), as.character) %>%
  arrange(customer_id, date)

df_raw <- df_raw %>%
  mutate(channel = ifelse(channel == 'channel_2', NA, channel))
head(df_raw, n = 2)
```

```
## # A tibble: 2 x 4
##   customer_id date      channel conversion
##   <chr>      <date>    <chr>      <dbl>
## 1 id1       2016-01-02 channel_7      0
## 2 id1       2016-01-09 channel_4      0
```

15.1.2.2.1 1. Customers will be at different stage of purchase journey after each conversion. First-time buyer's journey will look different from n-times buyer's (e.g., he will not start at website)

You can create your own code to split data into customers in different stages.

```
##### splitting paths #####
df_paths <- df_raw %>%
  group_by(customer_id) %>%
  mutate(path_no = ifelse(is.na(lag(cumsum(conversion))), 0, lag(cumsum(conversion)) + 1)
  ungroup()
head(df_paths)
```

```
## # A tibble: 6 x 5
##   customer_id date      channel conversion path_no
##   <chr>      <date>    <chr>      <dbl>    <dbl>
## 1 id1       2016-01-02 channel_7      0        1
## 2 id1       2016-01-09 channel_4      0        1
## 3 id1       2016-01-18 channel_5      1        1
## 4 id1       2016-01-20 channel_4      1        2
## 5 id100     2016-01-01 channel_0      0        1
## 6 id100     2016-01-01 channel_0      0        1
```

attribution path for first-time buyers:

```
df_paths_1 <- df_paths %>%
  filter(path_no == 1) %>%
  select(-path_no)
```

15.1.2.2.2 2. Handle missing data We might have missing data on the channel or do not want to attribute a path (e.g., Direct Channel). We can either

- Remove NA/Channel
- Use the previous channel in its place.

In the first-order Markov chains, the results are unchanged because duplicated channels don't affect the calculation.

```
##### replace some channels #####
df_path_1_clean <- df_paths_1 %>%
  # removing NAs
  filter(!is.na(channel)) %>%
```

```

# adding order of channels in the path
group_by(customer_id) %>%
mutate(ord = c(1:n()),
       is_non_direct = ifelse(channel == 'channel_6', 0, 1),
       is_non_direct_cum = cumsum(is_non_direct)) %>%

# removing Direct (channel_6) when it is the first in the path
filter(is_non_direct_cum != 0) %>%

# replacing Direct (channel_6) with the previous touch point
mutate(channel = ifelse(channel == 'channel_6', channel[which(channel != 'chan

ungroup() %>%
select(-ord, -is_non_direct, -is_non_direct_cum)

```

15.1.2.2.3 3. one vs. multi-channel paths We need to calculate the weighted importance for each channel because the sum of the Removal Effects doesn't equal to 1. In case we have a path with a unique channel, the Removal Effect and importance of this channel for that exact path is 1. However, weighting with other multi-channel paths will decrease the importance of one-channel occurrences. That means that, in case we have a channel that occurs in one-channel paths, usually it will be underestimated if attributed with multi-channel paths.

There is also a pretty straight logic behind splitting – for one-channel paths, we definitely know the channel that brought a conversion and we don't need to distribute that value into other channels.

To account for one-channel path:

1. Split data for paths with one or more unique channels
2. Calculate total conversions for one-channel paths and compute the Markov model for multi-channel paths
3. Summarize results for each channel.

```

##### one- and multi-channel paths #####
df_path_1_clean <- df_path_1_clean %>%
  group_by(customer_id) %>%
  mutate(uniq_channel_tag = ifelse(length(unique(channel)) == 1, TRUE, FALSE)) %>%
  ungroup()

df_path_1_clean_uniq <- df_path_1_clean %>%
  filter(uniq_channel_tag == TRUE) %>%
  select(-uniq_channel_tag)

df_path_1_clean_multi <- df_path_1_clean %>%
  filter(uniq_channel_tag == FALSE) %>%

```



```

      select(-uniq_channel_tag)

### experiment ###
# attribution model for all paths
df_all_paths <- df_path_1_clean %>%
  group_by(customer_id) %>%
  summarise(path = paste(channel, collapse = ' > '),
            conversion = sum(conversion)) %>%
  ungroup() %>%
  filter(conversion == 1)

mod_attrib <- markov_model(df_all_paths,
                          var_path = 'path',
                          var_conv = 'conversion',
                          out_more = TRUE)

##
## Number of simulations: 100000 - Convergence reached: 1.28% < 5.00%
##
## Percentage of simulated paths that successfully end before maximum number of steps (19) is reached
mod_attrib$removal_effects

##   channel_name removal_effects
## 1   channel_7      0.2812250
## 2   channel_4      0.4284428
## 3   channel_5      0.6056845
## 4   channel_0      0.5367294
## 5   channel_1      0.3820056
## 6   channel_3      0.2535028

mod_attrib$result

##   channel_name total_conversions
## 1   channel_7      192.8653
## 2   channel_4      293.8279
## 3   channel_5      415.3811
## 4   channel_0      368.0913
## 5   channel_1      261.9811
## 6   channel_3      173.8533

d_all <- data.frame(mod_attrib$result)

# attribution model for splitted multi and unique channel paths
df_multi_paths <- df_path_1_clean_multi %>%
  group_by(customer_id) %>%
  summarise(path = paste(channel, collapse = ' > '),

```

```

      conversion = sum(conversion)) %>%
    ungroup() %>%
    filter(conversion == 1)

mod_attrib_alt <- markov_model(df_multi_paths,
                              var_path = 'path',
                              var_conv = 'conversion',
                              out_more = TRUE)

##
## Number of simulations: 100000 - Convergence reached: 1.21% < 5.00%
##
## Percentage of simulated paths that successfully end before maximum number of steps
mod_attrib_alt$removal_effects

##   channel_name removal_effects
## 1   channel_7         0.3265696
## 2   channel_4         0.4844802
## 3   channel_5         0.6526369
## 4   channel_0         0.5814164
## 5   channel_1         0.4343546
## 6   channel_3         0.2898041
mod_attrib_alt$result

##   channel_name total_conversions
## 1   channel_7         150.9460
## 2   channel_4         223.9350
## 3   channel_5         301.6599
## 4   channel_0         268.7406
## 5   channel_1         200.7661
## 6   channel_3         133.9524

# adding unique paths
df_uniq_paths <- df_path_1_clean_uniq %>%
  filter(conversion == 1) %>%
  group_by(channel) %>%
  summarise(conversions = sum(conversion)) %>%
  ungroup()

d_multi <- data.frame(mod_attrib_alt$result)

d_split <- full_join(d_multi, df_uniq_paths, by = c('channel_name' = 'channel')) %>%
  mutate(result = total_conversions + conversions)

sum(d_all$total_conversions)

```

```
## [1] 1706
```

```
sum(d_split$result)
```

```
## [1] 1706
```

15.1.2.2.4 4. Higher Order Markov Chains Since the transition matrix stays the same in the first order Markov, having duplicates will not affect the result. But starting from the second order order Markov, you will have different results when skipping duplicates. In order to check the effect of skipping duplicates in the first-order Markov chain, we will use my script for “manual” calculation because the package skips duplicates automatically.

Higher order of Markov chains and consequent duplicated channels in the path

```
# computing transition matrix - 'manual' way
df_multi_paths_m <- df_multi_paths %>%
  mutate(path = paste0('(start) > ', path, ' > (conversion)'))
m <- max(str_count(df_multi_paths_m$path, '>')) + 1 # maximum path length

df_multi_paths_cols <- reshape2::colsplit(string = df_multi_paths_m$path, pattern = ' > ', names
colnames(df_multi_paths_cols) <- paste0('ord_', c(1:m))
df_multi_paths_cols[df_multi_paths_cols == ''] <- NA

df_res <- vector('list', ncol(df_multi_paths_cols) - 1)

for (i in c(1:(ncol(df_multi_paths_cols) - 1))) {

  df_cache <- df_multi_paths_cols %>%
    select(num_range("ord_", c(i, i+1))) %>%
    na.omit() %>%
    group_by(.dots = c(paste0("ord_", c(i, i+1)))) %>%
    summarise(n = n()) %>%
    ungroup()

  colnames(df_cache)[c(1, 2)] <- c('channel_from', 'channel_to')
  df_res[[i]] <- df_cache
}
```

```
## Warning: `group_by()` was deprecated in dplyr 0.7.0.
```

```
## Please use `group_by()` instead.
```

```
## See vignette('programming') for more help
```

```
## `summarise()` has grouped output by 'ord_1'. You can override using the `.groups` argument.
```

```
## `summarise()` has grouped output by 'ord_2'. You can override using the `.groups` argument.
```

```
## `summarise()` has grouped output by 'ord_3'. You can override using the `.groups` argument.
```

```
## `summarise()` has grouped output by 'ord_4'. You can override using the `.groups` argument
## `summarise()` has grouped output by 'ord_5'. You can override using the `.groups` argument
## `summarise()` has grouped output by 'ord_6'. You can override using the `.groups` argument
## `summarise()` has grouped output by 'ord_7'. You can override using the `.groups` argument
## `summarise()` has grouped output by 'ord_8'. You can override using the `.groups` argument
## `summarise()` has grouped output by 'ord_9'. You can override using the `.groups` argument
## `summarise()` has grouped output by 'ord_10'. You can override using the `.groups` argument
## `summarise()` has grouped output by 'ord_11'. You can override using the `.groups` argument
## `summarise()` has grouped output by 'ord_12'. You can override using the `.groups` argument
## `summarise()` has grouped output by 'ord_13'. You can override using the `.groups` argument
## `summarise()` has grouped output by 'ord_14'. You can override using the `.groups` argument
## `summarise()` has grouped output by 'ord_15'. You can override using the `.groups` argument
## `summarise()` has grouped output by 'ord_16'. You can override using the `.groups` argument
## `summarise()` has grouped output by 'ord_17'. You can override using the `.groups` argument
## `summarise()` has grouped output by 'ord_18'. You can override using the `.groups` argument
## `summarise()` has grouped output by 'ord_19'. You can override using the `.groups` argument
## `summarise()` has grouped output by 'ord_20'. You can override using the `.groups` argument
## `summarise()` has grouped output by 'ord_21'. You can override using the `.groups` argument
## `summarise()` has grouped output by 'ord_22'. You can override using the `.groups` argument
```

```
df_res <- do.call('rbind', df_res)

df_res_tot <- df_res %>%
  group_by(channel_from, channel_to) %>%
  summarise(n = sum(n)) %>%
  ungroup() %>%
  group_by(channel_from) %>%
  mutate(tot_n = sum(n),
         perc = n / tot_n) %>%
  ungroup()
```

```
## `summarise()` has grouped output by 'channel_from'. You can override using the `.groups` argument
```

```
df_dummy <- data.frame(channel_from = c('(start)', '(conversion)', '(null)'),
                      channel_to = c('(start)', '(conversion)', '(null)'),
                      n = c(0, 0, 0),
                      tot_n = c(0, 0, 0),
                      perc = c(0, 1, 1))
```

```

df_res_tot <- rbind(df_res_tot, df_dummy)

# comparing transition matrices
trans_matrix_prob_m <- dcast(df_res_tot, channel_from ~ channel_to, value.var = 'perc', fun.aggregate = 'sum')
trans_matrix_prob <- data.frame(mod_attrib_alt$transition_matrix)
trans_matrix_prob <- dcast(trans_matrix_prob, channel_from ~ channel_to, value.var = 'transition_matrix')

# computing attribution - 'manual' way
channels_list <- df_path_1_clean_multi %>%
  filter(conversion == 1) %>%
  distinct(channel)
channels_list <- c(channels_list$channel)

df_res_ini <- df_res_tot %>% select(channel_from, channel_to)
df_attrib <- vector('list', length(channels_list))

for (i in c(1:length(channels_list))) {

  channel <- channels_list[i]

  df_res1 <- df_res %>%
    mutate(channel_from = ifelse(channel_from == channel, NA, channel_from),
           channel_to = ifelse(channel_to == channel, '(null)', channel_to)) %>%
    na.omit()

  df_res_tot1 <- df_res1 %>%
    group_by(channel_from, channel_to) %>%
    summarise(n = sum(n)) %>%
    ungroup() %>%

    group_by(channel_from) %>%
    mutate(tot_n = sum(n),
           perc = n / tot_n) %>%
    ungroup()

  df_res_tot1 <- rbind(df_res_tot1, df_dummy) # adding (start), (conversion) and (null) states

  df_res_tot1 <- left_join(df_res_ini, df_res_tot1, by = c('channel_from', 'channel_to'))
  df_res_tot1[is.na(df_res_tot1)] <- 0

  df_trans1 <- dcast(df_res_tot1, channel_from ~ channel_to, value.var = 'perc', fun.aggregate = 'sum')

  trans_matrix_1 <- df_trans1
  rownames(trans_matrix_1) <- trans_matrix_1$channel_from
  trans_matrix_1 <- as.matrix(trans_matrix_1[, -1])
}

```

```

inist_n1 <- dcast(df_res_tot1, channel_from ~ channel_to, value.var = 'n', fun
rownames(inist_n1) <- inist_n1$channel_from
inist_n1 <- as.matrix(inist_n1[, -1])
inist_n1[is.na(inist_n1)] <- 0
inist_n1 <- inist_n1['(start)', ]

res_num1 <- inist_n1 %*% (trans_matrix_1 %*% 100000)

df_cache <- data.frame(channel_name = channel,
                      conversions = as.numeric(res_num1[1, 1]))

df_attrib[[i]] <- df_cache
}

```

```

## `summarise()` has grouped output by 'channel_from'. You can override using the `.gr
## `summarise()` has grouped output by 'channel_from'. You can override using the `.gr
## `summarise()` has grouped output by 'channel_from'. You can override using the `.gr
## `summarise()` has grouped output by 'channel_from'. You can override using the `.gr
## `summarise()` has grouped output by 'channel_from'. You can override using the `.gr

```

```

df_attrib <- do.call('rbind', df_attrib)

# computing removal effect and results
tot_conv <- sum(df_multi_paths_m$conversion)

df_attrib <- df_attrib %>%
  mutate(tot_conversions = sum(df_multi_paths_m$conversion),
         impact = (tot_conversions - conversions) / tot_conversions,
         tot_impact = sum(impact),
         weighted_impact = impact / tot_impact,
         attrib_model_conversions = round(tot_conversions * weighted_impact)
  ) %>%
  select(channel_name, attrib_model_conversions)

```

Since with different transition matrices, the removal effects and attribution results stay the same, in practice we skip duplicates.

15.1.2.2.5 5. Non-conversion paths We incorporate null paths in this analysis.

```

##### Generic Probabilistic Model #####
df_all_paths_compl <- df_path_1_clean %>%
  group_by(customer_id) %>%
  summarise(path = paste(channel, collapse = ' > '),
            conversion = sum(conversion)) %>%

```

```

    ungroup() %>%
    mutate(null_conversion = ifelse(conversion == 1, 0, 1))

mod_attrib_complete <- markov_model(
  df_all_paths_compl,
  var_path = 'path',
  var_conv = 'conversion',
  var_null = 'null_conversion',
  out_more = TRUE
)

##
## Number of simulations: 100000 - Convergence reached: 4.05% < 5.00%
##
## Percentage of simulated paths that successfully end before maximum number of steps (27) is reached

trans_matrix_prob <- mod_attrib_complete$transition_matrix %>%
  dmap_at(c(1, 2), as.character)

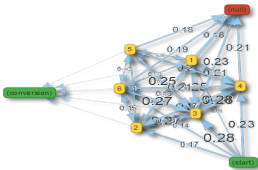
##### viz #####
edges <-
  data.frame(
    from = trans_matrix_prob$channel_from,
    to = trans_matrix_prob$channel_to,
    label = round(trans_matrix_prob$transition_probability, 2),
    font.size = trans_matrix_prob$transition_probability * 100,
    width = trans_matrix_prob$transition_probability * 15,
    shadow = TRUE,
    arrows = "to",
    color = list(color = "#95cbee", highlight = "red")
  )

nodes <- data_frame(id = c( c(trans_matrix_prob$channel_from), c(trans_matrix_prob$channel_to) ))
  distinct(id) %>%
  arrange(id) %>%
  mutate(
    label = id,
    color = ifelse(
      label %in% c('(start)', '(conversion)'),
      '#4ab04a',
      ifelse(label == '(null)', '#ce472e', '#ffd73e')
    ),
    shadow = TRUE,
    shape = "box"
  )

```

```
## Warning: `data_frame()` was deprecated in tibble 1.1.0.  
## Please use `tibble()` instead.  
visNetwork(nodes,  
            edges,  
            height = "2000px",  
            width = "100%",  
            main = "Generic Probabilistic model's Transition Matrix") %>%  
visIgraphLayout(randomSeed = 123) %>%  
visNodes(size = 5) %>%  
visOptions(highlightNearest = TRUE)
```


Generic Probabilistic model's Transition Matrix



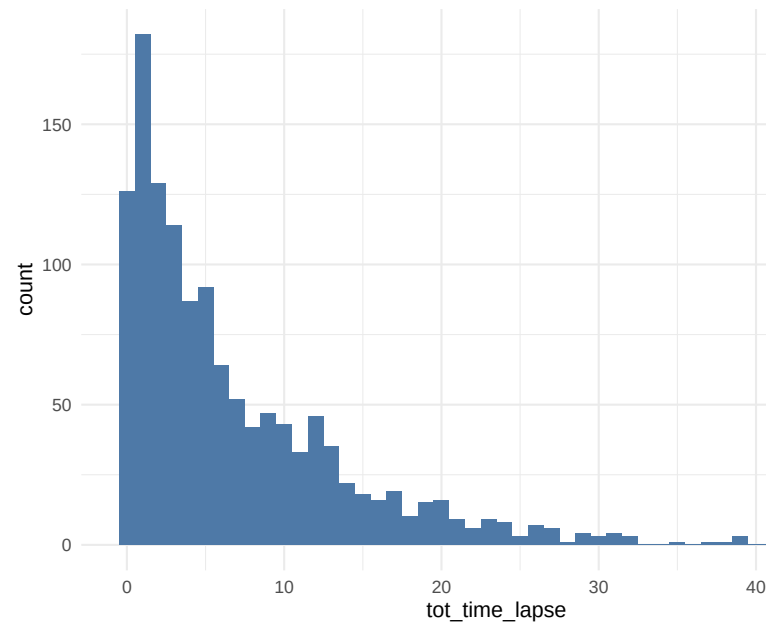
```
##### modeling states and conversions #####
# transition matrix preprocessing
trans_matrix_complete <- mod_attrib_complete$transition_matrix
trans_matrix_complete <- rbind(trans_matrix_complete, df_dummy %>%
                                mutate(transition_probability = perc) %>%
                                select(channel_from, channel_to, transition_prob))
trans_matrix_complete$channel_to <- factor(trans_matrix_complete$channel_to, levels = c(
trans_matrix_complete <- dcast(trans_matrix_complete, channel_from ~ channel_to, value = sum)
trans_matrix_complete[is.na(trans_matrix_complete)] <- 0
rownames(trans_matrix_complete) <- trans_matrix_complete$channel_from
trans_matrix_complete <- as.matrix(trans_matrix_complete[, -1])

# creating empty matrix for modeling
model_mtrx <- matrix(data = 0,
                     nrow = nrow(trans_matrix_complete), ncol = 1,
                     dimnames = list(c(rownames(trans_matrix_complete)), '(start)'))
# adding modeling number of visits
model_mtrx['channel_5', ] <- 1000

c(model_mtrx) %*% (trans_matrix_complete %*% 5) # after 5 steps
c(model_mtrx) %*% (trans_matrix_complete %*% 100000) # after 100000 steps
```

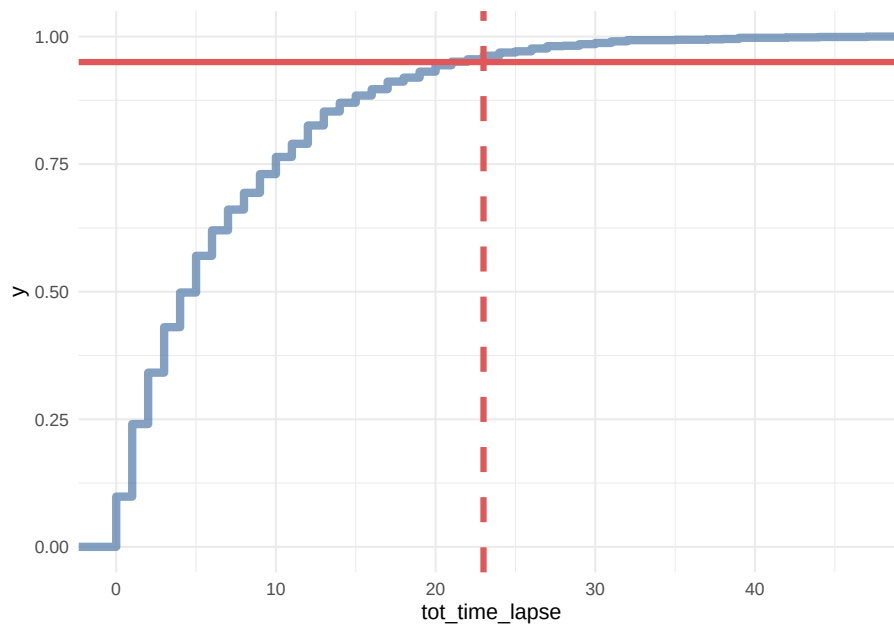
```
##### Customer journey duration #####
# computing time lapses from the first contact to conversion/last contact
df_multi_paths_tl <- df_path_1_clean_multi %>%
  group_by(customer_id) %>%
  summarise(path = paste(channel, collapse = ' > '),
            first_touch_date = min(date),
            last_touch_date = max(date),
            tot_time_lapse = round(as.numeric(last_touch_date - first_touch_date)),
            conversion = sum(conversion)) %>%
  ungroup()

# distribution plot
ggplot(df_multi_paths_tl %>% filter(conversion == 1), aes(x = tot_time_lapse)) +
  theme_minimal() +
  geom_histogram(fill = '#4e79a7', binwidth = 1)
```



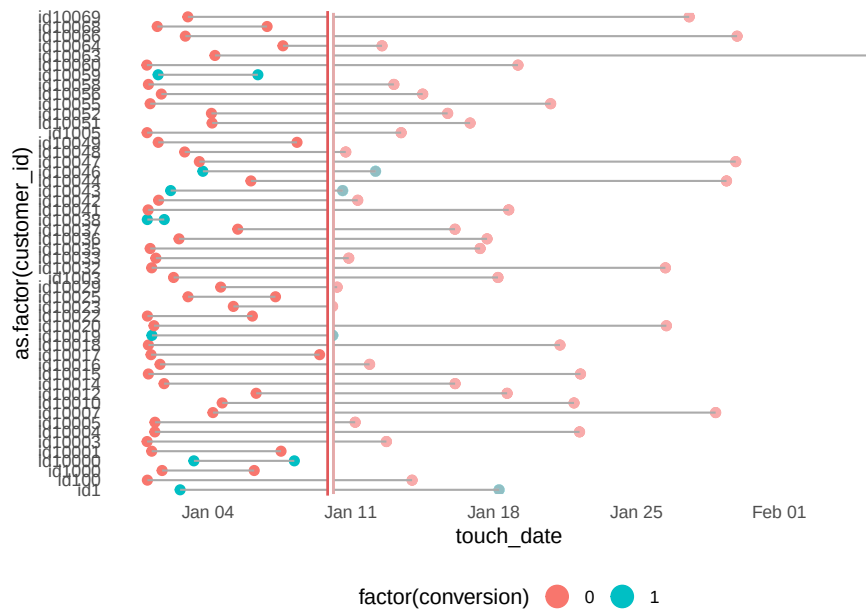
15.1.2.2.6 6. Customer Journey Duration

```
# cumulative distribution plot
ggplot(df_multi_paths_tl %>% filter(conversion == 1), aes(x = tot_time_lapse)) +
  theme_minimal() +
  stat_ecdf(geom = 'step', color = '#4e79a7', size = 2, alpha = 0.7) +
  geom_hline(yintercept = 0.95, color = '#e15759', size = 1.5) +
  geom_vline(xintercept = 23, color = '#e15759', size = 1.5, linetype = 2)
```



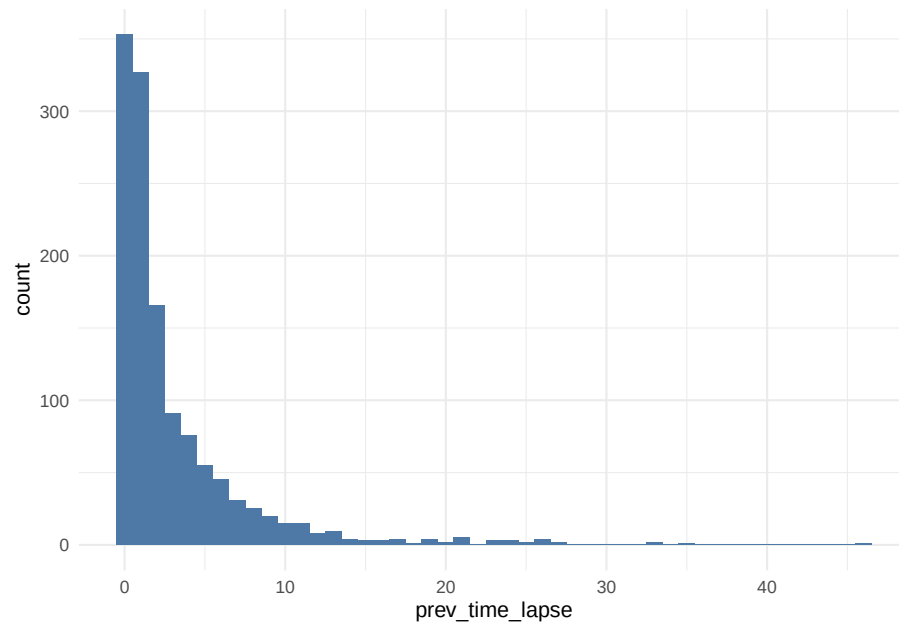
```
### for generic probabilistic model ###
df_multi_paths_tl_1 <- reshape2::melt(df_multi_paths_tl[c(1:50), ], %>% select(customer_id,
  id.vars = c('customer_id', 'conversion'),
  value.name = 'touch_date') %>%
  arrange(customer_id)
rep_date <- as.Date('2016-01-10', format = '%Y-%m-%d')

ggplot(df_multi_paths_tl_1, aes(x = as.factor(customer_id), y = touch_date, color = factor(customer_id))) +
  theme_minimal() +
  coord_flip() +
  geom_point(size = 2) +
  geom_line(size = 0.5, color = 'darkgrey') +
  geom_hline(yintercept = as.numeric(rep_date), color = '#e15759', size = 2) +
  geom_rect(xmin = -Inf, xmax = Inf, ymin = as.numeric(rep_date), ymax = Inf, alpha = 0.1) +
  theme(legend.position = 'bottom',
    panel.border = element_blank(),
    panel.grid.major = element_blank(),
    panel.grid.minor = element_blank(),
    axis.ticks.x = element_blank(),
    axis.ticks.y = element_blank()) +
  guides(colour = guide_legend(override.aes = list(size = 5)))
```

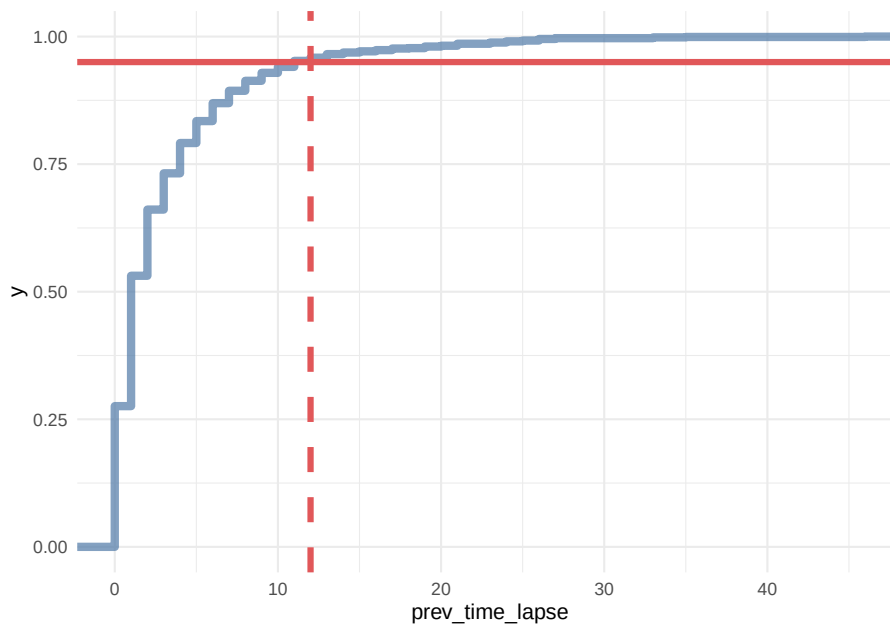


```
df_multi_paths_tl_2 <- df_path_1_clean_multi %>%
  group_by(customer_id) %>%
  mutate(prev_touch_date = lag(date)) %>%
  ungroup() %>%
  filter(conversion == 1) %>%
  mutate(prev_time_lapse = round(as.numeric(date - prev_touch_date)))

# distribution
ggplot(df_multi_paths_tl_2, aes(x = prev_time_lapse)) +
  theme_minimal() +
  geom_histogram(fill = '#4e79a7', binwidth = 1)
```



```
# cumulative distribution
ggplot(df_multi_paths_tl_2, aes(x = prev_time_lapse)) +
  theme_minimal() +
  stat_ecdf(geom = 'step', color = '#4e79a7', size = 2, alpha = 0.7) +
  geom_hline(yintercept = 0.95, color = '#e15759', size = 1.5) +
  geom_vline(xintercept = 12, color = '#e15759', size = 1.5, linetype = 2)
```



In conclusion, we say that if a customer made contact with a marketing channel the first time for more than 23 days and/or hasn't made contact with a marketing channel for the last 12 days, then it is a fruitless path.

```
# extracting data for generic model
df_multi_paths_tl_3 <- df_path_1_clean_multi %>%
  group_by(customer_id) %>%
  mutate(prev_time_lapse = round(as.numeric(date - lag(date)))) %>%
  summarise(path = paste(channel, collapse = ' > '),
            tot_time_lapse = round(as.numeric(max(date) - min(date))),
            prev_touch_tl = prev_time_lapse[which(max(date) == date)],
            conversion = sum(conversion)) %>%
  ungroup() %>%
  mutate(is_fruitless = ifelse(conversion == 0 & tot_time_lapse > 20 & prev_touch_tl > 10,
                               1, 0))
  filter(conversion == 1 | is_fruitless == TRUE)
```

15.1.2.2.7 7. Channel Comparisons We can use `markov_model` with `var_value` to compare the gross margin among channels.

15.1.2.3 Example 3

This example is from Bounteous

```
# Install these libraries (only do this once)
# install.packages("ChannelAttribution")
# install.packages("reshape")
```

```
# install.packages("ggplot2")

# Load these libraries (every time you start RStudio)
library(ChannelAttribution)
library(reshape)
library(ggplot2)

# This loads the demo data. You can load your own data by importing a dataset or reading
data(PathData)
```

- Path Variable – The steps a user takes across sessions to comprise the sequences.
- Conversion Variable – How many times a user converted.
- Value Variable – The monetary value of each marketing channel.
- Null Variable – How many times a user exited.

Build the simple heuristic models (First Click / first_touch, Last Click / last_touch, and Linear Attribution / linear_touch):

```
H <- heuristic_models(Data, 'path', 'total_conversions', var_value='total_conversion_value')
```

Markov model

```
M <- markov_model(Data, 'path', 'total_conversions', var_value='total_conversion_value')
```

```
##
## Number of simulations: 100000 - Convergence reached: 1.46% < 5.00%
##
## Percentage of simulated paths that successfully end before maximum number of steps
# Merges the two data frames on the "channel_name" column.
R <- merge(H, M, by='channel_name')

# Selects only relevant columns
R1 <- R[, (colnames(R)%in%c('channel_name', 'first_touch_conversions', 'last_touch_conversions'))]

# Renames the columns
colnames(R1) <- c('channel_name', 'first_touch', 'last_touch', 'linear_touch', 'markov')

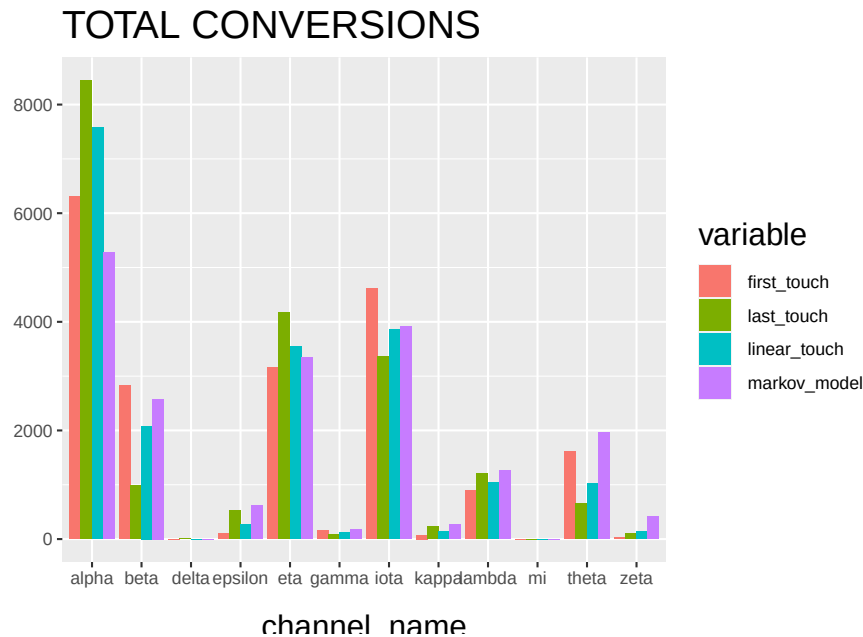
# Transforms the dataset into a data frame that ggplot2 can use to graph the outcomes
R1 <- melt(R1, id='channel_name')
```

Plot the total conversions

```
ggplot(R1, aes(channel_name, value, fill = variable)) +
  geom_bar(stat='identity', position='dodge') +
  ggtitle('TOTAL CONVERSIONS') +
  theme(axis.title.x = element_text(vjust = -2)) +
  theme(axis.title.y = element_text(vjust = +2)) +
```



```
theme(title = element_text(size = 16)) +
theme(plot.title=element_text(size = 20)) +
ylab("")
```



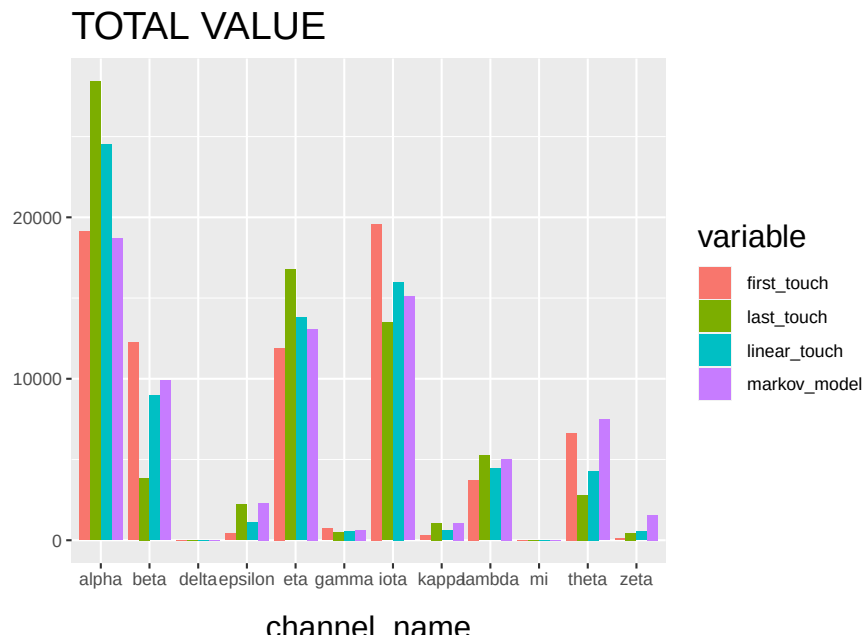
The “Total Conversions” bar chart shows you how many conversions were attributed to each channel (i.e. alpha, beta, etc.) for each method (i.e. first_touch, last_touch, etc.).

```
R2 <- R[, (colnames(R)%in%c('channel_name', 'first_touch_value', 'last_touch_value', 'linear_touch_value'))]

colnames(R2) <- c('channel_name', 'first_touch', 'last_touch', 'linear_touch', 'markov_model')

R2 <- melt(R2, id='channel_name')

ggplot(R2, aes(channel_name, value, fill = variable)) +
  geom_bar(stat='identity', position='dodge') +
  ggtitle('TOTAL VALUE') +
  theme(axis.title.x = element_text(vjust = -2)) +
  theme(axis.title.y = element_text(vjust = +2)) +
  theme(title = element_text(size = 16)) +
  theme(plot.title=element_text(size = 20)) +
  ylab("")
```



The “Total Conversion Value” bar chart shows you monetary value that can be attributed to each channel from a conversion.

15.2 Sales Funnel

15.2.1 Example 1

This example is based on Sergey Bryl

$$Awareness \rightarrow Interest \rightarrow Desire \rightarrow Action$$

Step in the funnel:

- 0 step (necessary condition) – customer visits a site for the first time
- 1st step (awareness) – visits two site’s pages
- 2nd step (interest) – reviews a product page
- 3rd step (desire) – adds a product to the shopping cart
- 4th step (action) – completes purchase

Simulate data

```
library(tidyverse)
library(purrrlyr)
library(reshape2)

##### simulating the "real" data #####
```

```

set.seed(454)
df_raw <-
  data.frame(
    customer_id = paste0('id', sample(c(1:5000), replace = TRUE)),
    date = as.POSIXct(
      rbeta(10000, 0.7, 10) * 10000000,
      origin = '2017-01-01',
      tz = "UTC"
    ),
    channel = paste0('channel_', sample(
      c(0:7),
      10000,
      replace = TRUE,
      prob = c(0.2, 0.12, 0.03, 0.07, 0.15, 0.25, 0.1, 0.08)
    )),
    site_visit = 1
  ) %>%

  mutate(
    two_pages_visit = sample(c(0, 1), 10000, replace = TRUE, prob = c(0.8, 0.2)),
    product_page_visit = ifelse(
      two_pages_visit == 1,
      sample(
        c(0, 1),
        length(two_pages_visit[which(two_pages_visit == 1)]),
        replace = TRUE,
        prob = c(0.75, 0.25)
      ),
      0
    ),
    add_to_cart = ifelse(
      product_page_visit == 1,
      sample(
        c(0, 1),
        length(product_page_visit[which(product_page_visit == 1)]),
        replace = TRUE,
        prob = c(0.1, 0.9)
      ),
      0
    ),
    purchase = ifelse(add_to_cart == 1,
                      sample(
                        c(0, 1),
                        length(add_to_cart[which(add_to_cart == 1)]),
                        replace = TRUE,

```

```

        prob = c(0.02, 0.98)
      ),
      0)
    ) %>%
    dmap_at(c('customer_id', 'channel'), as.character) %>%
    arrange(date) %>%
    mutate(session_id = row_number()) %>%
    arrange(customer_id, session_id)
df_raw <-
  reshape2::melt(
    df_raw,
    id.vars = c('customer_id', 'date', 'channel', 'session_id'),
    value.name = "trigger",
    variable.name = 'event'
  ) %>%
  filter(trigger == 1) %>%
  select(-trigger) %>%
  arrange(customer_id, date)

```

Preprocessing

```

### removing not first events ###
df_customers <- df_raw %>%
  group_by(customer_id, event) %>%
  filter(date == min(date)) %>%
  ungroup()

```

Assumption: all customers are first-time buyers. Hence, every next purchase as an event will be removed with the above code.

Calculate channel probability

```

### Sales Funnel probabilities ###
sf_probs <- df_customers %>%

  group_by(event) %>%
  summarise(customers_on_step = n()) %>%
  ungroup() %>%

  mutate(
    sf_probs = round(customers_on_step / customers_on_step[event == 'site_visit'],
    sf_probs_step = round(customers_on_step / lag(customers_on_step), 3),
    sf_probs_step = ifelse(is.na(sf_probs_step) == TRUE, 1, sf_probs_step),
    sf_importance = 1 - sf_probs_step,
    sf_importance_weighted = sf_importance / sum(sf_importance)
  )

```

Visualization

```
### Sales Funnel visualization ###
df_customers_plot <- df_customers %>%

  group_by(event) %>%
  arrange(channel) %>%
  mutate(pl = row_number()) %>%
  ungroup() %>%

  mutate(
    pl_new = case_when(
      event == 'two_pages_visit' ~ round((max(pl[event == 'site_visit']) - max(pl[event ==
      event == 'product_page_visit' ~ round((max(pl[event == 'site_visit']) - max(pl[event
      event == 'add_to_cart' ~ round((max(pl[event == 'site_visit']) - max(pl[event == 'add
      event == 'purchase' ~ round((max(pl[event == 'site_visit']) - max(pl[event == 'purcha
      TRUE ~ 0
    ),
    pl = pl + pl_new
  )

df_customers_plot$event <-
  factor(
    df_customers_plot$event,
    levels = c(
      'purchase',
      'add_to_cart',
      'product_page_visit',
      'two_pages_visit',
      'site_visit'
    )
  )

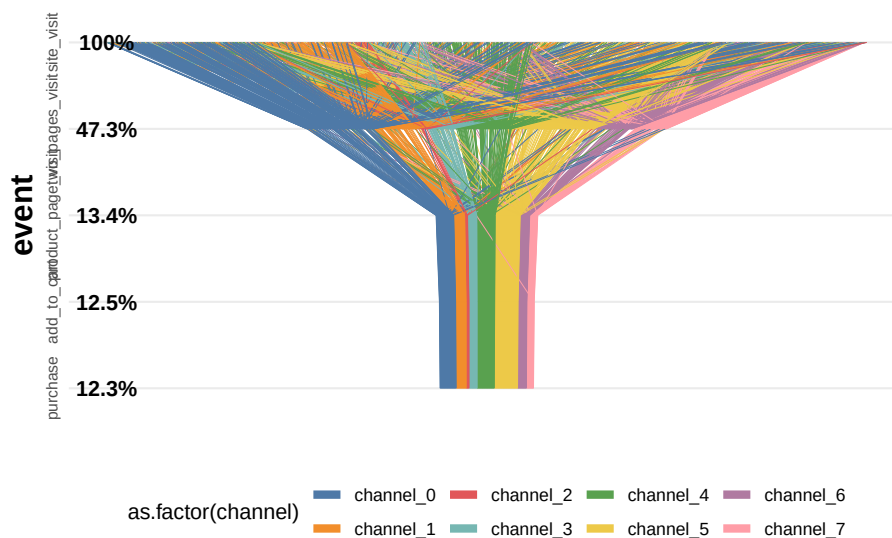
# color palette
cols <- c(
  '#4e79a7',
  '#f28e2b',
  '#e15759',
  '#76b7b2',
  '#59a14f',
  '#edc948',
  '#b07aa1',
  '#ff9da7',
  '#9c755f',
  '#bab0ac'
)
```

```

ggplot(df_customers_plot, aes(x = event, y = pl)) +
  theme_minimal() +
  scale_colour_manual(values = cols) +
  coord_flip() +
  geom_line(aes(group = customer_id, color = as.factor(channel)), size = 0.05) +
  geom_text(
    data = sf_probs,
    aes(
      x = event,
      y = 1,
      label = paste0(sf_probs * 100, '%')
    ),
    size = 4,
    fontface = 'bold'
  ) +
  guides(color = guide_legend(override.aes = list(size = 2))) +
  theme(
    legend.position = 'bottom',
    legend.direction = "horizontal",
    panel.grid.major.x = element_blank(),
    panel.grid.minor = element_blank(),
    plot.title = element_text(
      size = 20,
      face = "bold",
      vjust = 2,
      color = 'black',
      lineheight = 0.8
    ),
    axis.title.y = element_text(size = 16, face = "bold"),
    axis.title.x = element_blank(),
    axis.text.x = element_blank(),
    axis.text.y = element_text(
      size = 8,
      angle = 90,
      hjust = 0.5,
      vjust = 0.5,
      face = "plain"
    )
  ) +
  ggtitle("Sales Funnel visualization - all customers journeys")

```

Sales Funnel visualization – all customers jou



Calculate attribution

```
### computing attribution ###
df_attrib <- df_customers %>%
  # removing customers without purchase
  group_by(customer_id) %>%
  filter(any(as.character(event) == 'purchase')) %>%
  ungroup() %>%

  # joining step's importances
  left_join(., sf_probs %>% select(event, sf_importance_weighted), by = 'event') %>%

  group_by(channel) %>%
  summarise(tot_attribution = sum(sf_importance_weighted)) %>%
  ungroup()
```

15.2.2 Example 2

Code from Sergey Bryl

```
library(dplyr)
library(ggplot2)
library(reshape2)

# creating a data samples
# content
```

```

df.content <- data.frame(
  content = c(
    'main',
    'ad landing',
    'product 1',
    'product 2',
    'product 3',
    'product 4',
    'shopping cart',
    'thank you page'
  ),
  step = c(
    'awareness',
    'awareness',
    'interest',
    'interest',
    'interest',
    'interest',
    'desire',
    'action'
  ),
  number = c(150000, 80000,
             80000, 40000, 35000, 25000,
             130000,
             120000)
)
# customers
df.customers <- data.frame(
  content = c('new', 'engaged', 'loyal'),
  step = c('new', 'engaged', 'loyal'),
  number = c(25000, 40000, 55000)
)
# combining two data sets
df.all <- rbind(df.content, df.customers)

# calculating dummies, max and min values of X for plotting
df.all <- df.all %>%
  group_by(step) %>%
  mutate(totnum = sum(number)) %>%
  ungroup() %>%
  mutate(dum = (max(totnum) - totnum) / 2,
         maxx = totnum + dum,
         minx = dum)

# data frame for plotting funnel lines

```



```

df.lines <- df.all %>%
  distinct(step, maxx, minx)

# data frame with dummies
df.dum <- df.all %>%
  distinct(step, dum) %>%
  mutate(content = 'dummy',
         number = dum) %>%
  select(content, step, number)

# data frame with rates
conv <- df.all$totnum[df.all$step == 'action']

df.rates <- df.all %>%
  distinct(step, totnum) %>%
  mutate(
    prevnum = lag(totnum),
    rate = ifelse(
      step == 'new' | step == 'engaged' | step == 'loyal',
      round(totnum / conv, 3),
      round(totnum / prevnum, 3)
    )
  ) %>%
  select(step, rate)
df.rates <- na.omit(df.rates)

# creting final data frame
df.all <- df.all %>%
  select(content, step, number)

df.all <- rbind(df.all, df.dum)

# defining order of steps
df.all$step <-
  factor(
    df.all$step,
    levels = c(
      'loyal',
      'engaged',
      'new',
      'action',
      'desire',
      'interest',
      'awareness'
    )
  )

```

```

    )
df.all <- df.all %>%
  arrange(desc(step))
list1 <- df.all %>% distinct(content) %>%
  filter(content != 'dummy')
df.all$content <-
  factor(df.all$content, levels = c(as.character(list1$content), 'dummy'))

# calculating position of labels
df.all <- df.all %>%
  arrange(step, desc(content)) %>%
  group_by(step) %>%
  mutate(pos = cumsum(number) - 0.5 * number) %>%
  ungroup()

# creating custom palette with 'white' color for dummies
cols <- c(
  "#fec44f",
  "#fc9272",
  "#a1d99b",
  "#fee0d2",
  "#2ca25f",
  "#8856a7",
  "#43a2ca",
  "#fdbb84",
  "#e34a33",
  "#a6bddb",
  "#dd1c77",
  "#ffffff"
)

# plotting chart
ggplot() +
  theme_minimal() +
  coord_flip() +
  scale_fill_manual(values = cols) +
  geom_bar(
    data = df.all,
    aes(x = step, y = number, fill = content),
    stat = "identity",
    width = 1
  ) +
  geom_text(
    data = df.all[df.all$content != 'dummy',],
    aes(

```

```

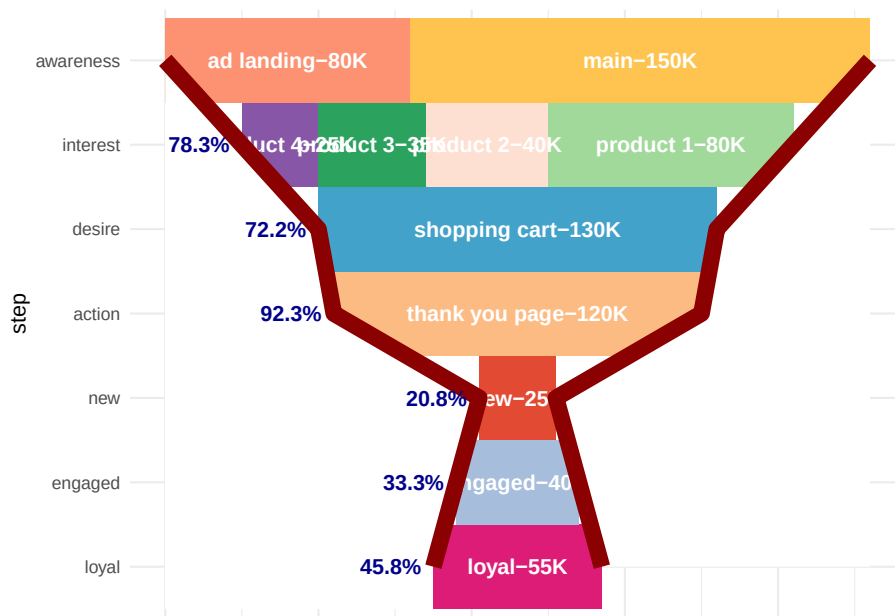
        x = step,
        y = pos,
        label = paste0(content, '-', number / 1000, 'K')
    ),
    size = 4,
    color = 'white',
    fontface = "bold"
) +
geom_ribbon(data = df.lines,
           aes(
               x = step,
               ymax = max(maxx),
               ymin = maxx,
               group = 1
           ),
           fill = 'white') +
geom_line(
    data = df.lines,
    aes(x = step, y = maxx, group = 1),
    color = 'darkred',
    size = 4
) +
geom_ribbon(data = df.lines,
           aes(
               x = step,
               ymax = minx,
               ymin = min(minx),
               group = 1
           ),
           fill = 'white') +
geom_line(
    data = df.lines,
    aes(x = step, y = minx, group = 1),
    color = 'darkred',
    size = 4
) +
geom_text(
    data = df.rates,
    aes(
        x = step,
        y = (df.lines$minx[-1]),
        label = paste0(rate * 100, '%')
    ),
    hjust = 1.2,
    color = 'darkblue',

```

```

    fontface = "bold"
  ) +
  theme(
    legend.position = 'none',
    axis.ticks = element_blank(),
    axis.text.x = element_blank(),
    axis.title.x = element_blank()
  )

```



15.3 RFM

RFM is calculated as:

- A recency score is assigned to each customer based on date of most recent purchase.
- A frequency ranking is assigned based on frequency of purchases
- Monetary score is assigned based on the total revenue generated by the customer in the period under consideration for the analysis

```

library("rfm")
rfm_data_customer

```

```

## # A tibble: 39,999 x 5
##   customer_id revenue most_recent_visit number_of_orders recency_days
##         <dbl>   <dbl> <date>                <dbl>         <dbl>

```

```
## 1      22086      777 2006-05-14      9      232
## 2      2290      1555 2006-09-08     16      115
## 3      26377      336 2006-11-19      5       43
## 4      24650     1189 2006-10-29     12       64
## 5      12883     1229 2006-12-09     12       23
## 6      2119      929 2006-10-21     11       72
## 7      31283     1569 2006-09-11     17      112
## 8      33815      778 2006-08-12     11      142
## 9      15972      641 2006-11-19      9       43
## 10     27650      970 2006-08-23     10      131
## # ... with 39,989 more rows
```

```
# a unique customer id
# number of transaction/order
# total revenue from the customer
# number of days since the last visit
```

```
rfm_data_orders # to generate data_orders, use rfm_table_order()
```

```
## # A tibble: 4,906 x 3
##   customer_id      order_date revenue
##   <chr>          <date>     <dbl>
## 1 Mr. Brion Stark Sr. 2004-12-20      32
## 2 Ethyl Botsford    2005-05-02      36
## 3 Hosteen Jacobi     2004-03-06     116
## 4 Mr. Edw Frami      2006-03-15      99
## 5 Josef Lemke        2006-08-14      76
## 6 Julisa Halvorson   2005-05-28      56
## 7 Judyth Lueilwitz   2005-03-09     108
## 8 Mr. Mekhi Goyette   2005-09-23     183
## 9 Hansford Moen PhD   2005-09-07      30
## 10 Fount Flatley      2006-04-12      13
## # ... with 4,896 more rows
```

```
# unique customer id
# date of transaction
# and amount
# customer_id: name of the customer id column
# order_date: name of the transaction date column
# revenue: name of the transaction amount column
# analysis_date: date of analysis
# recency_bins: number of rankings for recency score (default is 5)
# frequency_bins: number of rankings for frequency score (default is 5)
# monetary_bins: number of rankings for monetary score (default is 5)
```

```

analysis_date <- lubridate::as_date('2007-01-01')
rfm_result <-
  rfm_table_customer(
    rfm_data_customer,
    customer_id,
    number_of_orders,
    recency_days,
    revenue,
    analysis_date
  )
rfm_result

## # A tibble: 39,999 x 8
##   customer_id recency_days transaction_count amount recency_score
##   <dbl>         <dbl>           <dbl>   <dbl>         <int>
## 1      22086         232             9     777           2
## 2       2290         115            16    1555           4
## 3     26377          43             5     336           5
## 4     24650          64            12    1189           5
## 5     12883          23            12    1229           5
## 6       2119          72            11     929           5
## 7     31283         112            17    1569           4
## 8     33815         142            11     778           3
## 9     15972          43             9     641           5
## 10    27650         131            10     970           3
## # ... with 39,989 more rows, and 3 more variables: frequency_score <int>,
## #   monetary_score <int>, rfm_score <dbl>

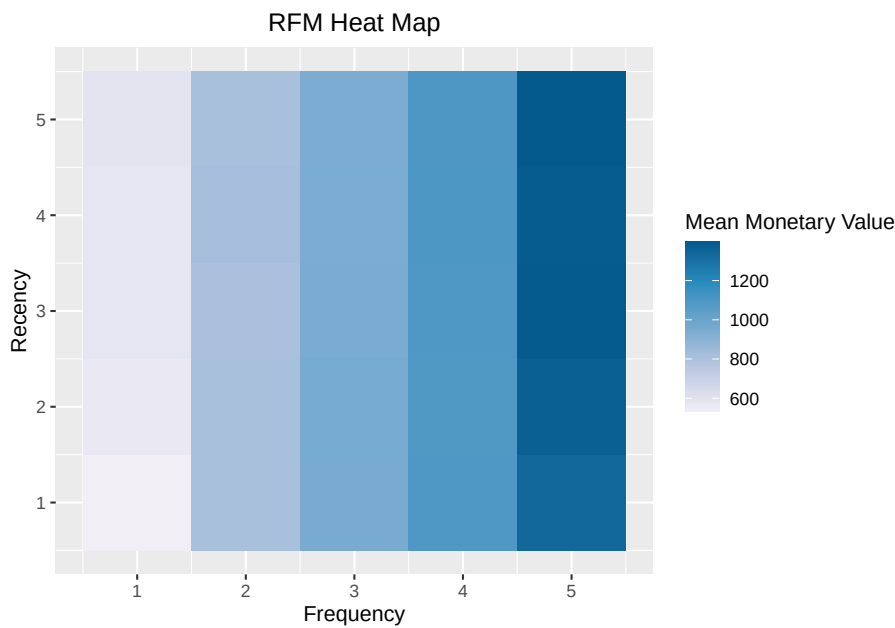
# customer_id: unique customer id
# date_most_recent: date of most recent visit
# recency_days: days since the most recent visit
# transaction_count: number of transactions of the customer
# amount: total revenue generated by the customer
# recency_score: recency score of the customer
# frequency_score: frequency score of the customer
# monetary_score: monetary score of the customer
# rfm_score: RFM score of the customer

```

15.3.1 Visualization

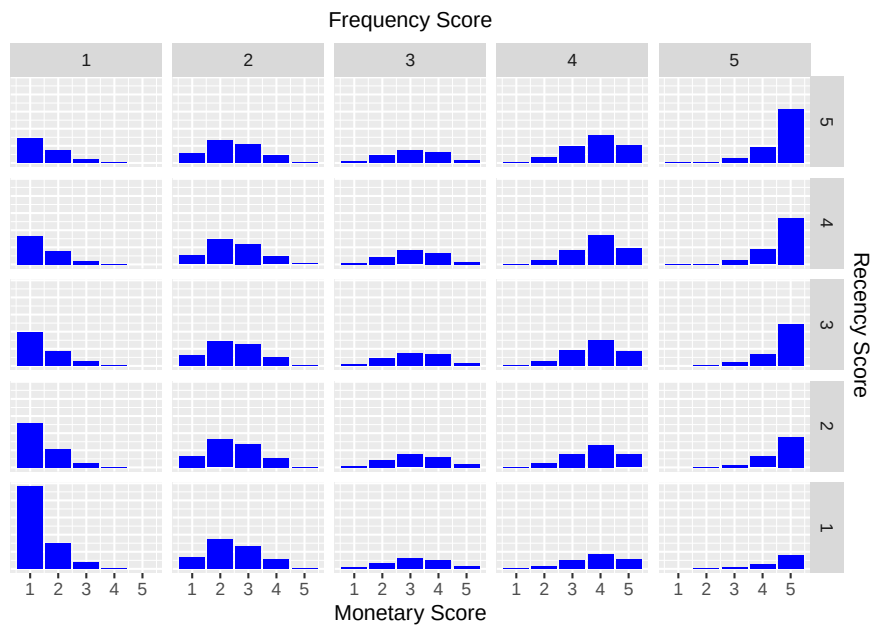
heat map shows the average monetary value for different categories of recency and frequency scores

```
rfm_heatmap(rfm_result)
```



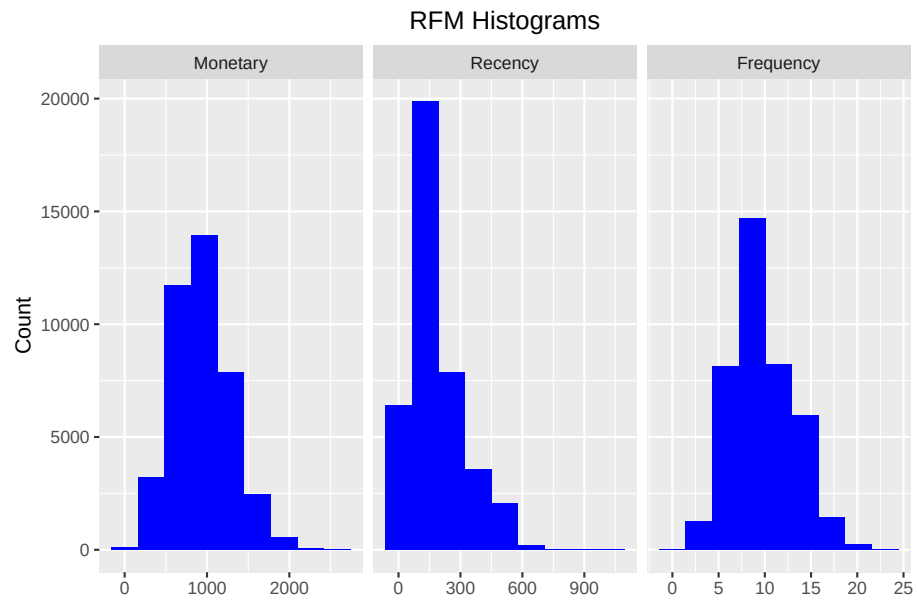
bar chart

```
rfm_bar_chart(rfm_result)
```



histogram

```
rfm_histograms(rfm_result)
```



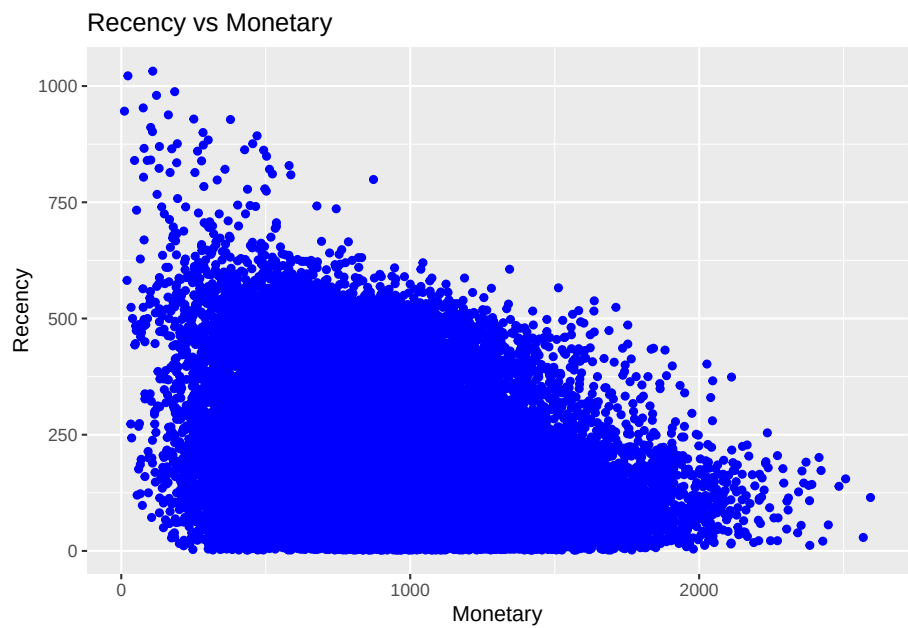
Customers by Orders

```
rfm_order_dist(rfm_result)
```

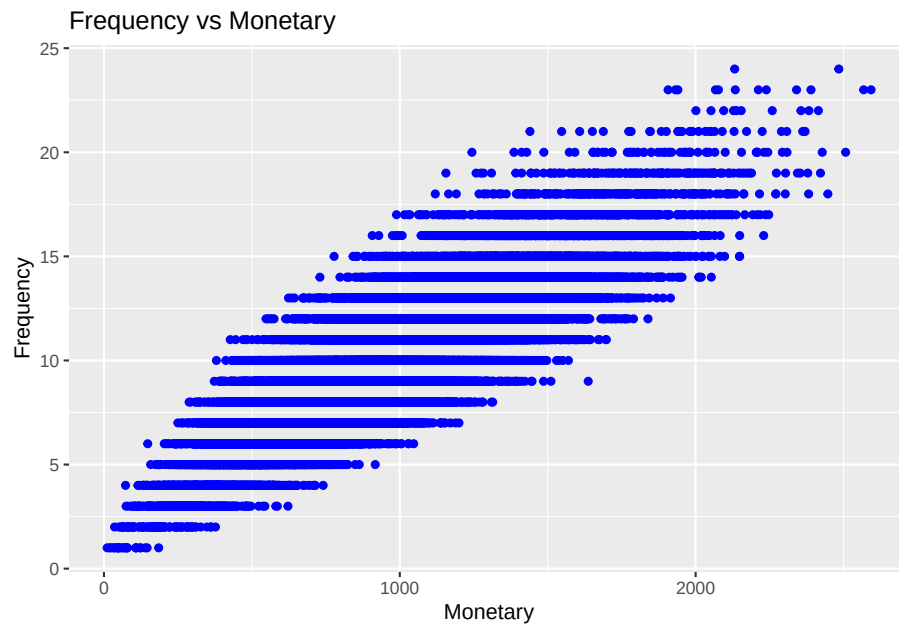



Scatter Plots

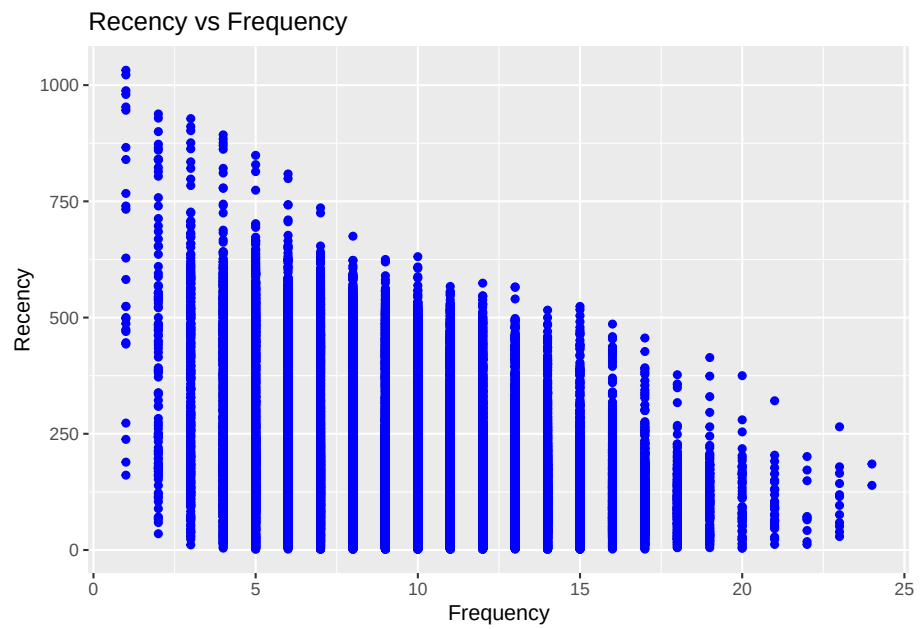
```
rfm_rm_plot(rfm_result)
```



```
rfm_fm_plot(rfm_result)
```



```
rfm_rf_plot(rfm_result)
```



15.3.2 RFMC

(C) clumpiness is defined as the degree of nonconformity to equal spacing (Zhang et al., 2015)

In finance, clumpiness can indicate high growth potential but large risk, Hence, it can be incorporated into firm acquisition decision. Originated from sports phenomenon - hot hand effect - where success leads to more success.

In statistics, clumpiness is the serial dependence or “non-constant propensity, specifically temporary elevations of propensity— i.e. periods during which one event is more likely to occur than the average level.” (Zhang et al., 2013)

Properties of clumpiness:

- Min (max) if events are equally spaced (close to one another)
- Continuity
- Convergence

15.4 Customer Segmentation

15.4.1 Example 1

Continue from the RFM

```
segment_names <-
  c(
    "Premium",
    "Loyal Customers",
    "Potential Loyalist",
    "New Customers",
    "Promising",
    "Need Attention",
    "About To Churn",
    "At Risk",
    "High Value Churners/Resurrection",
    "Low Value Churners"
  )

recency_lower <- c(4, 2, 3, 4, 3, 2, 2, 1, 1, 1)
recency_upper <- c(5, 5, 5, 5, 4, 3, 3, 2, 1, 2)
frequency_lower <- c(4, 3, 1, 1, 1, 2, 1, 2, 4, 1)
frequency_upper <- c(5, 5, 3, 1, 1, 3, 2, 5, 5, 2)
monetary_lower <- c(4, 3, 1, 1, 1, 2, 1, 2, 4, 1)
monetary_upper <- c(5, 5, 3, 1, 1, 3, 2, 5, 5, 2)

rfm_segments <-
  rfm_segment(
```

```

      rfm_result,
      segment_names,
      recency_lower,
      recency_upper,
      frequency_lower,
      frequency_upper,
      monetary_lower,
      monetary_upper
    )

head(rfm_segments, n = 5)

rfm_segments %>%
  count(rfm_segments$segment) %>%
  arrange(desc(n)) %>%
  rename(Count = n)

# median recency
rfm_plot_median_recency(rfm_segments)

# median frequency
rfm_plot_median_frequency(rfm_segments)

# Median Monetary Value
rfm_plot_median_monetary(rfm_segments)

```

15.4.2 Example 2

Example by Sergey

15.4.2.1 LifeCycle Grids

```

# loading libraries
library(dplyr)
library(reshape2)
library(ggplot2)

# creating data sample
set.seed(10)
data <- data.frame(
  orderId = sample(c(1:1000), 5000, replace = TRUE),
  product = sample(
    c('NULL', 'a', 'b', 'c'),
    5000,

```

```

        replace = TRUE,
        prob = c(0.15, 0.65, 0.3, 0.15)
      )
    )
order <- data.frame(orderId = c(1:1000),
                    clientId = sample(c(1:300), 1000, replace = TRUE))
gender <- data.frame(clientId = c(1:300),
                    gender = sample(
                      c('male', 'female'),
                      300,
                      replace = TRUE,
                      prob = c(0.40, 0.60)
                    ))
date <- data.frame(orderId = c(1:1000),
                  orderdate = sample((1:100), 1000, replace = TRUE))
orders <- merge(data, order, by = 'orderId')
orders <- merge(orders, gender, by = 'clientId')
orders <- merge(orders, date, by = 'orderId')
orders <- orders[orders$product != 'NULL',]
orders$orderdate <- as.Date(orders$orderdate, origin = "2012-01-01")
rm(data, date, order, gender)

# reporting date
today <- as.Date('2012-04-11', format = '%Y-%m-%d')

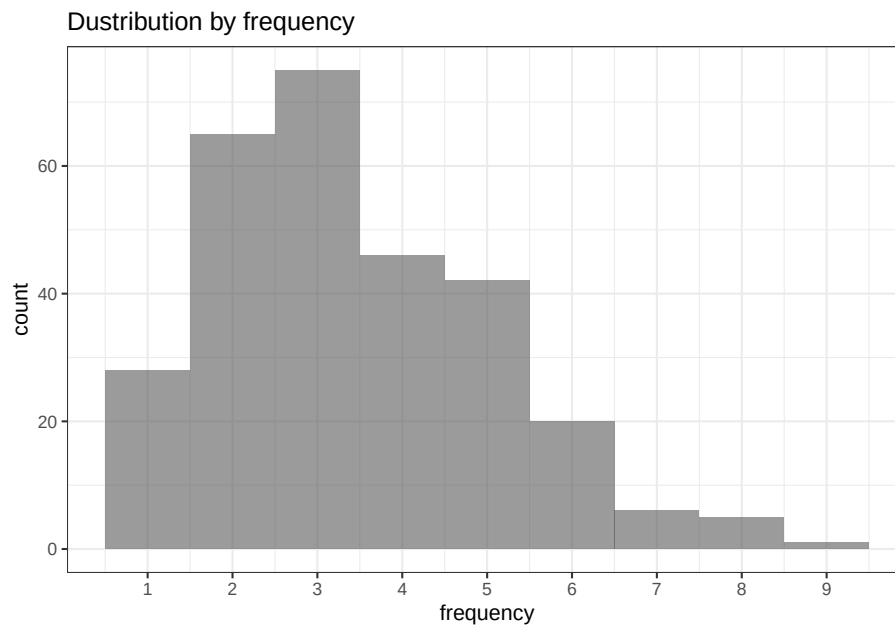
# processing data
orders <-
  dcast(
    orders,
    orderId + clientId + gender + orderdate ~ product,
    value.var = 'product',
    fun.aggregate = length
  )

orders <- orders %>%
  group_by(clientId) %>%
  mutate(frequency = n(),
         recency = as.numeric(today - orderdate)) %>%
  filter(orderdate == max(orderdate)) %>%
  filter(orderId == max(orderId)) %>%
  ungroup()

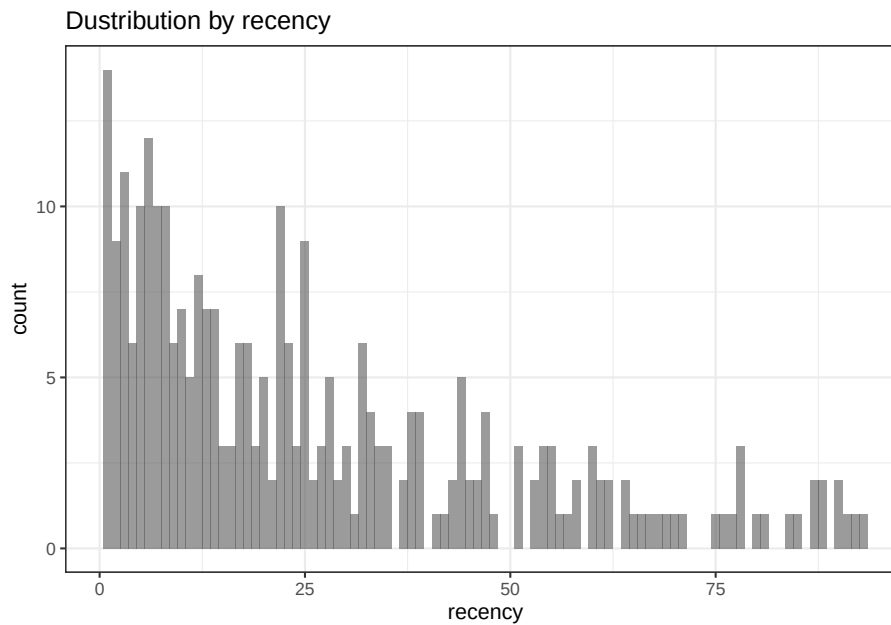
# exploratory analysis
ggplot(orders, aes(x = frequency)) +
  theme_bw() +

```

```
scale_x_continuous(breaks = c(1:10)) +  
geom_bar(alpha = 0.6, width = 1) +  
ggtitle("Dustribution by frequency")
```



```
ggplot(orders, aes(x = recency)) +  
  theme_bw() +  
  geom_bar(alpha = 0.6, width = 1) +  
  ggtitle("Dustribution by recency")
```



```
orders.segm <- orders %>%
  mutate(segm.freq = ifelse(between(frequency, 1, 1), '1',
                              ifelse(
                                between(frequency, 2, 2), '2',
                                ifelse(between(frequency, 3, 3), '3',
                                      ifelse(
                                        between(frequency, 4, 4), '4',
                                        ifelse(between(frequency, 5, 5), '5', '>5')
                                      ))
                                ))) %>%
  mutate(segm.rec = ifelse(
    between(recency, 0, 6),
    '0-6 days',
    ifelse(
      between(recency, 7, 13),
      '7-13 days',
      ifelse(
        between(recency, 14, 19),
        '14-19 days',
        ifelse(
          between(recency, 20, 45),
          '20-45 days',
          ifelse(between(recency, 46, 80), '46-80 days', '>80 days')
        )
      )
    )
  )
```

```

    )
  )) %>%
  # creating last cart feature
  mutate(cart = paste(
    ifelse(a != 0, 'a', ''),
    ifelse(b != 0, 'b', ''),
    ifelse(c != 0, 'c', ''),
    sep = ''
  )) %>%
  arrange(clientId)

# defining order of boundaries
orders.segm$segm.freq <-
  factor(orders.segm$segm.freq, levels = c('>5', '5', '4', '3', '2', '1'))
orders.segm$segm.rec <-
  factor(
    orders.segm$segm.rec,
    levels = c(
      '>80 days',
      '46-80 days',
      '20-45 days',
      '14-19 days',
      '7-13 days',
      '0-6 days'
    )
  )
)

```

```

lcg <- orders.segm %>%
  group_by(segm.rec, segm.freq) %>%
  summarise(quantity = n()) %>%
  mutate(client = 'client') %>%
  ungroup()

```

`summarise()` has grouped output by 'segm.rec'. You can override using the `.groups`

```

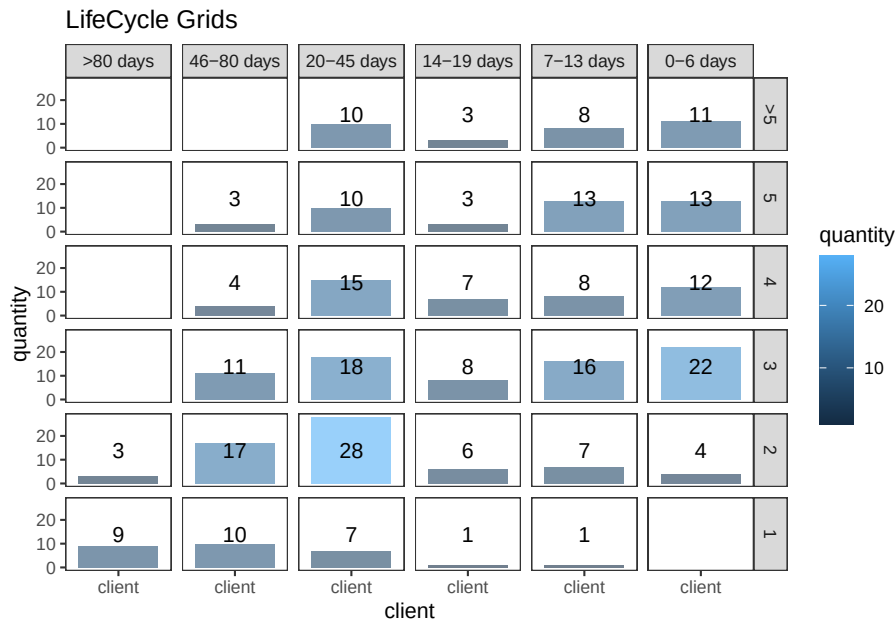
lcg.matrix <-
  dcast(lcg,
    segm.freq ~ segm.rec,
    value.var = 'quantity',
    fun.aggregate = sum)

ggplot(lcg, aes(x = client, y = quantity, fill = quantity)) +
  theme_bw() +
  theme(panel.grid = element_blank()) +
  geom_bar(stat = 'identity', alpha = 0.6) +
  geom_text(aes(y = max(quantity) / 2, label = quantity), size = 4) +

```

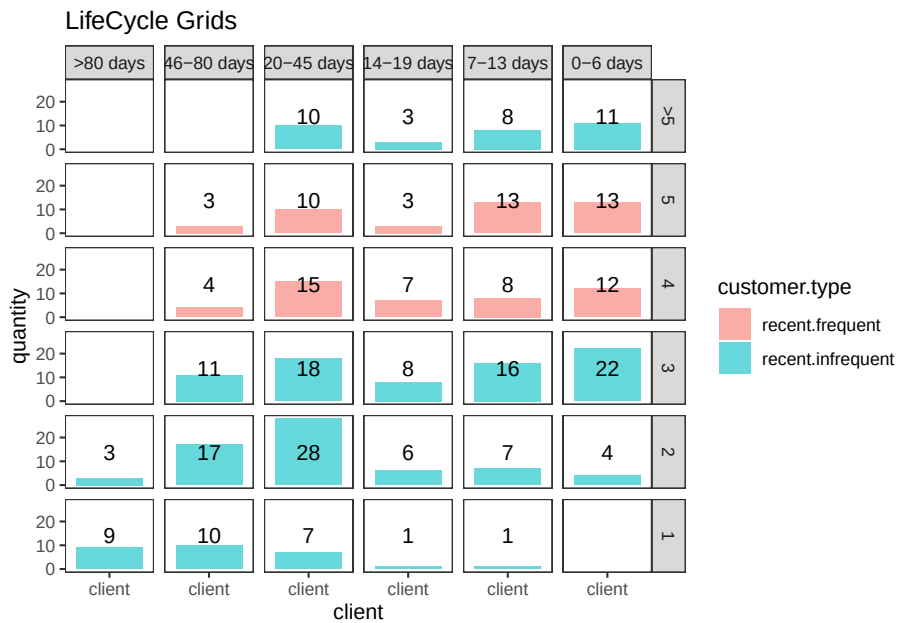


```
facet_grid(segm.freq ~ segm.rec) +
ggtitle("LifeCycle Grids")
```

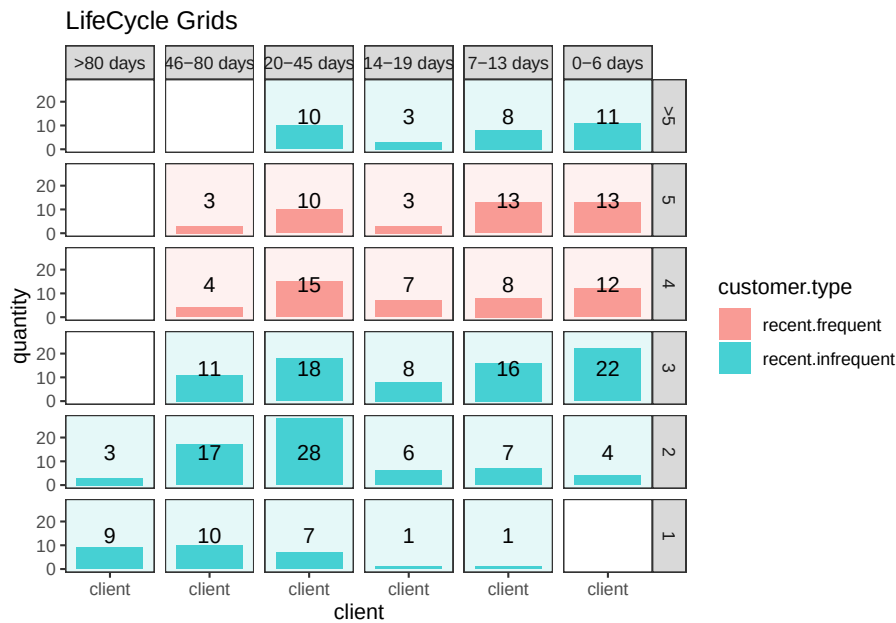


```
lcg.adv <- lcg %>%
  mutate(
    rec.type = ifelse(
      segm.rec %in% c("> 80 days", "46 - 80 days", "20 - 45 days"),
      "not recent",
      "recent"
    ),
    freq.type = ifelse(segm.freq %in% c("> 5", "5", "4"), "frequent", "infrequent"),
    customer.type = interaction(rec.type, freq.type)
  )

ggplot(lcg.adv, aes(x = client, y = quantity, fill = customer.type)) +
  theme_bw() +
  theme(panel.grid = element_blank()) +
  facet_grid(segm.freq ~ segm.rec) +
  geom_bar(stat = 'identity', alpha = 0.6) +
  geom_text(aes(y = max(quantity) / 2, label = quantity), size = 4) +
  ggtitle("LifeCycle Grids")
```



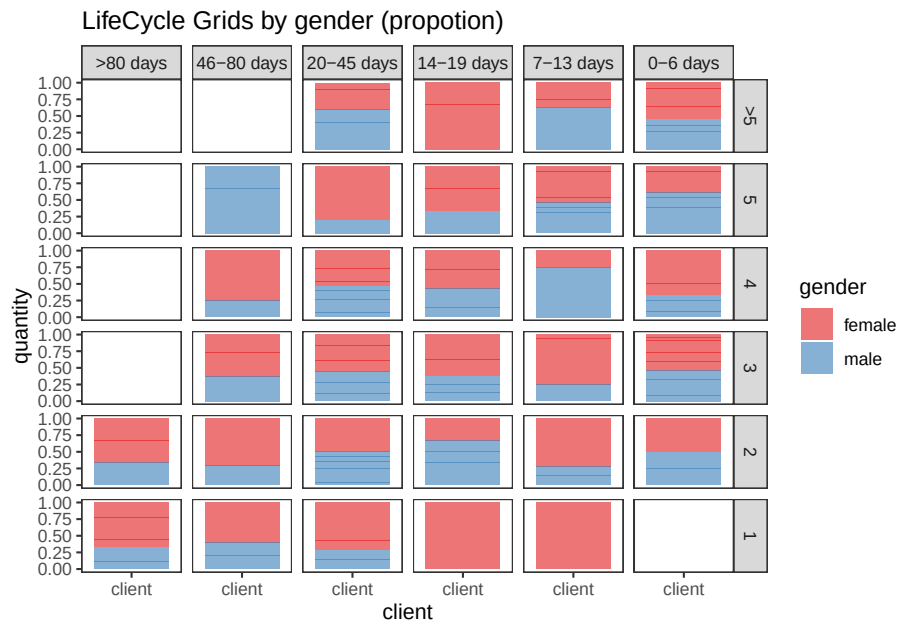
```
# with background
ggplot(lcg.adv, aes(x = client, y = quantity, fill = customer.type)) +
  theme_bw() +
  theme(panel.grid = element_blank()) +
  geom_rect(
    aes(fill = customer.type),
    xmin = -Inf,
    xmax = Inf,
    ymin = -Inf,
    ymax = Inf,
    alpha = 0.1
  ) +
  facet_grid(segm.freq ~ segm.rec) +
  geom_bar(stat = 'identity', alpha = 0.7) +
  geom_text(aes(y = max(quantity) / 2, label = quantity), size = 4) +
  ggtitle("LifeCycle Grids")
```



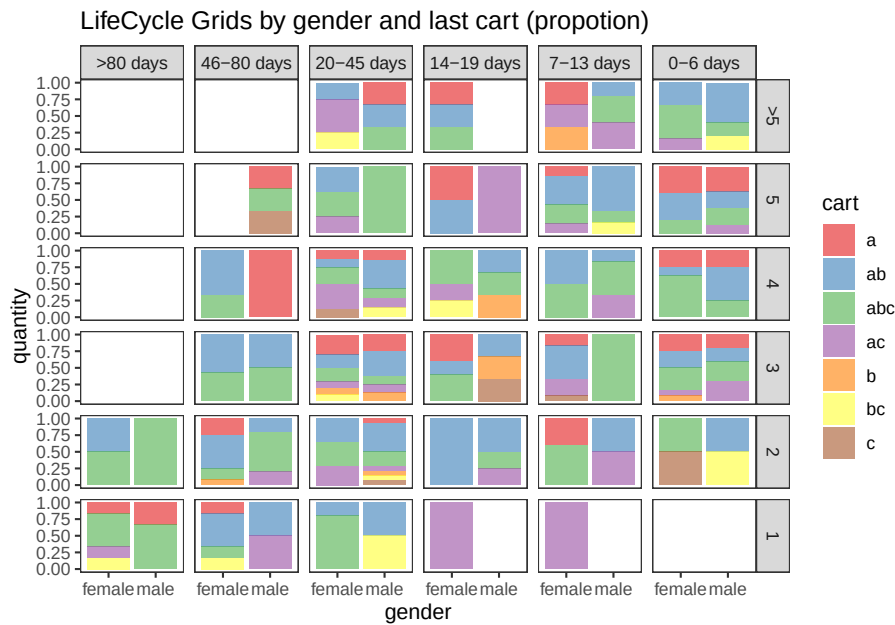
```
lcg.sub <- orders.segm %>%
  group_by(gender, cart, segm.rec, segm.freq) %>%
  summarise(quantity = n()) %>%
  mutate(client = 'client') %>%
  ungroup()
```

`summarise()` has grouped output by 'gender', 'cart', 'segm.rec'. You can override using the `

```
ggplot(lcg.sub, aes(x = client, y = quantity, fill = gender)) +
  theme_bw() +
  scale_fill_brewer(palette = 'Set1') +
  theme(panel.grid = element_blank()) +
  geom_bar(stat = 'identity',
           position = 'fill',
           alpha = 0.6) +
  facet_grid(segm.freq ~ segm.rec) +
  ggtitle("LifeCycle Grids by gender (proportion)")
```



```
ggplot(lcg.sub, aes(x = gender, y = quantity, fill = cart)) +
  theme_bw() +
  scale_fill_brewer(palette = 'Set1') +
  theme(panel.grid = element_blank()) +
  geom_bar(stat = 'identity',
           position = 'fill',
           alpha = 0.6) +
  facet_grid(segm.freq ~ segm.rec) +
  ggtitle("LifeCycle Grids by gender and last cart (propotion)")
```



15.4.2.2 CLV & CAC

calculate customer acquisition cost (CAC) and customer lifetime value (CLV)

```
# loading libraries
library(dplyr)
library(reshape2)
library(ggplot2)

# creating data sample
set.seed(10)
data <- data.frame(
  orderId = sample(c(1:1000), 5000, replace = TRUE),
  product = sample(
    c('NULL', 'a', 'b', 'c'),
    5000,
    replace = TRUE,
    prob = c(0.15, 0.65, 0.3, 0.15)
  )
)
order <- data.frame(orderId = c(1:1000),
  clientId = sample(c(1:300), 1000, replace = TRUE))
gender <- data.frame(clientId = c(1:300),
  gender = sample(
    c('male', 'female'),
```

```

        300,
        replace = TRUE,
        prob = c(0.40, 0.60)
    ))
date <- data.frame(orderId = c(1:1000),
                   orderdate = sample((1:100), 1000, replace = TRUE))
orders <- merge(data, order, by = 'orderId')
orders <- merge(orders, gender, by = 'clientId')
orders <- merge(orders, date, by = 'orderId')
orders <- orders[orders$product != 'NULL', ]
orders$orderdate <- as.Date(orders$orderdate, origin = "2012-01-01")

# creating data frames with CAC and Gross margin
cac <-
  data.frame(clientId = unique(orders$clientId),
             cac = sample(c(10:15), 288, replace = TRUE))
gr.margin <-
  data.frame(product = c('a', 'b', 'c'),
             grossmarg = c(1, 2, 3))

rm(data, date, order, gender)

# reporting date
today <- as.Date('2012-04-11', format = '%Y-%m-%d')

# calculating customer lifetime value
orders <- merge(orders, gr.margin, by = 'product')

clv <- orders %>%
  group_by(clientId) %>%
  summarise(clv = sum(grossmarg)) %>%
  ungroup()

# processing data
orders <-
  dcast(
    orders,
    orderId + clientId + gender + orderdate ~ product,
    value.var = 'product',
    fun.aggregate = length
  )

orders <- orders %>%
  group_by(clientId) %>%
  mutate(frequency = n(),

```

```

    recency = as.numeric(today - orderdate)) %>%
  filter(orderdate == max(orderdate)) %>%
  filter(orderId == max(orderId)) %>%
  ungroup()

orders.segm <- orders %>%
  mutate(segm.freq = ifelse(between(frequency, 1, 1), '1',
                             ifelse(
                               between(frequency, 2, 2), '2',
                               ifelse(between(frequency, 3, 3), '3',
                                      ifelse(
                                        between(frequency, 4, 4), '4',
                                        ifelse(between(frequency, 5, 5), '5', '>5')
                                      ))
                             ))) %>%
  mutate(segm.rec = ifelse(
    between(recency, 0, 6),
    '0-6 days',
    ifelse(
      between(recency, 7, 13),
      '7-13 days',
      ifelse(
        between(recency, 14, 19),
        '14-19 days',
        ifelse(
          between(recency, 20, 45),
          '20-45 days',
          ifelse(between(recency, 46, 80), '46-80 days', '>80 days')
        )
      )
    )
  )
  ) %>%
  # creating last cart feature
  mutate(cart = paste(
    ifelse(a != 0, 'a', ''),
    ifelse(b != 0, 'b', ''),
    ifelse(c != 0, 'c', ''),
    sep = ''
  )) %>%
  arrange(clientId)

# defining order of boundaries
orders.segm$segm.freq <-
  factor(orders.segm$segm.freq, levels = c('>5', '5', '4', '3', '2', '1'))
orders.segm$segm.rec <-

```

```

factor(
  orders.segm$segm.rec,
  levels = c(
    '>80 days',
    '46-80 days',
    '20-45 days',
    '14-19 days',
    '7-13 days',
    '0-6 days'
  )
)

orders.segm <- merge(orders.segm, cac, by = 'clientId')
orders.segm <- merge(orders.segm, clv, by = 'clientId')

lcg.clv <- orders.segm %>%
  group_by(segm.rec, segm.freq) %>%
  summarise(quantity = n(),
            # calculating cumulative CAC and CLV
            cac = sum(cac),
            clv = sum(clv)) %>%
  ungroup() %>%
  # calculating CAC and CLV per client
  mutate(cac1 = round(cac / quantity, 2),
         clv1 = round(clv / quantity, 2))

```

`summarise()` has grouped output by 'segm.rec'. You can override using the `.groups`

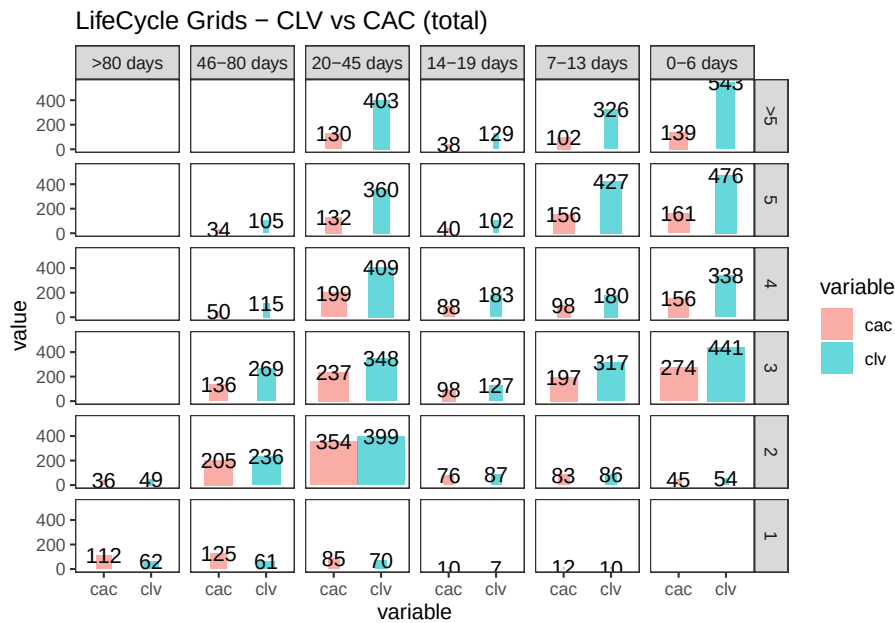
```

lcg.clv <-
  reshape2::melt(lcg.clv, id.vars = c('segm.rec', 'segm.freq', 'quantity'))

ggplot(lcg.clv[lcg.clv$variable %in% c('clv', 'cac'), ], aes(x = variable, y =
  value, fill = variable))
  theme_bw() +
  theme(panel.grid = element_blank()) +
  geom_bar(stat = 'identity', alpha = 0.6, aes(width = quantity / max(quantity))) +
  geom_text(aes(y = value, label = value), size = 4) +
  facet_grid(segm.freq ~ segm.rec) +
  ggtitle("LifeCycle Grids - CLV vs CAC (total)")

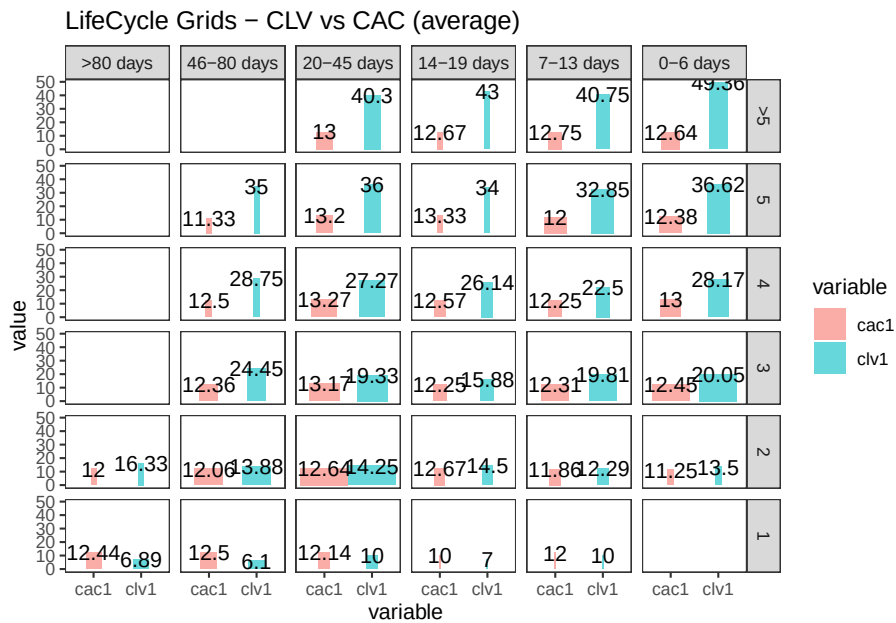
```

Warning: Ignoring unknown aesthetics: width



```
ggplot(lcg.clv[lcg.clv$variable %in% c('clv1', 'cac1'), ], aes(x = variable, y =
value, fill = variable)) +
  theme_bw() +
  theme(panel.grid = element_blank()) +
  geom_bar(stat = 'identity', alpha = 0.6, aes(width = quantity / max(quantity))) +
  geom_text(aes(y = value, label = value), size = 4) +
  facet_grid(segm.freq ~ segm.rec) +
  ggtitle("LifeCycle Grids – CLV vs CAC (average)")
```

```
## Warning: Ignoring unknown aesthetics: width
```



15.4.2.3 Cohort Analysis

link

combine customers through common characteristics to split customers into homogeneous groups

```
# loading libraries
```

```
library(dplyr)
```

```
library(reshape2)
```

```
library(ggplot2)
```

```
library(googleVis)
```

```
## Creating a generic function for 'toJSON' from package 'jsonlite' in package 'googleVis'
```

```
##
```

```
## Welcome to googleVis version 0.6.10
```

```
##
```

```
## Please read Google's Terms of Use
```

```
## before you start using the package:
```

```
## https://developers.google.com/terms/
```

```
##
```

```
## Note, the plot method of googleVis will by default use
```

```
## the standard browser to display its output.
```

```
##
```

```
## See the googleVis package vignettes for more details,
```

```
## or visit https://github.com/mages/googleVis.
```

```
##
## To suppress this message use:
## suppressPackageStartupMessages(library(googleVis))

set.seed(10)
# creating orders data sample
data <- data.frame(
  orderId = sample(c(1:5000), 25000, replace = TRUE),
  product = sample(
    c('NULL', 'a', 'b', 'c'),
    25000,
    replace = TRUE,
    prob = c(0.15, 0.65, 0.3, 0.15)
  )
)
order <- data.frame(orderId = c(1:5000),
  clientId = sample(c(1:1500), 5000, replace = TRUE))
date <- data.frame(orderId = c(1:5000),
  orderdate = sample((1:500), 5000, replace = TRUE))
orders <- merge(data, order, by = 'orderId')
orders <- merge(orders, date, by = 'orderId')
orders <- orders[orders$product != 'NULL',]
orders$orderdate <- as.Date(orders$orderdate, origin = "2012-01-01")
rm(data, date, order)
# creating data frames with CAC, Gross margin, Campaigns and Potential CLV
gr.margin <-
  data.frame(product = c('a', 'b', 'c'),
    grossmarg = c(1, 2, 3))
campaign <- data.frame(clientId = c(1:1500),
  campaign = paste('campaign', sample(c(1:7), 1500, replace = TRUE), sep =
    ' '))
cac <-
  data.frame(campaign = unique(campaign$campaign),
    cac = sample(c(10:15), 7, replace = TRUE))
campaign <- merge(campaign, cac, by = 'campaign')
potential <- data.frame(clientId = c(1:1500),
  clv.p = sample(c(0:50), 1500, replace = TRUE))
rm(cac)

# reporting date
today <- as.Date('2013-05-16', format = '%Y-%m-%d')
```

where

- campaign, which includes campaign name and customer acquisition cost for each customer,
- margin, which includes gross margin for each product,


```

        ifelse(
          between(frequency, 4, 4), '4',
          ifelse(between(frequency, 5, 5), '5', '>5')
        ))
      ))) %>%
mutate(segm.rec = ifelse(
  between(recency, 0, 30),
  '0-30 days',
  ifelse(
    between(recency, 31, 60),
    '31-60 days',
    ifelse(
      between(recency, 61, 90),
      '61-90 days',
      ifelse(
        between(recency, 91, 120),
        '91-120 days',
        ifelse(between(recency, 121, 180), '121-180 days', '>180 days')
      )
    )
  )
))

# defining order of boundaries
customers$segm.freq <-
  factor(customers$segm.freq, levels = c('>5', '5', '4', '3', '2', '1'))
customers$segm.rec <-
  factor(
    customers$segm.rec,
    levels = c(
      '>180 days',
      '121-180 days',
      '91-120 days',
      '61-90 days',
      '31-60 days',
      '0-30 days'
    )
  )
)

```

```

lcg.coh <- customers %>%
  group_by(cohort, segm.rec, segm.freq) %>%
  # calculating cumulative values
  summarise(
    quantity = n(),

```

```

    cac = sum(cac),
    clv = sum(clv),
    clv.p = sum(clv.p),
    av.gap = sum(av.gap)
  ) %>%
ungroup() %>%
# calculating average values
mutate(
  av.cac = round(cac / quantity, 2),
  av.clv = round(clv / quantity, 2),
  av.clv.p = round(clv.p / quantity, 2),
  av.clv.tot = av.clv + av.clv.p,
  av.gap = round(av.gap / quantity, 2),
  diff = av.clv - av.cac
)

# 1. Structure of averages and comparison cohorts

ggplot(lcg.coh, aes(x = cohort, fill = cohort)) +
  theme_bw() +
  theme(panel.grid = element_blank()) +
  geom_bar(aes(y = diff), stat = 'identity', alpha = 0.5) +
  geom_text(aes(y = diff, label = round(diff, 0)), size = 4) +
  facet_grid(segm.freq ~ segm.rec) +
  theme(axis.text.x = element_text(
    angle = 90,
    hjust = .5,
    vjust = .5,
    face = "plain"
  )) +
  ggtitle("Cohorts in LifeCycle Grids - difference between av.CLV to date and av.CAC")

ggplot(lcg.coh, aes(x = cohort, fill = cohort)) +
  theme_bw() +
  theme(panel.grid = element_blank()) +
  geom_bar(aes(y = av.clv.tot), stat = 'identity', alpha = 0.2) +
  geom_text(aes(
    y = av.clv.tot + 10,
    label = round(av.clv.tot, 0),
    color = cohort
  ), size = 4) +
  geom_bar(aes(y = av.clv), stat = 'identity', alpha = 0.7) +
  geom_errorbar(aes(y = av.cac, ymax = av.cac, ymin = av.cac),
    color = 'red',
    size = 1.2) +

```

```

    geom_text(
      aes(y = av.cac, label = round(av.cac, 0)),
      size = 4,
      color = 'darkred',
      vjust = -.5
    ) +
    facet_grid(segm.freq ~ segm.rec) +
    theme(axis.text.x = element_text(
      angle = 90,
      hjust = .5,
      vjust = .5,
      face = "plain"
    )) +
    ggtitle("Cohorts in LifeCycle Grids - total av.CLV and av.CAC")

# 2. Analyzing customer flows
# customers flows analysis (FPD cohorts)

# defining cohort and reporting dates
coh <- '2012-09'
report.dates <- c('2012-10-01', '2013-01-01', '2013-04-01')
report.dates <- as.Date(report.dates, format = '%Y-%m-%d')

# defining segments for each cohort's customer for reporting dates
df.sankey <- data.frame()

for (i in 1:length(report.dates)) {
  orders.cache <- orders %>%
    filter(orderdate < report.dates[i])

  customers.cache <- orders.cache %>%
    select(-product, -grossmarg) %>%
    unique() %>%
    group_by(clientId) %>%
    mutate(
      frequency = n(),
      recency = as.numeric(report.dates[i] - max(orderdate)),
      cohort = format(min(orderdate), format = '%Y-%m')
    ) %>%
    ungroup() %>%
    select(clientId, frequency, recency, cohort) %>%
    unique() %>%
    filter(cohort == coh) %>%
    mutate(segm.freq = ifelse(
      between(frequency, 1, 1),

```

```

      '1 purch',
    ifelse(
      between(frequency, 2, 2),
      '2 purch',
      ifelse(
        between(frequency, 3, 3),
        '3 purch',
        ifelse(
          between(frequency, 4, 4),
          '4 purch',
          ifelse(between(frequency, 5, 5), '5 purch', '>5 purch')
        )
      )
    )
  )) %>%
mutate(segm.rec = ifelse(
  between(recency, 0, 30),
  '0-30 days',
  ifelse(
    between(recency, 31, 60),
    '31-60 days',
    ifelse(
      between(recency, 61, 90),
      '61-90 days',
      ifelse(
        between(recency, 91, 120),
        '91-120 days',
        ifelse(between(recency, 121, 180), '121-180 days', '>180 days')
      )
    )
  )
)) %>%
mutate(
  cohort.segm = paste(cohort, segm.rec, segm.freq, sep = ' : '),
  report.date = report.dates[i]
) %>%
select(clientId, cohort.segm, report.date)

df.sankey <- rbind(df.sankey, customers.cache)
}

# processing data for Sankey diagram format
df.sankey <-
  dcast(df.sankey,
    clientId ~ report.date,

```



```

        value.var = 'cohort.segm',
        fun.aggregate = NULL)
write.csv(df.sankey, 'customers_path.csv', row.names = FALSE)
df.sankey <- df.sankey %>% select(-clientId)

df.sankey.plot <- data.frame()
for (i in 2:ncol(df.sankey)) {
  df.sankey.cache <- df.sankey %>%
    group_by(df.sankey[, i - 1], df.sankey[, i]) %>%
    summarise(n = n()) %>%
    ungroup()

  colnames(df.sankey.cache)[1:2] <- c('from', 'to')

  df.sankey.cache$from <-
    paste(df.sankey.cache$from, '(', report.dates[i - 1], ')', sep = '')
  df.sankey.cache$to <-
    paste(df.sankey.cache$to, '(', report.dates[i], ')', sep = '')

  df.sankey.plot <- rbind(df.sankey.plot, df.sankey.cache)
}

# plotting
plot(gvisSankey(
  df.sankey.plot,
  from = 'from',
  to = 'to',
  weight = 'n',
  options = list(
    height = 900,
    width = 1800,
    sankey = "{link:{color:{fill:'lightblue'}}}"
  )
))

# purchasing pace

ggplot(lcg.coh, aes(x = cohort, fill = cohort)) +
  theme_bw() +
  theme(panel.grid = element_blank()) +
  geom_bar(aes(y = av.gap), stat = 'identity', alpha = 0.6) +
  geom_text(aes(y = av.gap, label = round(av.gap, 0)), size = 4) +
  facet_grid(segm.freq ~ segm.rec) +
  theme(axis.text.x = element_text(
    angle = 90,

```

```

      hjust = .5,
      vjust = .5,
      face = "plain"
    )) +
    ggtitle("Cohorts in LifeCycle Grids - average time lapses between purchases")

```

15.4.2.3.1 First-purchase date cohort

```

# campaign cohorts
lcg.camp <- customers %>%
  group_by(campaign, segm.rec, segm.freq) %>%
  # calculating cumulative values
  summarise(
    quantity = n(),
    cac = sum(cac),
    clv = sum(clv),
    clv.p = sum(clv.p),
    av.gap = sum(av.gap)
  ) %>%
  ungroup() %>%
  # calculating average values
  mutate(
    av.cac = round(cac / quantity, 2),
    av.clv = round(clv / quantity, 2),
    av.clv.p = round(clv.p / quantity, 2),
    av.clv.tot = av.clv + av.clv.p,
    av.gap = round(av.gap / quantity, 2),
    diff = av.clv - av.cac
  )

```

15.4.2.3.2 Campaign Cohorts

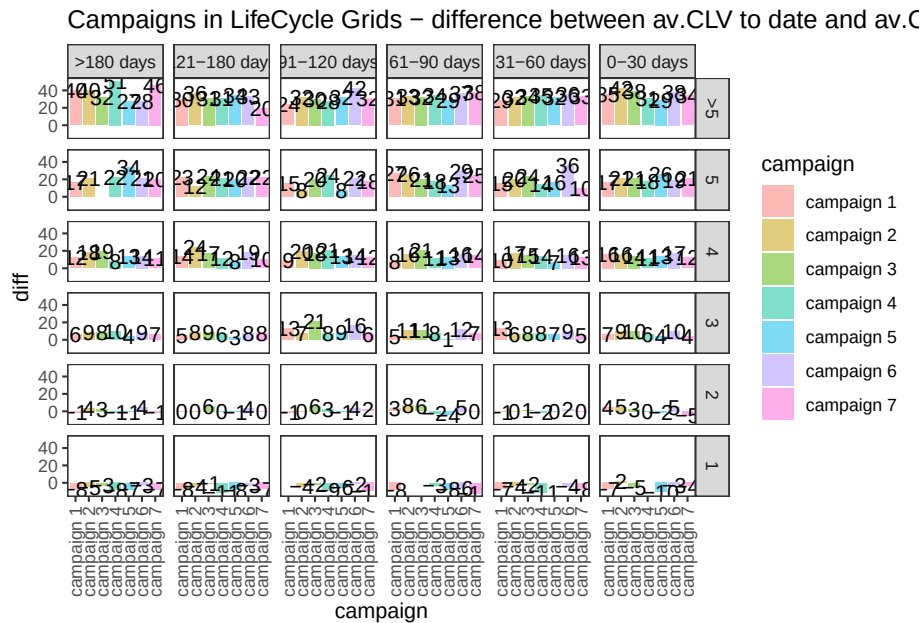
`summarise()` has grouped output by 'campaign', 'segm.rec'. You can override using `ungroup()`

```

ggplot(lcg.camp, aes(x = campaign, fill = campaign)) +
  theme_bw() +
  theme(panel.grid = element_blank()) +
  geom_bar(aes(y = diff), stat = 'identity', alpha = 0.5) +
  geom_text(aes(y = diff, label = round(diff, 0)), size = 4) +
  facet_grid(segm.freq ~ segm.rec) +
  theme(axis.text.x = element_text(
    angle = 90,
    hjust = .5,
    vjust = .5,
    face = "plain"
  )) +

```

```
ggtitle("Campaigns in LifeCycle Grids - difference between av.CLV to date and av.CAC")
```

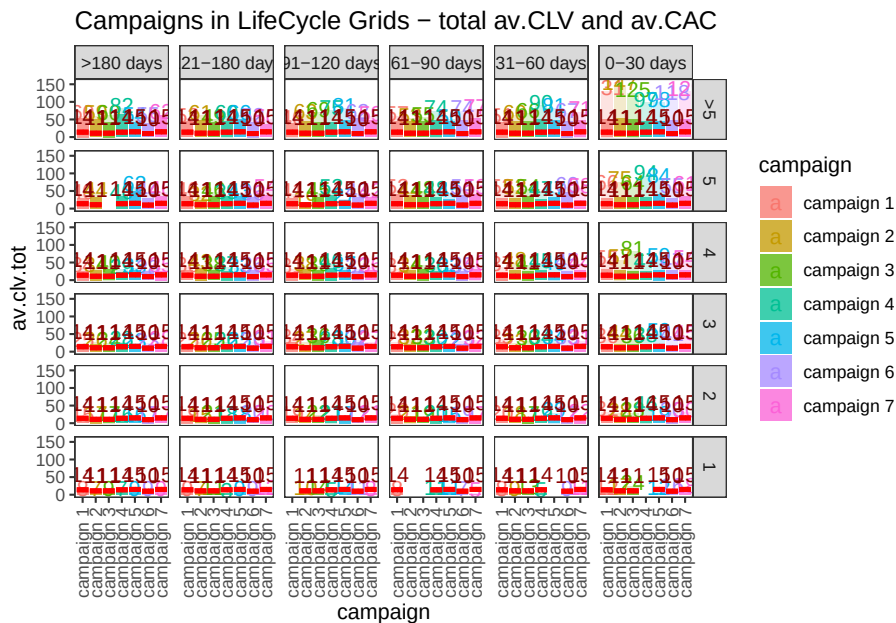


```
ggplot(lcg.camp, aes(x = campaign, fill = campaign)) +
  theme_bw() +
  theme(panel.grid = element_blank()) +
  geom_bar(aes(y = av.clv.tot), stat = 'identity', alpha = 0.2) +
  geom_text(aes(
    y = av.clv.tot + 10,
    label = round(av.clv.tot, 0),
    color = campaign
  ), size = 4) +
  geom_bar(aes(y = av.clv), stat = 'identity', alpha = 0.7) +
  geom_errorbar(aes(y = av.cac, ymax = av.cac, ymin = av.cac),
    color = 'red',
    size = 1.2) +
  geom_text(
    aes(y = av.cac, label = round(av.cac, 0)),
    size = 4,
    color = 'darkred',
    vjust = -.5
  ) +
  facet_grid(segm.freq ~ segm.rec) +
  theme(axis.text.x = element_text(
    angle = 90,
    hjust = .5,
```

```

      vjust = .5,
      face = "plain"
    )) +
  ggtitle("Campaigns in LifeCycle Grids - total av.CLV and av.CAC")

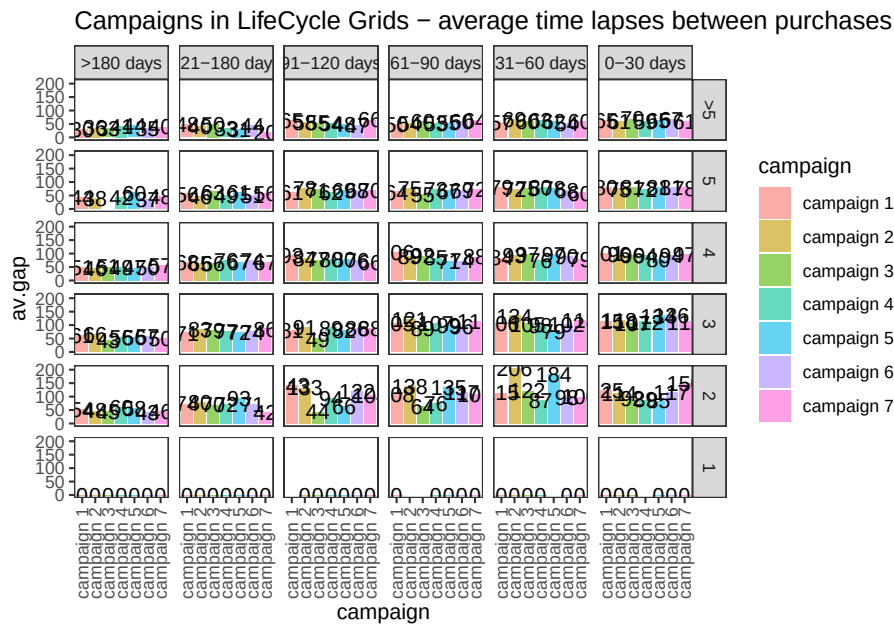
```



```

ggplot(lcg.camp, aes(x = campaign, fill = campaign)) +
  theme_bw() +
  theme(panel.grid = element_blank()) +
  geom_bar(aes(y = av.gap), stat = 'identity', alpha = 0.6) +
  geom_text(aes(y = av.gap, label = round(av.gap, 0)), size = 4) +
  facet_grid(segm.freq ~ segm.rec) +
  theme(axis.text.x = element_text(
    angle = 90,
    hjust = .5,
    vjust = .5,
    face = "plain"
  )) +
  ggtitle("Campaigns in LifeCycle Grids - average time lapses between purchases")

```



15.4.2.3.3 Retention Rate Customer Retention Rate

```
# loading libraries
```

```
library(dplyr)
```

```
library(reshape2)
```

```
library(ggplot2)
```

```
library(scales)
```

```
##
```

```
## Attaching package: 'scales'
```

```
## The following object is masked from 'package:purrr':
```

```
##
```

```
## discard
```

```
## The following object is masked from 'package:readr':
```

```
##
```

```
## col_factor
```

```
## The following object is masked from 'package:kernlab':
```

```
##
```

```
## alpha
```

```
library(gridExtra)
```

```
##
```

```
## Attaching package: 'gridExtra'
```

```
## The following object is masked from 'package:dplyr':
##
##      combine

# creating data sample
set.seed(10)
cohorts <-
  data.frame(
    cohort = paste('cohort', formatC(
      c(1:36),
      width = 2,
      format = 'd',
      flag = '0'
    ), sep = '_'),
    Y_00 = sample(c(1300:1500), 36, replace = TRUE),
    Y_01 = c(sample(c(800:1000), 36, replace = TRUE)),
    Y_02 = c(sample(c(600:800), 24, replace = TRUE), rep(NA, 12)),
    Y_03 = c(sample(c(400:500), 12, replace = TRUE), rep(NA, 24))
  )

# simulating seasonality (Black Friday)
cohorts[c(11, 23, 35), 2] <-
  as.integer(cohorts[c(11, 23, 35), 2] * 1.25)
cohorts[c(11, 23, 35), 3] <-
  as.integer(cohorts[c(11, 23, 35), 3] * 1.10)
cohorts[c(11, 23, 35), 4] <-
  as.integer(cohorts[c(11, 23, 35), 4] * 1.07)

# calculating retention rate and preparing data for plotting
df_plot <-
  reshape2::melt(
    cohorts,
    id.vars = 'cohort',
    value.name = 'number',
    variable.name = "year_of_LT"
  )

df_plot <- df_plot %>%
  group_by(cohort) %>%
  arrange(year_of_LT) %>%
  mutate(number_prev_year = lag(number),
         number_Y_00 = number[which(year_of_LT == 'Y_00')]) %>%
  ungroup() %>%
  mutate(
    ret_rate_prev_year = number / number_prev_year,
    ret_rate = number / number_Y_00,
    year_cohort = paste(year_of_LT, cohort, sep = '-')
  )
```

```

    )

#### The first way for plotting cycle plot via scaling
# calculating the coefficient for scaling 2nd axis
k <-
  max(df_plot$number_prev_year[df_plot$year_of_LT == 'Y_01'] * 1.15) / min(df_plot$ret_rate[df_

# retention rate cycle plot
ggplot(
  na.omit(df_plot),
  aes(
    x = year_cohort,
    y = ret_rate,
    group = year_of_LT,
    color = year_of_LT
  )
) +
  theme_bw() +
  geom_point(size = 4) +
  geom_text(
    aes(label = percent(round(ret_rate, 2))),
    size = 4,
    hjust = 0.4,
    vjust = -0.6,
    fontface = "plain"
  ) +
  # smooth method can be changed (e.g. for "lm")
  geom_smooth(
    size = 2.5,
    method = 'loess',
    color = 'darkred',
    aes(fill = year_of_LT)
  ) +
  geom_bar(aes(y = number_prev_year / k, fill = year_of_LT),
    alpha = 0.2,
    stat = 'identity') +
  geom_bar(aes(y = number / k, fill = year_of_LT),
    alpha = 0.6,
    stat = 'identity') +
  geom_text(
    aes(y = 0, label = cohort),
    color = 'white',
    angle = 90,
    size = 4,
    hjust = -0.05,

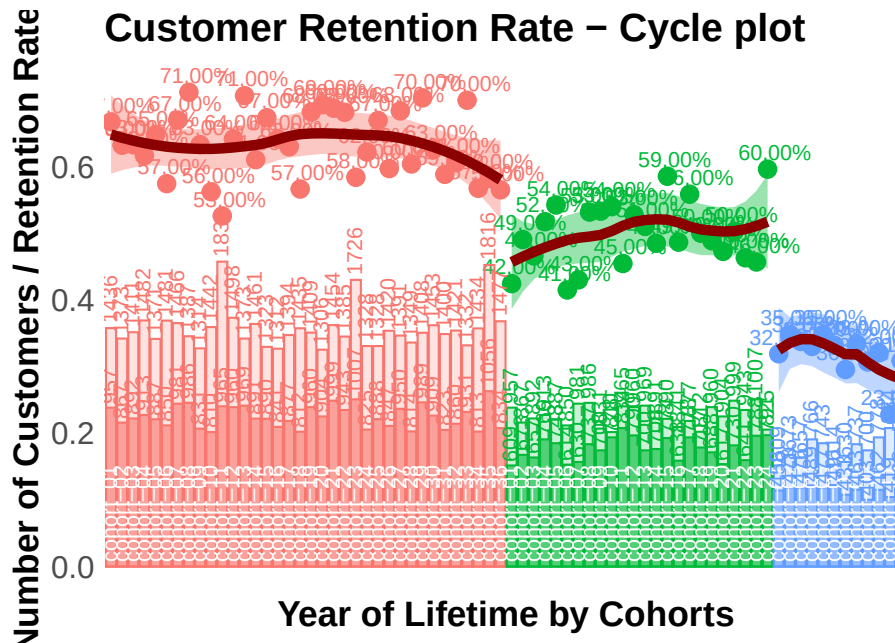
```

```

      vjust = 0.4
    ) +
    geom_text(
      aes(y = number_prev_year / k, label = number_prev_year),
      angle = 90,
      size = 4,
      hjust = -0.1,
      vjust = 0.4
    ) +
    geom_text(
      aes(y = number / k, label = number),
      angle = 90,
      size = 4,
      hjust = -0.1,
      vjust = 0.4
    ) +
    theme(
      legend.position = 'none',
      plot.title = element_text(size = 20, face = "bold", vjust = 2),
      axis.title.x = element_text(size = 18, face = "bold"),
      axis.title.y = element_text(size = 18, face = "bold"),
      axis.text = element_text(size = 16),
      axis.text.x = element_blank(),
      axis.ticks.x = element_blank(),
      axis.ticks.y = element_blank(),
      panel.border = element_blank(),
      panel.grid.major = element_blank(),
      panel.grid.minor = element_blank()
    ) +
    labs(x = 'Year of Lifetime by Cohorts', y = 'Number of Customers / Retention Rate'),
    ggtitle("Customer Retention Rate - Cycle plot")

```

```
## `geom_smooth()` using formula 'y ~ x'
```

```
##### The second way for plotting cycle plot via multi-plotting
# plot #1 - Retention rate
p1 <-
  ggplot(
    na.omit(df_plot),
    aes(
      x = year_cohort,
      y = ret_rate,
      group = year_of_LT,
      color = year_of_LT
    )
  ) +
  theme_bw() +
  geom_point(size = 4) +
  geom_text(
    aes(label = percent(round(ret_rate, 2))),
    size = 4,
    hjust = 0.4,
    vjust = -0.6,
    fontface = "plain"
  ) +
  geom_smooth(
    size = 2.5,
    method = 'loess',
    color = 'darkred',
  )
```

```

    aes(fill = year_of_LT)
  ) +
  theme(
    legend.position = 'none',
    plot.title = element_text(size = 20, face = "bold", vjust = 2),
    axis.title.x = element_blank(),
    axis.title.y = element_text(size = 18, face = "bold"),
    axis.text = element_blank(),
    axis.ticks.x = element_blank(),
    axis.ticks.y = element_blank(),
    panel.border = element_blank(),
    panel.grid.major = element_blank(),
    panel.grid.minor = element_blank()
  ) +
  labs(y = 'Retention Rate') +
  ggtitle("Customer Retention Rate - Cycle plot")

# plot #2 - number of customers
p2 <-
  ggplot(na.omit(df_plot),
    aes(x = year_cohort, group = year_of_LT, color = year_of_LT)) +
  theme_bw() +
  geom_bar(aes(y = number_prev_year, fill = year_of_LT),
    alpha = 0.2,
    stat = 'identity') +
  geom_bar(aes(y = number, fill = year_of_LT),
    alpha = 0.6,
    stat = 'identity') +
  geom_text(
    aes(y = number_prev_year, label = number_prev_year),
    angle = 90,
    size = 4,
    hjust = -0.1,
    vjust = 0.4
  ) +
  geom_text(
    aes(y = number, label = number),
    angle = 90,
    size = 4,
    hjust = -0.1,
    vjust = 0.4
  ) +
  geom_text(
    aes(y = 0, label = cohort),
    color = 'white',

```

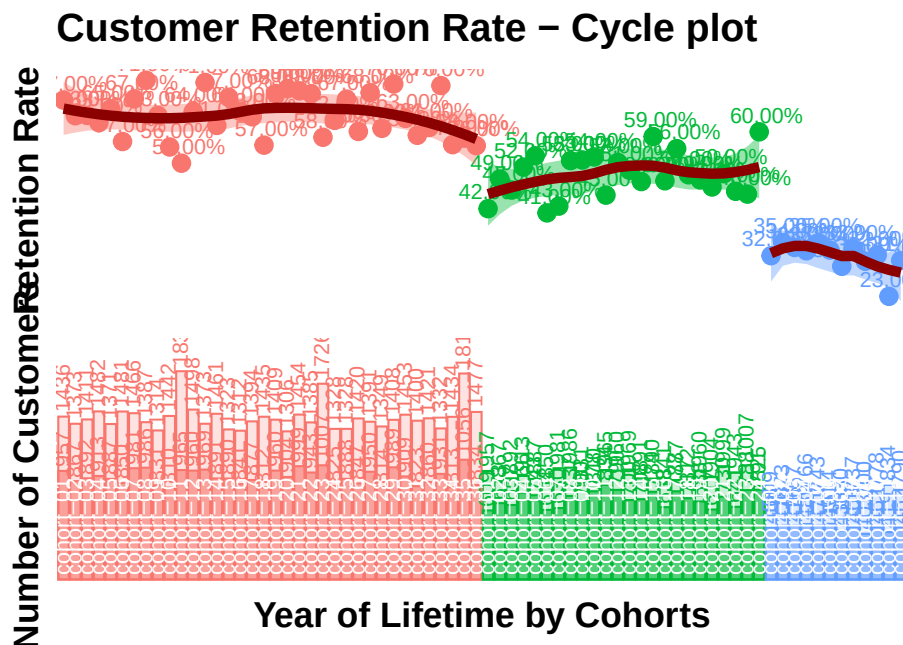
```

    angle = 90,
    size = 4,
    hjust = -0.05,
    vjust = 0.4
  ) +
  theme(
    legend.position = 'none',
    plot.title = element_text(size = 20, face = "bold", vjust = 2),
    axis.title.x = element_text(size = 18, face = "bold"),
    axis.title.y = element_text(size = 18, face = "bold"),
    axis.text = element_blank(),
    axis.ticks.x = element_blank(),
    axis.ticks.y = element_blank(),
    panel.border = element_blank(),
    panel.grid.major = element_blank(),
    panel.grid.minor = element_blank()
  ) +
  scale_y_continuous(limits = c(0, max(df_plot$number_Y_00 * 1.1))) +
  labs(x = 'Year of Lifetime by Cohorts', y = 'Number of Customers')

# multiplot
grid.arrange(p1, p2, ncol = 1)

## `geom_smooth()` using formula 'y ~ x'

```



```

# retention rate bubble chart
ggplot(na.omit(df_plot),
  aes(
    x = cohort,
    y = ret_rate,
    group = cohort,
    color = year_of_LT
  )) +
  theme_bw() +
  scale_size(range = c(15, 40)) +
  geom_line(size = 2, alpha = 0.3) +
  geom_point(aes(size = number_prev_year), alpha = 0.3) +
  geom_point(aes(size = number), alpha = 0.8) +
  geom_smooth(
    linetype = 2,
    size = 2,
    method = 'loess',
    aes(group = year_of_LT, fill = year_of_LT),
    alpha = 0.2
  ) +
  geom_text(
    aes(label = paste0(
      number, '/', number_prev_year, '\n', percent(round(ret_rate, 2))
    )),
    color = 'white',
    size = 3,
    hjust = 0.5,
    vjust = 0.5,
    fontface = "plain"
  ) +
  theme(
    legend.position = 'none',
    plot.title = element_text(size = 20, face = "bold", vjust = 2),
    axis.title.x = element_text(size = 18, face = "bold"),
    axis.title.y = element_text(size = 18, face = "bold"),
    axis.text = element_text(size = 16),
    axis.text.x = element_text(
      size = 10,
      angle = 90,
      hjust = .5,
      vjust = .5,
      face = "plain"
    ),
    axis.ticks.x = element_blank(),
    axis.ticks.y = element_blank(),
  )

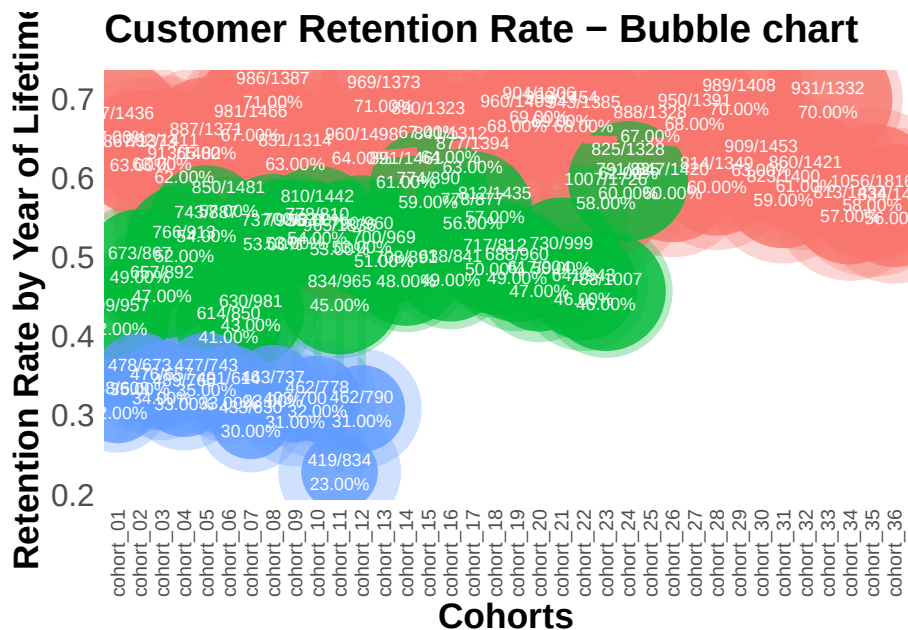
```

```

    panel.border = element_blank(),
    panel.grid.major = element_blank(),
    panel.grid.minor = element_blank()
  ) +
  labs(x = 'Cohorts', y = 'Retention Rate by Year of Lifetime') +
  ggtitle("Customer Retention Rate - Bubble chart")

```

```
## `geom_smooth()` using formula 'y ~ x'
```



```

# retention rate falling drops chart
ggplot(df_plot,
  aes(
    x = cohort,
    y = ret_rate,
    group = cohort,
    color = year_of_LT
  )) +
  theme_bw() +
  scale_size(range = c(15, 40)) +
  scale_y_continuous(limits = c(0, 1)) +
  geom_line(size = 2, alpha = 0.3) +
  geom_point(aes(size = number), alpha = 0.8) +
  geom_text(
    aes(label = paste0(number, '\n', percent(round(
      ret_rate, 2

```

```

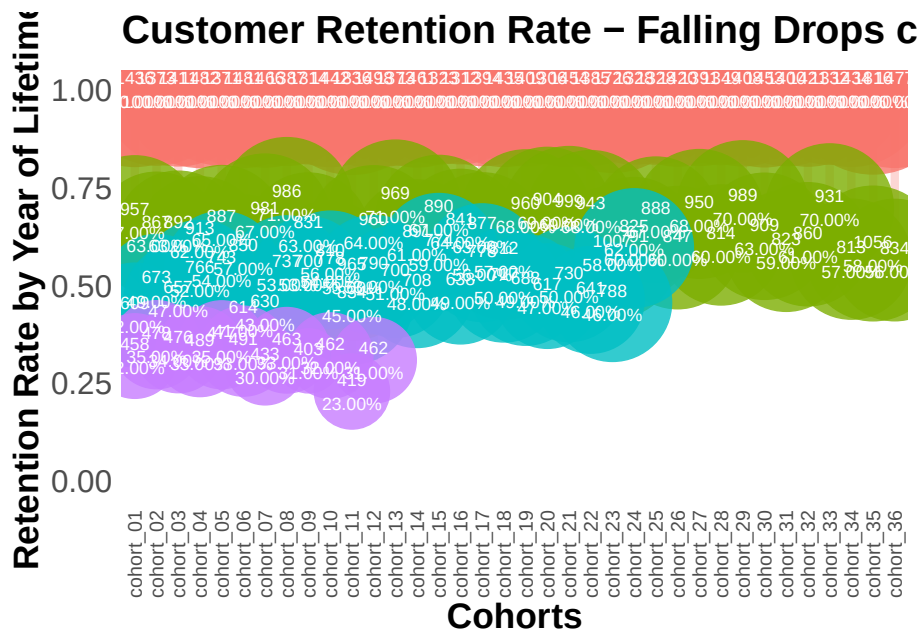
    ))),
    color = 'white',
    size = 3,
    hjust = 0.5,
    vjust = 0.5,
    fontface = "plain"
  ) +
  theme(
    legend.position = 'none',
    plot.title = element_text(size = 20, face = "bold", vjust = 2),
    axis.title.x = element_text(size = 18, face = "bold"),
    axis.title.y = element_text(size = 18, face = "bold"),
    axis.text = element_text(size = 16),
    axis.text.x = element_text(
      size = 10,
      angle = 90,
      hjust = .5,
      vjust = .5,
      face = "plain"
    ),
    axis.ticks.x = element_blank(),
    axis.ticks.y = element_blank(),
    panel.border = element_blank(),
    panel.grid.major = element_blank(),
    panel.grid.minor = element_blank()
  ) +
  labs(x = 'Cohorts', y = 'Retention Rate by Year of Lifetime') +
  ggtitle("Customer Retention Rate - Falling Drops chart")

```

```
## Warning: Removed 36 row(s) containing missing values (geom_path).
```

```
## Warning: Removed 36 rows containing missing values (geom_point).
```

```
## Warning: Removed 36 rows containing missing values (geom_text).
```



15.4.2.3.4 Retention Charts Retention charts

```
# libraries
library(dplyr)
library(ggplot2)
library(reshape2)

cohort.clients <- data.frame(
  cohort = c(
    'Cohort01',
    'Cohort02',
    'Cohort03',
    'Cohort04',
    'Cohort05',
    'Cohort06',
    'Cohort07',
    'Cohort08',
    'Cohort09',
    'Cohort10',
    'Cohort11',
    'Cohort12'
  ),
  M01 = c(11000, 0, 0, 0, 0, 0, 0, 0, 0, 0, 0, 0),
  M02 = c(1900, 10000, 0, 0, 0, 0, 0, 0, 0, 0, 0, 0),
  M03 = c(1400, 2000, 11500, 0, 0, 0, 0, 0, 0, 0, 0, 0),
```

```

M04 = c(1100, 1300, 2400, 13200, 0, 0, 0, 0, 0, 0, 0, 0),
M05 = c(1000, 1100, 1400, 2400, 11100, 0, 0, 0, 0, 0, 0, 0),
M06 = c(900, 900, 1200, 1600, 1900, 10300, 0, 0, 0, 0, 0, 0),
M07 = c(850, 900, 1100, 1300, 1300, 1900, 13000, 0, 0, 0, 0, 0),
M08 = c(850, 850, 1000, 1200, 1100, 1300, 1900, 11500, 0, 0, 0, 0),
M09 = c(800, 800, 950, 1100, 1100, 1250, 1000, 1200, 11000, 0, 0, 0),
M10 = c(800, 780, 900, 1050, 1050, 1200, 900, 1200, 1900, 13200, 0, 0),
M11 = c(750, 750, 900, 1000, 1000, 1180, 800, 1100, 1150, 2000, 11300, 0),
M12 = c(740, 700, 870, 1000, 900, 1100, 700, 1050, 1025, 1300, 1800, 20000)
)

cohort.clients.r <- cohort.clients #create new data frame
totcols <-
  ncol(cohort.clients.r) #count number of columns in data set
for (i in 1:nrow(cohort.clients.r)) {
  #for loop for shifting each row
  df <- cohort.clients.r[i,] #select row from data frame
  df <- df[, !df[] == 0] #remove columns with zeros
  partcols <-
    ncol(df) #count number of columns in row (w/o zeros)
  #fill columns after values by zeros
  if (partcols < totcols)
    df[, c((partcols + 1):totcols)] <- 0
  cohort.clients.r[i,] <- df #replace initial row by new one
}

# Retention ratio = # clients in particular month / # clients in 1st month of life-time

#calculate retention (1)
x <- cohort.clients.r[, c(2:13)]
y <- cohort.clients.r[, 2]
reten.r <- apply(x, 2, function(x)
  x / y)
reten.r <- data.frame(cohort = (cohort.clients.r$cohort), reten.r)

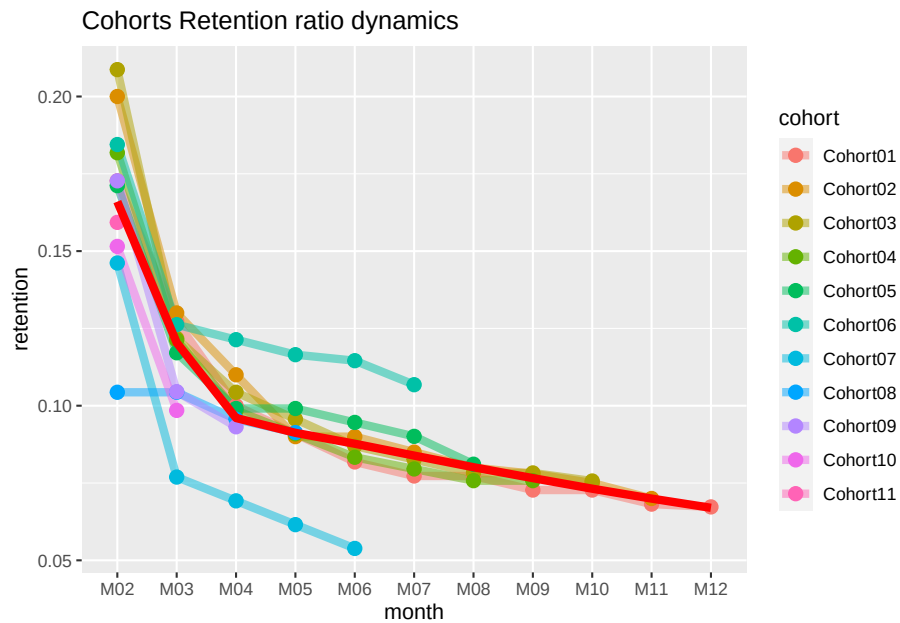
#calculate retention (2)
c <- ncol(cohort.clients.r)
reten.r <- cohort.clients.r
for (i in 2:c) {
  reten.r[, (c + i - 1)] <- reten.r[, i] / reten.r[, 2]
}
reten.r <- reten.r[, -c(2:c)]
colnames(reten.r) <- colnames(cohort.clients.r)

```



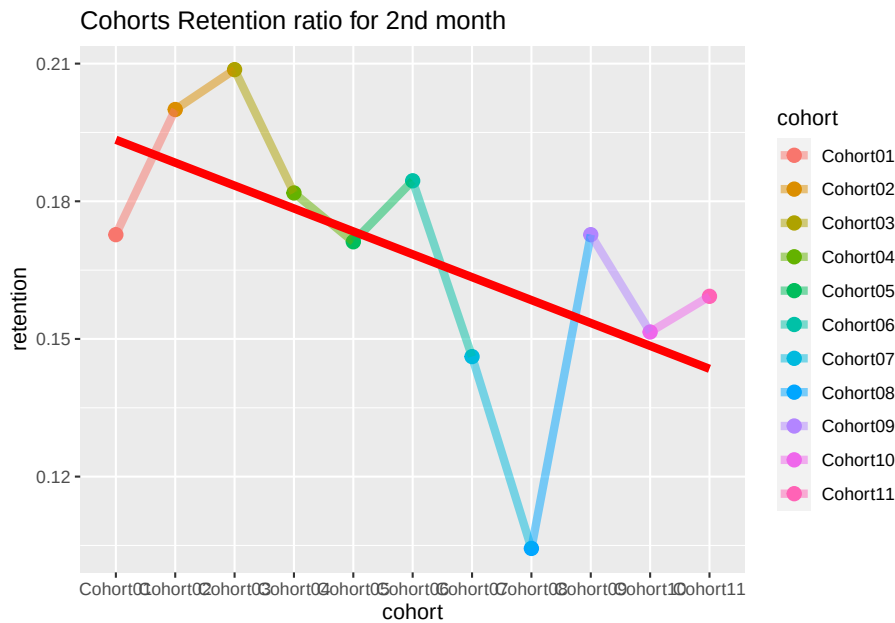
```
#charts
reten.r <- reten.r[,-2] #remove M01 data because it is always 100%
#dynamics analysis chart
cohort.chart1 <- melt(reten.r, id.vars = 'cohort')
colnames(cohort.chart1) <- c('cohort', 'month', 'retention')
cohort.chart1 <- filter(cohort.chart1, retention != 0)
p <-
  ggplot(cohort.chart1,
    aes(
      x = month,
      y = retention,
      group = cohort,
      colour = cohort
    ))
p + geom_line(size = 2, alpha = 1 / 2) +
  geom_point(size = 3, alpha = 1) +
  geom_smooth(
    aes(group = 1),
    method = 'loess',
    size = 2,
    colour = 'red',
    se = FALSE
  ) +
  labs(title = "Cohorts Retention ratio dynamics")
```

```
## `geom_smooth()` using formula 'y ~ x'
```



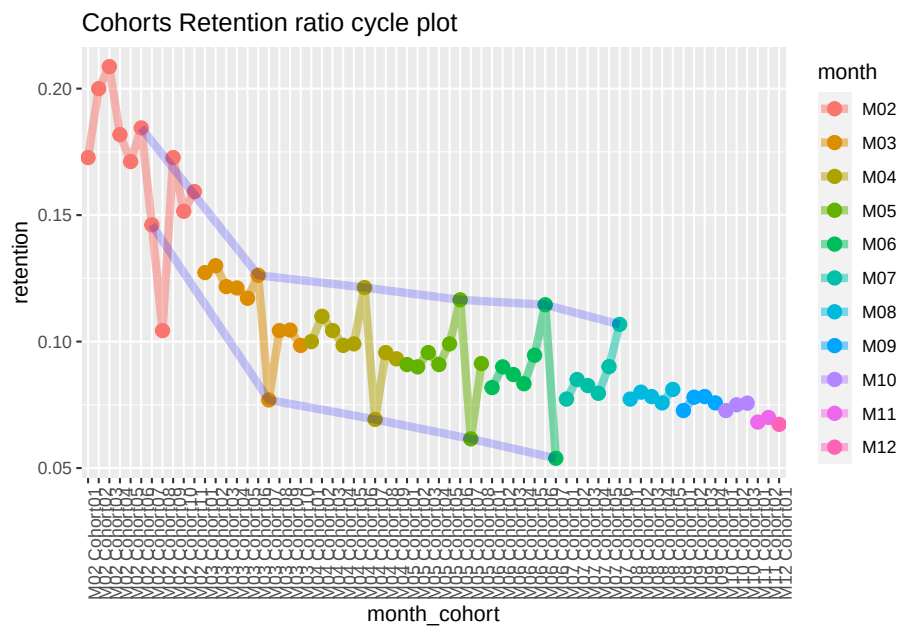
```
#second month analysis chart
cohort.chart2 <-
  filter(cohort.chart1, month == 'M02') #choose any month instead of M02
p <-
  ggplot(cohort.chart2, aes(x = cohort, y = retention, colour = cohort))
p + geom_point(size = 3) +
  geom_line(aes(group = 1), size = 2, alpha = 1 / 2) +
  geom_smooth(
    aes(group = 1),
    size = 2,
    colour = 'red',
    method = 'lm',
    se = FALSE
  ) +
  labs(title = "Cohorts Retention ratio for 2nd month")
```

```
## `geom_smooth()` using formula 'y ~ x'
```



```
#cycle plot
cohort.chart3 <- cohort.chart1
cohort.chart3 <-
  mutate(cohort.chart3, month_cohort = paste(month, cohort))
p <-
  ggplot(cohort.chart3,
    aes(
      x = month_cohort,
      y = retention,
      group = month,
      colour = month
    ))
#choose any cohorts instead of Cohort07 and Cohort06
m1 <- filter(cohort.chart3, cohort == 'Cohort07')
m2 <- filter(cohort.chart3, cohort == 'Cohort06')
p + geom_point(size = 3) +
  geom_line(aes(group = month), size = 2, alpha = 1 / 2) +
  labs(title = "Cohorts Retention ratio cycle plot") +
  geom_line(
    data = m1,
    aes(group = 1),
    colour = 'blue',
    size = 2,
    alpha = 1 / 5
  ) +
```

```
geom_line(
  data = m2,
  aes(group = 1),
  colour = 'blue',
  size = 2,
  alpha = 1 / 5
) +
theme(axis.text.x = element_text(angle = 90, hjust = 1))
```



15.4.2.4 Lifecycle phase sequential analysis

- analyze the path patterns of each cohort
- identify cohorts that attracted customers with the path we prefer to make offers.

```
library(TraMineR)
```

```
## Warning: package 'TraMineR' was built under R version 4.0.5
```

```
##
```

```
## TraMineR stable version 2.2-2 (Built: 2021-08-14)
```

```
## Website: http://traminer.unige.ch
```

```
## Please type 'citation("TraMineR")' for citation information.
```

```

min.date <- min(orders$orderdate)
max.date <- max(orders$orderdate)

l <-
  c(seq(0, as.numeric(max.date - min.date), 10), as.numeric(max.date - min.date))

df <- data.frame()
for (i in l) {
  cur.date <- min.date + i
  print(cur.date)

  orders.cache <- orders %>%
    filter(orderdate <= cur.date)

  customers.cache <- orders.cache %>%
    select(-product, -grossmarg) %>%
    unique() %>%
    group_by(clientId) %>%
    mutate(frequency = n(),
           recency = as.numeric(cur.date - max(orderdate))) %>%
    ungroup() %>%
    select(clientId, frequency, recency) %>%
    unique() %>%

  mutate(segm =
    ifelse(
      between(frequency, 1, 2) & between(recency, 0, 60),
      'new customer',
      ifelse(
        between(frequency, 1, 2) &
          between(recency, 61, 180),
        'under risk new customer',
        ifelse(
          between(frequency, 1, 2) & recency > 180,
          '1x buyer',

          ifelse(
            between(frequency, 3, 4) &
              between(recency, 0, 60),
            'engaged customer',
            ifelse(
              between(frequency, 3, 4) &
                between(recency, 61, 180),
                'under risk engaged customer',
                ifelse(

```

```

        between(frequency, 3, 4) & recency > 180,
        'former engaged customer',

        ifelse(
          frequency > 4 & between(recency, 0, 60)
          'best customer',
          ifelse(
            frequency > 4 &
              between(recency, 61, 180),
            'under risk best customer',
            ifelse(frequency > 4 &
              recency > 180, 'former b

          )
        )
      )
    )
  )
  )) %>%

  mutate(report.date = i) %>%
  select(clientId, segm, report.date)

df <- rbind(df, customers.cache)
}

```

```

## [1] "2012-01-02"
## [1] "2012-01-12"
## [1] "2012-01-22"
## [1] "2012-02-01"
## [1] "2012-02-11"
## [1] "2012-02-21"
## [1] "2012-03-02"
## [1] "2012-03-12"
## [1] "2012-03-22"
## [1] "2012-04-01"
## [1] "2012-04-11"
## [1] "2012-04-21"
## [1] "2012-05-01"
## [1] "2012-05-11"
## [1] "2012-05-21"
## [1] "2012-05-31"
## [1] "2012-06-10"
## [1] "2012-06-20"

```

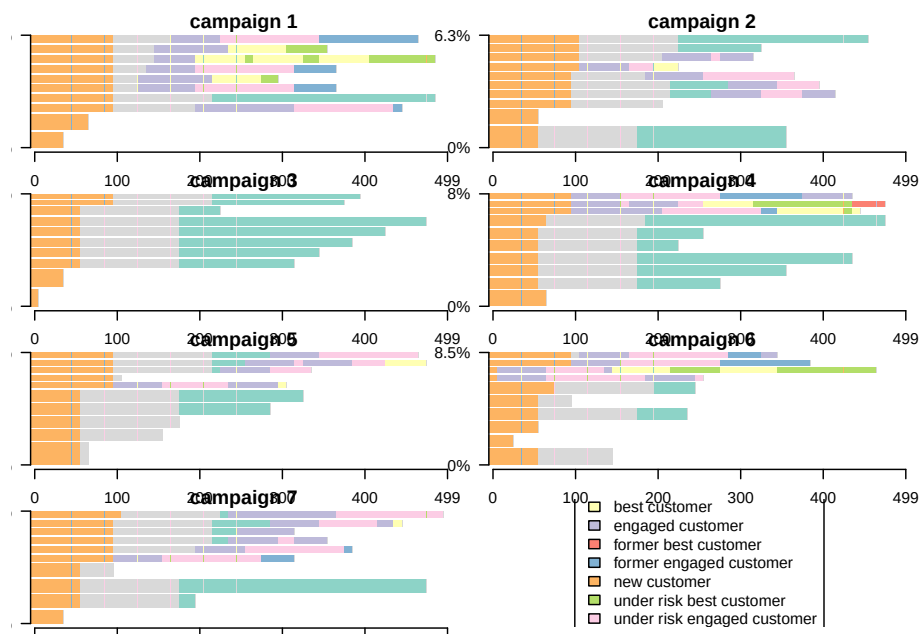
```
## [1] "2012-06-30"
## [1] "2012-07-10"
## [1] "2012-07-20"
## [1] "2012-07-30"
## [1] "2012-08-09"
## [1] "2012-08-19"
## [1] "2012-08-29"
## [1] "2012-09-08"
## [1] "2012-09-18"
## [1] "2012-09-28"
## [1] "2012-10-08"
## [1] "2012-10-18"
## [1] "2012-10-28"
## [1] "2012-11-07"
## [1] "2012-11-17"
## [1] "2012-11-27"
## [1] "2012-12-07"
## [1] "2012-12-17"
## [1] "2012-12-27"
## [1] "2013-01-06"
## [1] "2013-01-16"
## [1] "2013-01-26"
## [1] "2013-02-05"
## [1] "2013-02-15"
## [1] "2013-02-25"
## [1] "2013-03-07"
## [1] "2013-03-17"
## [1] "2013-03-27"
## [1] "2013-04-06"
## [1] "2013-04-16"
## [1] "2013-04-26"
## [1] "2013-05-06"
## [1] "2013-05-15"

# converting data to the sequence format
df <-
  dcast(df,
        clientId ~ report.date,
        value.var = 'segm',
        fun.aggregate = NULL)
df.seq <- seqdef(df,
                 2:ncol(df),
                 left = 'DEL',
                 right = 'DEL',
                 xtstep = 10)
```

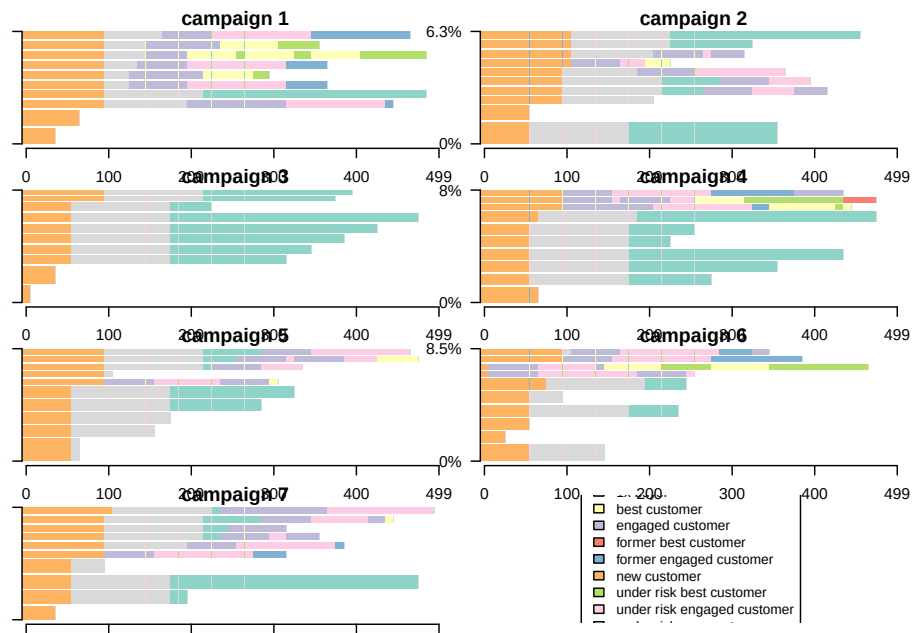
```
## [>] found missing values ('NA') in sequence data
## [>] preparing 1445 sequences
## [>] coding void elements with '%' and missing values with '*'
## [>] 9 distinct states appear in the data:
##      1 = 1x buyer
##      2 = best customer
##      3 = engaged customer
##      4 = former best customer
##      5 = former engaged customer
##      6 = new customer
##      7 = under risk best customer
##      8 = under risk engaged customer
##      9 = under risk new customer
## [>] state coding:
##      [alphabet]                [label]                [long label]
##      1  1x buyer                1x buyer                1x buyer
##      2  best customer            best customer            best customer
##      3  engaged customer          engaged customer          engaged customer
##      4  former best customer      former best customer      former best customer
##      5  former engaged customer    former engaged customer    former engaged customer
##      6  new customer              new customer              new customer
##      7  under risk best customer  under risk best customer  under risk best customer
##      8  under risk engaged customer under risk engaged customer under risk engaged customer
##      9  under risk new customer    under risk new customer    under risk new customer
## [>] 1445 sequences in the data set
## [>] min/max sequence length: 1/51
# creating df with first purch.date and campaign cohort features
feat <- df %>% select(clientId)
feat <- merge(feat, campaign[, 1:2], by = 'clientId')
feat <- merge(feat, customers[, 1:2], by = 'clientId')
par(mar = c(1, 1, 1, 1))
```



```
# plotting the 10 most frequent sequences based on campaign
seqfplot(df.seq, border = NA, group = feat$campaign)
```



```
# plotting the 10 most frequent sequences based on campaign
seqfplot(
  df.seq,
  border = NA,
  group = feat$campaign,
  cex.legend = 0.9
)
```



plotting the 10 most frequent sequences based on first purch.date cohort

```
coh.list <- sort(unique(feats$cohort))
# defining cohorts for plotting
feats.coh.list <- feats[feats$cohort %in% coh.list[1:6] ,]
df.coh <- df %>% filter(clientId %in% c(feats.coh.list$clientId))
df.seq.coh <-
  seqdef(
    df.coh,
    2:ncol(df.coh),
    left = 'DEL',
    right = 'DEL',
    xtstep = 10
  )
```

```
## [>] found missing values ('NA') in sequence data
```

```
## [>] preparing 1063 sequences
```

```
## [>] coding void elements with '%' and missing values with '*'
```

```
## [>] 9 distinct states appear in the data:
```

```
##      1 = 1x buyer
```

```
##      2 = best customer
```

```
##      3 = engaged customer
```

```
##      4 = former best customer
```

```
##      5 = former engaged customer

##      6 = new customer

##      7 = under risk best customer

##      8 = under risk engaged customer

##      9 = under risk new customer

##  [>] state coding:

##      [alphabet]                [label]                [long label]

##      1  1x buyer                1x buyer                1x buyer

##      2  best customer            best customer            best customer

##      3  engaged customer          engaged customer          engaged customer

##      4  former best customer      former best customer      former best customer

##      5  former engaged customer   former engaged customer   former engaged customer

##      6  new customer              new customer              new customer

##      7  under risk best customer  under risk best customer  under risk best customer

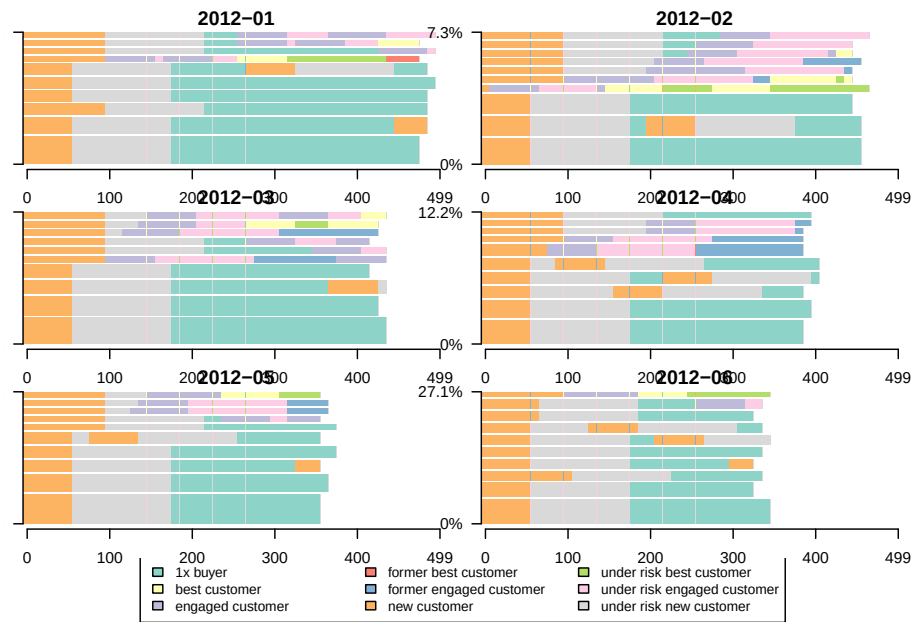
##      8  under risk engaged customer under risk engaged customer under risk engaged customer

##      9  under risk new customer   under risk new customer   under risk new customer

##  [>] 1063 sequences in the data set

##  [>] min/max sequence length: 33/51

seqfplot(
  df.seq.coh,
  border = NA,
  group = feat.coh.list$cohort,
  cex.legend = 0.9
)
```



Chapter 16

Qualitative Research

16.1 Inter-rate reliability methods

Calculation to judge the degree of agreement between the choices made by two or more independent judges

Other packages are

- vcd for visualization
- DescTools

16.1.1 Percent Agreement

$$\frac{\text{number of agreement}}{\text{number of total}} \times 100$$

```
library("irr")
```

```
## Loading required package: lpSolve
```

```
data("diagnoses", package = "irr")
```

```
data("anxiety", package = "irr")
```

```
head(diagnoses,10)
```

##	rater1	rater2	rater3
## 1	4. Neurosis	4. Neurosis	4. Neurosis
## 2	2. Personality Disorder	2. Personality Disorder	2. Personality Disorder
## 3	2. Personality Disorder	3. Schizophrenia	3. Schizophrenia
## 4	5. Other	5. Other	5. Other
## 5	2. Personality Disorder	2. Personality Disorder	2. Personality Disorder
## 6	1. Depression	1. Depression	3. Schizophrenia
## 7	3. Schizophrenia	3. Schizophrenia	3. Schizophrenia

```

## 8          1. Depression          1. Depression          3. Schizophrenia
## 9          1. Depression          1. Depression          4. Neurosis
## 10         5. Other              5. Other              5. Other
##          rater4              rater5              rater6
## 1          4. Neurosis          4. Neurosis          4. Neurosis
## 2          5. Other              5. Other              5. Other
## 3 3. Schizophrenia 3. Schizophrenia          5. Other
## 4          5. Other              5. Other              5. Other
## 5          4. Neurosis          4. Neurosis          4. Neurosis
## 6 3. Schizophrenia 3. Schizophrenia 3. Schizophrenia
## 7 3. Schizophrenia          5. Other              5. Other
## 8 3. Schizophrenia 3. Schizophrenia          4. Neurosis
## 9          4. Neurosis          4. Neurosis          4. Neurosis
## 10         5. Other              5. Other              5. Other

agree(diagnoses)

## Percentage agreement (Tolerance=0)
##
## Subjects = 30
## Raters = 6
## %-agree = 16.7

# library(vcd)
# # Create the plot
# p <- agreementplot(anxiety)

```

16.1.2 Cohen's Kappa

(Cohen, 1960)

$$k = \frac{p_o - p_e}{1 - p_e} = 1 - \frac{1 - p_o}{1 - p_e}$$

where

- p_o = relative observed agreement among raters
- p_e = hypothetical probability of chance agreement

strict agreements between raters

appropriate in case of 2 ordinal or nominal variables

Based on (Landis and Koch, 1977)'s guide, we have

Degree	Decision
0.01 – 0.20	slight agreement

Degree	Decision
0.21 – 0.40	fair agreement
0.41 – 0.60	moderate agreement
0.61 – 0.80	substantial agreement
0.81 – 1.00	almost perfect or perfect agreement

```

# Unweighted kappa for 2 nominal or 2 ordinal categorical
kappa2(diagnoses[, c("rater1", "rater2")], weight = "unweighted") # two ordinal variables only, c

## Cohen's Kappa for 2 Raters (Weights: unweighted)
##
## Subjects = 30
## Raters = 2
## Kappa = 0.651
##
## z = 7
## p-value = 2.63e-12

# Weighted kappa ordinal scales
kappa2(diagnoses[, c("rater1", "rater2")], weight = "equal") # linear weightes of the differences

## Cohen's Kappa for 2 Raters (Weights: equal)
##
## Subjects = 30
## Raters = 2
## Kappa = 0.633
##
## z = 5.43
## p-value = 5.52e-08

kappa2(diagnoses[, c("rater1", "rater2")], weight = "squared") # squared weightes of the differences

## Cohen's Kappa for 2 Raters (Weights: squared)
##
## Subjects = 30
## Raters = 2
## Kappa = 0.655
##
## z = 3.91
## p-value = 9.37e-05

```

p-value less than 0.05, mean that raters agree more than what you would expect by chance.

16.1.3 Fleiss'kappa

for two or more categorical variables (nominal or ordinal)

for three or more raters

- 0 = no agreement
- 1 = perfect agreement

```
# no assumption of same raters for all subjects
kappam.fleiss(diagnoses[, 1:3])
```

```
## Fleiss' Kappa for m Raters
##
## Subjects = 30
## Raters = 3
## Kappa = 0.534
##
## z = 9.89
## p-value = 0
```

16.2 Krippendorff's Alpha

calculates disagreement among raters.

$$\frac{\text{observed disagreement}}{\text{expected disagreement}}$$

Rules of thumb by (Shelley and Krippendorff, 1984)

- $\alpha \geq 0.08$ = good
- $\alpha \geq 0.667$ = acceptable lower limit

```
nmm <-
  matrix(
    c(
      1,
      1,
      NA,
      1,
      2,
      2,
      3,
      2,
      3,
      3,
      3,
      3,
      3,
      3,
```



```
      3,
      3,
      2,
      2,
      2,
      2,
      1,
      2,
      3,
      4,
      4,
      4,
      4,
      4,
      1,
      1,
      2,
      1,
      2,
      2,
      2,
      2,
      NA,
      5,
      5,
      5,
      NA,
      NA,
      1,
      1,
      NA,
      NA,
      3,
      NA
    ),
    nrow = 4
  )
  # first assume the default nominal classification
  kripp.alpha(nmm)

## Krippendorff's alpha
##
## Subjects = 12
## Raters = 4
## alpha = 0.743
```

```
# now use the same data with the other three methods
kripp.alpha(nmm, "ordinal")
```

```
## Krippendorff's alpha
##
## Subjects = 12
## Raters = 4
## alpha = 0.815
kripp.alpha(nmm, "interval")
```

```
## Krippendorff's alpha
##
## Subjects = 12
## Raters = 4
## alpha = 0.849
kripp.alpha(nmm, "ratio")
```

```
## Krippendorff's alpha
##
## Subjects = 12
## Raters = 4
## alpha = 0.797
```

16.2.1 Kendall's W

Continuous ordinal ratings

```
rtr1 <- c(1, 6, 3, 2, 5, 4)
rtr2 <- c(1, 5, 6, 2, 4, 3)
rtr3 <- c(2, 3, 6, 5, 4, 1)
ratings <- cbind(rtr1, rtr2, rtr3)
library(DescTools)
```

```
## Warning: package 'DescTools' was built under R version 4.0.5
KendallW(ratings, test=TRUE)
```

```
##
## Kendall's coefficient of concordance W
##
## data: ratings
## Kendall chi-squared = 8.5238, df = 5, subjects = 6, raters = 3, p-value
## = 0.1296
## alternative hypothesis: W is greater 0
## sample estimates:
## W
```

```
## 0.568254
```

16.2.2 Intraclass correlation coefficients

(Shrout and Fleiss, 1979)

16.2.2.1 Continuous scales

Decision:

- model:
 - "oneway" when subjects are random effects
 - "twoway" when subjects and raters are random effects
- type:
 - "agreement" differences in mean ratings among raters are of interest
 - "consistency" is default
- unit
 - "single" single value
 - "average" mean of several ratings

```
icc(anxiety,
    model = "twoway", # can be "oneway"
    type = "agreement", # can be "consistency"
    unit = "single" # can be "average"
)

## Single Score Intraclass Correlation
##
## Model: twoway
## Type : agreement
##
## Subjects = 20
## Raters = 3
## ICC(A,1) = 0.198
##
## F-Test, H0: r0 = 0 ; H1: r0 > 0
## F(19,39.7) = 1.83 , p = 0.0543
##
## 95%-Confidence Interval for ICC Population Values:
## -0.039 < ICC < 0.494

DescTools package
```

```

rtr1 <- c(9, 6, 8, 7, 10, 6)
rtr2 <- c(2, 1, 4, 1, 5, 2)
rtr3 <- c(5, 3, 6, 2, 6, 4)
rtr4 <- c(8, 2, 8, 6, 9, 7)
ratings <- cbind(rtr1, rtr2, rtr3, rtr4)
DescTools::ICC(ratings)

##
## Intraclass correlation coefficients
##
##          type    est F-val df1 df2    p-val lwr.ci upr.ci
## Single_raters_absolute ICC1 0.166  1.79   5  18 0.164769    NA    NA
## Single_random_raters   ICC2 0.290 11.03   5  15 0.000135    NA    NA
## Single_fixed_raters    ICC3 0.715 11.03   5  15 0.000135    NA    NA
## Average_raters_absolute ICC1k 0.443  1.79   5  18 0.164769    NA    NA
## Average_random_raters   ICC2k 0.620 11.03   5  15 0.000135    NA    NA
## Average_fixed_raters    ICC3k 0.909 11.03   5  15 0.000135    NA    NA
##
## Number of subjects = 6      Number of raters = 4

```

16.2.3 Light's kappa

- average of Cohen's Kappa if using more than two categorical variables

```

# Light's kappa: multiple raters
kappam.light(diagnoses[, 1:3])

## Warning in sqrt(varkappa): NaNs produced

## Light's Kappa for m Raters
##
## Subjects = 30
## Raters = 3
## Kappa = 0.555
##
## z = NaN
## p-value = NaN

```

Chapter 17

Nudges

(Garbinsky et al., 2020) uncovers that people under save because they have positive illusion of financial responsibility (i.e., they thought they are financially more responsible than the average).

(Mrkva et al., 2021) found that choice architecture influences inequities across people. More specifically, people with the following dimensions enjoy the most benefit from nudges:

- Low socioeconomic status (SES)
- Low numerical ability
- Low knowledge

Hence, we should use nudges to reduce SES disparities.

Chapter 18

Visualization

Chapter 19

Surveys

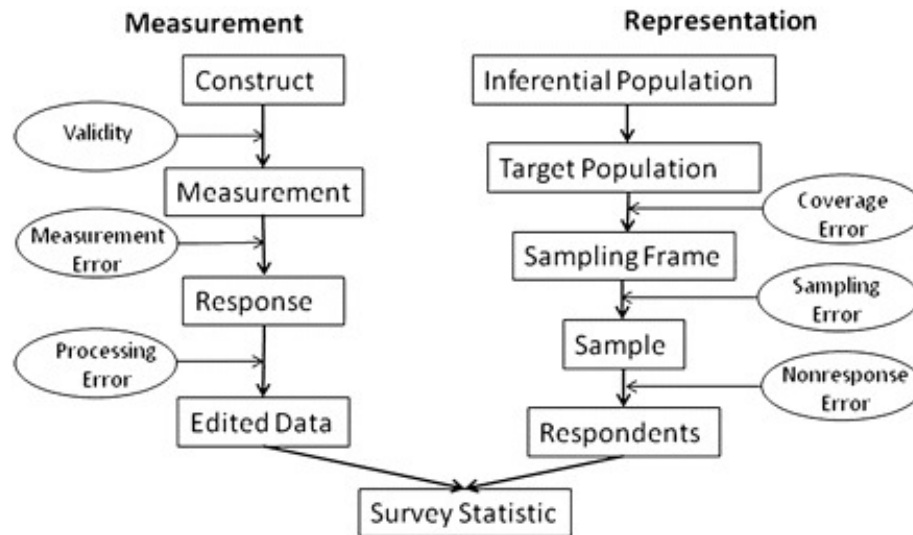
Table 19.1: SICSS Summer 2020 -Survey Research in the Digital Age by professor **Matthew Salganik**

	Sampling	Interviews	Data environment
1st era	area probability	face-to-face	stand-alone
2nd ear	random digital dial probability	telephone	stand-alone
3rd era	non-probability	computer-administered	linked

Total survey error framework (Groves and Lyberg, 2010)

Insight:

- 1. Errors can come from bias or variance
- 2. Total survey error = Measurement error + representation error



(Groves and Lyberg, 2010, Fig. 3)

Probability and Non-probability Sampling

- Probability sample: every unit from a frame population has a known and non-zero probability of inclusion
- With weighting, we can recover bias in your sampling.
- Non-response problem

Horvitz-Thompson estimator (or bias estimator):

$$\hat{y} = \frac{\sum_{i \in s} y_i / \pi_i}{N}$$

where π_i = person i 's probability of inclusion (we have to estimate)

Wiki Survey

- Create a survey that leverages the power of people

Mass Collaboration

- Human Computation: Train People -> Train Lots of People -> Train Machine
 - Cleaning
 - De-biasing
 - Combining
- Open Call:
 - solutions are easier to check than generate

- required specialized skills
- Distributed Data Collection:
 - People go out and collect data
 - quality check

Fragile family challenges

Chapter 20

Construct vs. Variable

Table 20.1: measured or perceived vs. reality

		Reality	
Measured	True	True Correct	False Type 1 error (False positive)
	False	Type 2 error (False Negative)	Correct

picture from (Irvine, 2019)

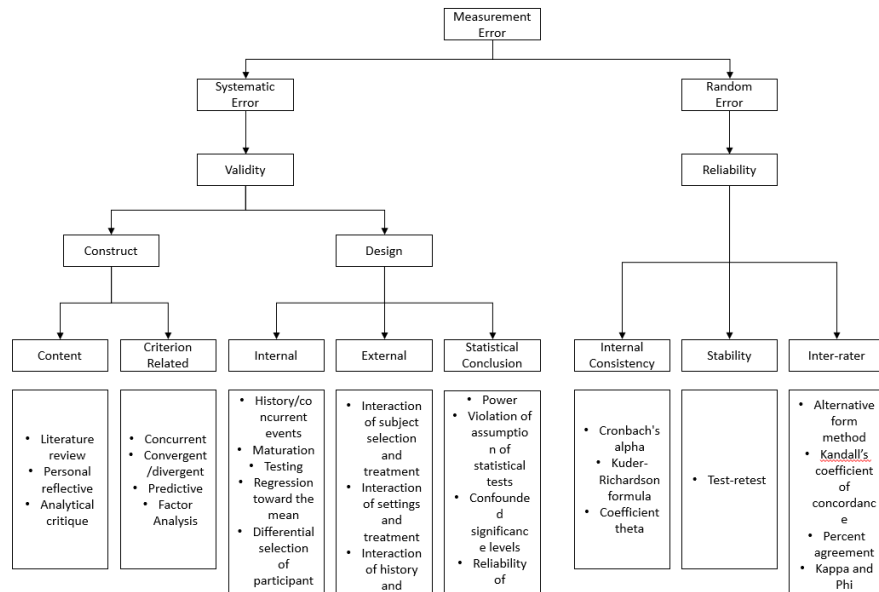


Figure 20.1: Measurement Error

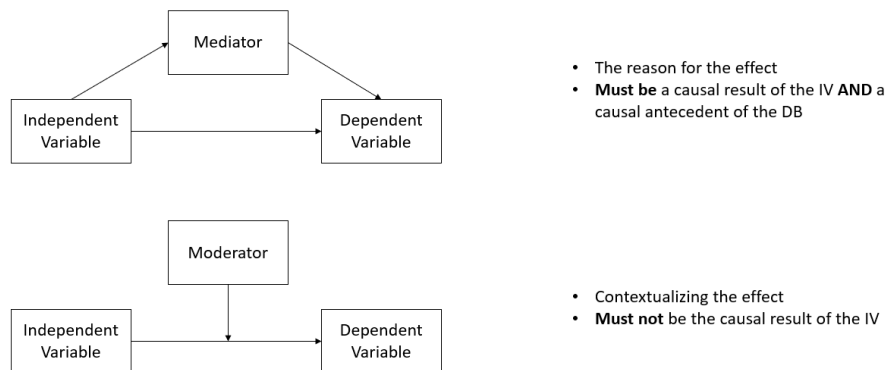


Figure 20.2: Moderator vs. Mediator

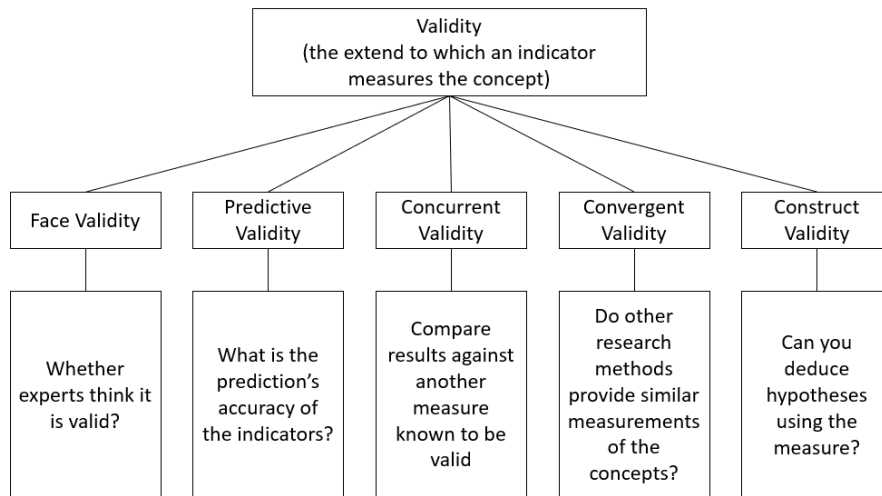


Figure 20.3: Validity

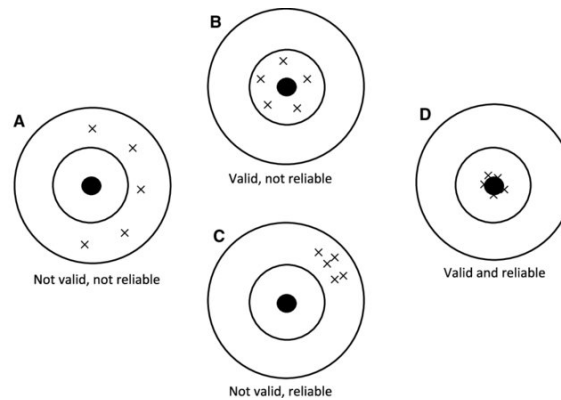


Figure 20.4: Reliability vs. Validity

Chapter 21

Experiment

Things to consider:

- Validity
 - statistical conclusion validity
 - internal validity
 - construct validity: whether you operationalize your construct correctly
 - external validity: generalization
- Heterogeneity of treatment effects
 - average (aggregate) effect can be artificially constructed.
- Mechanisms

More things to consider

- cost
- control
- realism
- ethics

The Principles of Humane Experimental Technique by Russell and Burch (1959):
3Rs

- Replace: with natural (less invasive)
- Refine: less harmful
- Reduce: min number of participants

Before running experiments, to make sure that you did not tamper with the data, or hypotheses (i.e., change them after the fact), you should always pre-register your research. A website that allows you to do this and automatically provides you with time stamp is aspredicted

This way then you can show to reviewers that you did hypothesize before running analysis.

To combat replication crisis in psychology, we can advocate for open research in which researchers public their data and analyses. Popular websites include:

- ResearchBox
- <https://osf.io/>

To see whether authors temper with their data, we can use p-curve to inspect.
1 2 3 4 5

Interaction Effects Need Interaction Controls (basically, you can't just control for main effects).

Chapter 22

Report

1. Introduction

1. Note on managerial relevance/ context
2. Note on the gap in current managerial understanding and academic literature
3. State your research questions
4. Summarize your intended contributions to both theory and practice (at least 3 contributions)

Chapter 23

Surveys

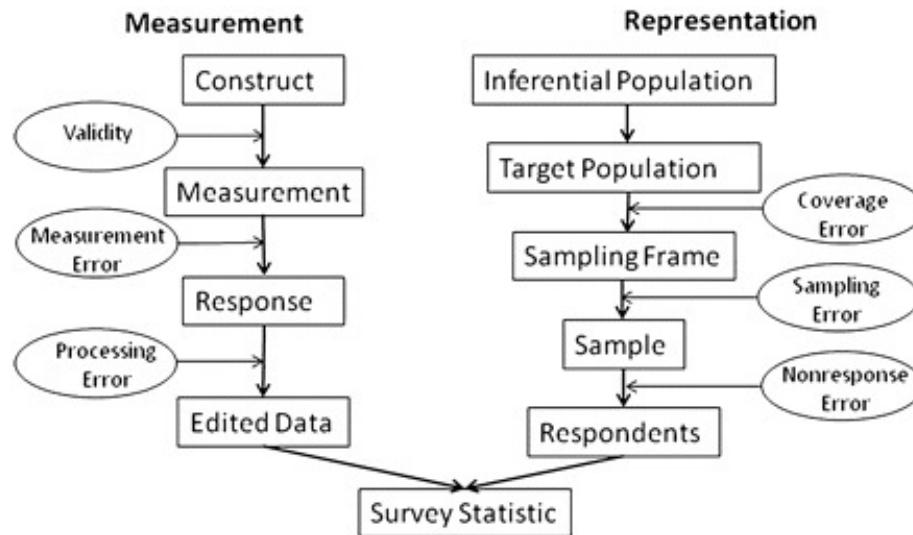
Table 23.1: SICSS Summer 2020 -Survey Research in the Digital Age by professor **Matthew Salganik**

	Sampling	Interviews	Data environment
1st era	area probability	face-to-face	stand-alone
2nd ear	random digital dial probability	telephone	stand-alone
3rd era	non-probability	computer-administered	linked

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Insight:

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- 2. Total survey error = Measurement error + representation error



(Groves and Lyberg, 2010, Fig. 3)

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- Probability sample: every unit from a frame population has a known and non-zero probability of inclusion
- With weighting, we can recover bias in your sampling.
- Non-response problem

Horvitz-Thompson estimator (or bias estimator):

$$\hat{y} = \frac{\sum_{i \in s} y_i / \pi_i}{N}$$

where π_i = person i 's probability of inclusion (we have to estimate)

Wiki Survey

- Create a survey that leverages the power of people

Mass Collaboration

- Human Computation: Train People -> Train Lots of People -> Train Machine
 - Cleaning
 - De-biasing
 - Combining
- Open Call:
 - solutions are easier to check than generate

- required specialized skills
- Distributed Data Collection:
 - People go out and collect data
 - quality check

Fragile family challenges

Chapter 24

Construct vs. Variable

Table 24.1: measured or perceived vs. reality

		Reality	
Measured	True	True Correct	False Type 1 error (False positive)
	False	Type 2 error (False Negative)	Correct

picture from (Irvine, 2019)

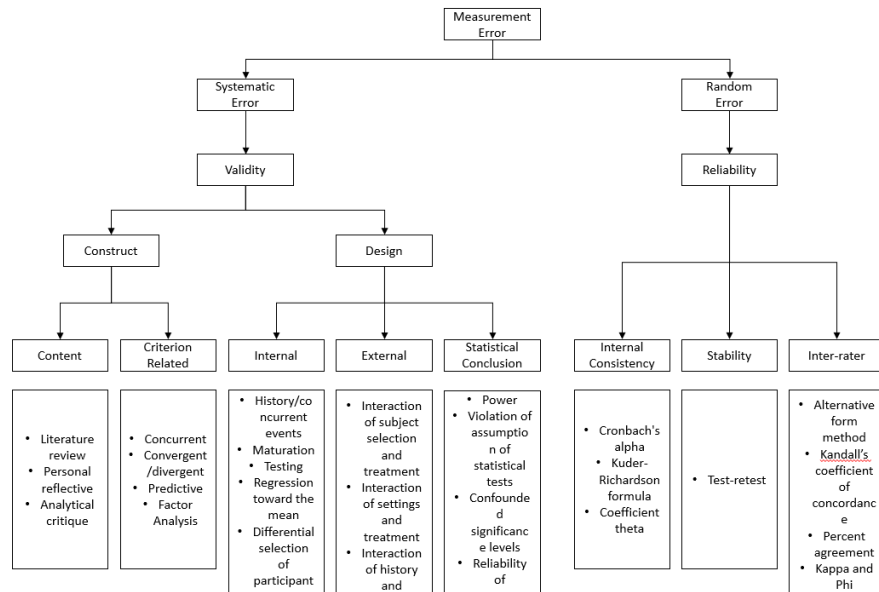


Figure 24.1: Measurement Error

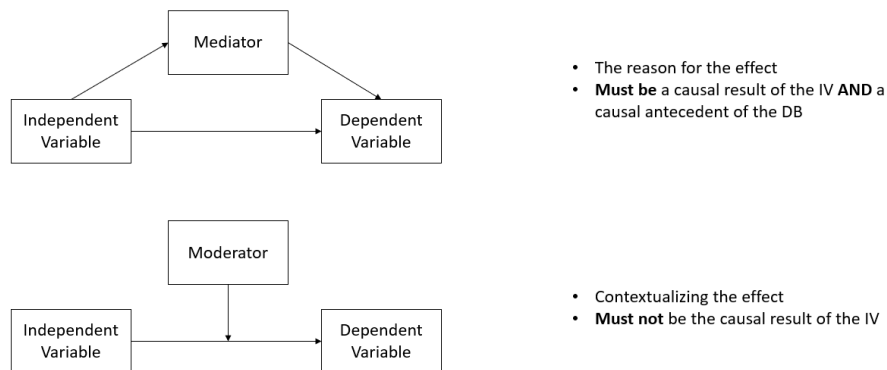


Figure 24.2: Moderator vs. Mediator

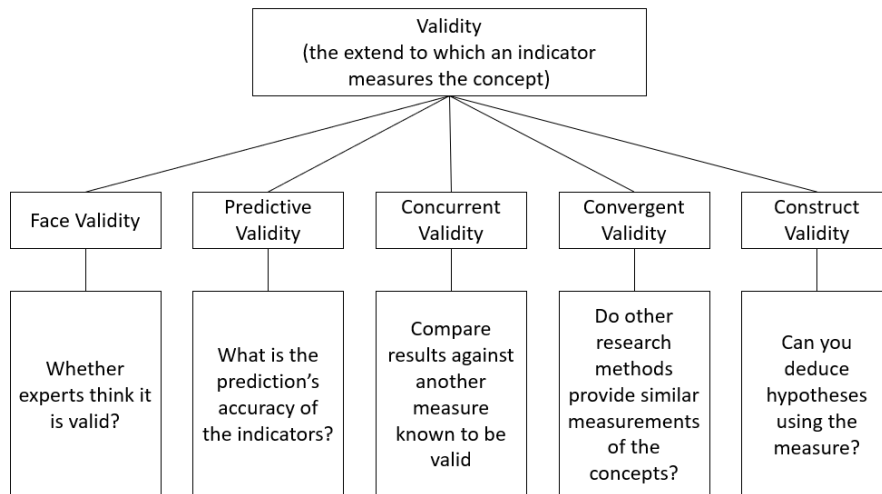


Figure 24.3: Validity

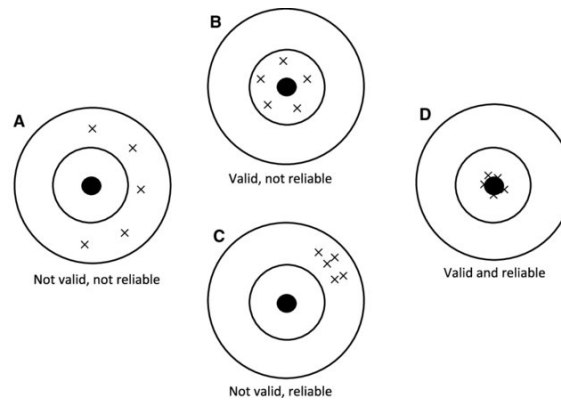


Figure 24.4: Reliability vs. Validity

Chapter 25

Experiment

Things to consider:

- Validity
 - statistical conclusion validity
 - internal validity
 - construct validity: whether you operationalize your construct correctly
 - external validity: generalization
- Heterogeneity of treatment effects
 - average (aggregate) effect can be artificially constructed.
- Mechanisms

More things to consider

- cost
- control
- realism
- ethics

The Principles of Humane Experimental Technique by Russell and Burch (1959):
3Rs

- Replace: with natural (less invasive)
- Refine: less harmful
- Reduce: min number of participants

Before running experiments, to make sure that you did not tamper with the data, or hypotheses (i.e., change them after the fact), you should always pre-register your research. A website that allows you to do this and automatically provides you with time stamp is aspredicted

This way then you can show to reviewers that you did hypothesize before running analysis.

To combat replication crisis in psychology, we can advocate for open research in which researchers public their data and analyses. Popular websites include:

- ResearchBox
- <https://osf.io/>

To see whether authors temper with their data, we can use p-curve to inspect.
1 2 3 4 5

Interaction Effects Need Interaction Controls (basically, you can't just control for main effects).

Chapter 26

Image

Transdermal Optical Imaging:

- <https://www.nuralogix.ai/technology>
- extract facial blood flow information
- <https://github.com/nuralogix>
- <https://www.deepaffex.ai/>
- <https://www.deepaffex.ai/media>

Chapter 27

Sarcasm

- AI-based Learning Techniques for Sarcasm Detection of Social Media Tweets
- Interpretable Multi-Head Self-Attention Architecture for Sarcasm Detection in Social Media
-

Chapter 28

Formative vs. Reflective Measurements

	Reflective	Formative
Root	Common factor model	Principal Component Analysis (Weighted Linear Composites)
	Construct as causes of measures	Measures as causes of construct
Dimensionality	Unidimensionality	Multidimensionality of formative measures (this is a liability because it is analogous to multibarralled items) because the variance of the latent variable is determined by the paths (i.e., strength) from the measures, and variances and covariances of the measures.
	Measures = reflection of construct in its entirety (Unidimensionality of reflective measures)	
	Useful redundancy	
Internal consistency	Reflective measures should correlate positively	No needs for the formative measures to correlate Correlation among measures can be problem (multicollinearity). Higher the correlation (among measures), more unstable the loadings on construct, larger standard errors. The lack of internal consistency does not provide evidence for a set of measures to be formative.

Reflective	Formative
Identification identified only when either • at least 3 measures, and fix scale variance to 1 or fix a loading to 1. • 2 measures, and loadings, are set equal to each other, or latent variable covary with another latent variables that has at least 2 reflective measures.	are not identified, unless 2 additional reflective measures are added to be caused by the construct- multiple indicator multiple cause (MIMIC) model. Hence, the choice of reflective measures for identification concern can change the loadings relating the measures to its latent variable, which in turn, change the construct itself. Hence, specifying the reflective measures in MIMIC model is monumental
Measurement Error independent measurement errors	No measurement error (i.e., error-free indicators)
Construct Validity construct validity is manifested by the the magnitudes of the loadings relating the measures to the construct, which determined by the covariances among measures (e.g., the higher covariances the stronger correspondence)	1. strength between construct and its measures 2. proportion of variance in the construct attributed to the residual ζ (smaller better) 3. In relation to other variables (nomological validity and criterion-oriented validity) 4. Indirect effect of formative measure on reflective measure via the construct. Drawbacks: • estimates are sensitive to the chose of reflective measures as mentioned in the identification section. • Nomological network could not be empirically validated because of the conceptual heterogeneity in the formative measures.

Reflective	Formative
Construct to measures construct = latent variable From a realist perspective, construct = real entity (i.e., could influence) (e.g., psychological state), measures = scores	measures to construct construct = composite variable From an operationalist or instrumentalist perspective, formative measures define the construct (i.e., composite score) I'd suggest to think of formative constructs as processes Under constructivist perspective, constructs can be ascribed theoretical meaning, but would only be a conceptual entity But the causal thinking is inappropriate (because measures and construct are not 2 distinct entities), they are part-whole correspondence

According to (Edwards, 2010),

$$x_i = \lambda_i \xi + \delta_i$$

where

- x_i = reflective measure
- ξ = construct
- λ_i = effect of ξ on x_i
- δ_i = uniqueness of the measure (error)

$$\eta = \gamma_i x_i + \zeta$$

where

- η = construct
- γ_i = effect of x_i on η
- ζ = residual (unexplained part of η)

In case that η is a perfect weighted linear combination of x_i , then

$$\eta = \gamma_i x_i$$

28.1 Alternative to formative model

- Model with first-order constructs instead of measures, and each with single reflective measures
 - can't estimate the loadings and unique variances of the reflective measures
- Model with first-order constructs instead of measure, but each with three reflective measures, and second-order construct also has two reflective measures.
 - sometimes, first-order construct can't be measured multiple times (e.g., income, age)

Chapter 29

Scientific Writing

Section	Length (words)	Purpose	Verb Tense	Elements
Title	8 - 15			
Abstract	200-250	Paper's summary	Simple past (work done) Present (general fact, paper itself or analysis)	- Objectives - Methods - Results - Conclusions
Introduction	500-1000	Rationale for the paper	Present (current state-of-art, general background) Present perfect (previous research)	The problem
Literature Review	1000-2000	Understanding of the current knowledge landscape	Present (current state-of-art)	- Review of the literature - Hypothesis

Section	Length (words)	Purpose	Verb Tense	Elements
Methods	500-1000	What was done	Simple past (work done) Present (explain diagrams/figures)	• Approach/methods used • Data description • Procedure description
Results	500-1500	presents data, facts	Simple past (what was found) present (explain diagrams/figures)	• Results of analysis
Discussion	1000-1500	discuss relationships among constructs, and insights	Present (established knowledge) past (summarize findings)	• Relationships • Outliers • Comparison to previous studies
Conclusion	500	summarize findings	Present (implications and future search) Past (completed research)	

Rules of thumb:

- Past: events that have been completed
 - We found
 - Method proposed by X was followed
- Present Perfect: events that started in the past but are still ongoing
 - Many studied have researched on
- Present: events that are general fact, and current

Journal paper types:

1. Research Paper: hypotheses and findings

2. Methods Paper: new method
3. Review Paper: consolidate a domain
4. Discussion Paper: opinions regarding other papers

Chapter 30

Review Process

Communicate your review by O. C. Ferrell:

1. Paragraph
 1. contextualize the research
 2. convey the key message of the research
 3. be positive about what was done well
2. Paragraph:
 1. Is the paper well written, interesting and important?
 2. Are the methods, data, etc. appropriate?
 3. Does the data support the findings?
3. Paragraphs: Numbers, topics-examples of an issue:
 1. Factual errors
 2. Invalid arguments
 3. length/journal guidance
 4. Paths to improve the research

Documenting your reviews

- Use publons.com to document manuscripts you reviewed for promotion and CV
- to verify your review, send the “thank you for reviewing” email to reviews@publons.com

The review process:

- Journals always look for reviewers
 - Get involved and email your CV to editor, or area editor.
- Do not wait to answer whether you review or not.

Responding to reviews

- Turn around in 3 months
- R & R: reject and resubmit (new). The turn around will be sent to a new set of reviewers
- R & R: review and resubmit.

Chapter 31

Behavioral Seminar

“Cognitive perspective-taking refers to the ability to make inferences about others’ thoughts and beliefs.”

“Affective perspective-taking is the ability to make inferences about others’ emotions and feelings” (Healey and Grossman, 2018)

Chapter 32

CB Seminar

32.1 Overview

(Simonson et al., 2001):

- Behavioral Decision Theory (i.e., study judgment and decisions) (Kahneman & Tversky) vs Social Cognition
 - Both use mediation and path analysis
- Positivist (focuses on causation) Versus Postmodern (focuses on interpretation)

	Behavioral Decision Theory	Social Cognition
Underlying model	decision-making model, (e.g., determinants of choice)	response hierarchy model (i.e., how judgments and attitudes are formed)
Phenomena	Stimulus-based	Memory-based
Task		
Measures	Information acquisition, verbal protocols, and response time	Cognitive response

Types fo Consumer Research:

- Theory Development
- Theory Application
 - limited impact on managerial practice

Theory-Testing vs. Substantive Phenomena-Driven Consumer Research

(Janiszewski et al., 2016)

- Deductive-Conceptual Knowledge
 - A theory is “a statement of concepts and their interrelationships that shows how and/or why a phenomenon occurs.” (Corley and Gioia, 2011)
 - Knowledge Creation Strategies:
 - * Bridging disciplines
 - * Challenging assumptions
 - * Introducing mediators and moderators
 - * Contrastive explanation
 - * Borrowing and blending
 - Knowledge Appreciation
 - * Quality of the contribution
 - depends on rigor, and execution of research method
 - * Benefit of the contribution
 - Originality / Novelty
 - Interestingness
 - Changes in core understanding/beliefs
- Integration (i.e., tree of knowledge)

32.2 Social Influence

(McFerran et al., 2010)

- body type of others influences one’s food consumption
 - moderated by body type (undesirable reference group) of the other consumers
 - low appearance self-esteem or cognitive load also moderate this relationship
- Anchoring and adjustment processes
- Social Influence and Food Choice
 - people conform to group average (anchor)

- Study 1: Social influence effects is present regardless of food perception (healthy vs. unhealthy). People eat more when there is another person, but the magnitude is moderated by the other's body type (consume less when seeing obese others - undesirable group). The effect persists after social influence.
- Study 2: Presence of other increases food quantity.
 - High anchor (obese person takes high quantity), participants take less.
 - Low anchor (obese person takes small quantity), participants take more
- Study 3: People with low appearance self-esteem and high processing resources will attenuate more

(Moreau and Herd, 2010)

- Social comparison: people want to gain self-knowledge.
 - Self-designed products are based on:
 - * comparison with the characteristics of other comparable products
 - * comparison with skills, talents, and expertise of the other designers.
- Since professional designers are expert, consumer designers face upward comparison
- Study 1:
 - a. Self-deigned product evaluation is lower when compared to professional default product, than consumer designed default design
 - b. Firm guidance moderates this effect
 - There is a premium for self-designed product.
- Study 2: Defensive vs. Nondefensive processing
 - need to protect self-esteem/ self-image.
 - a. At low defensive processing, evaluations of self-designed products are lower when the default product is professionally designed than consumer designed
 - defensive processing reduces negative comparison
- Study 3: The behavioral consequences of social comparison in self-design.
 - Public prize (visibility) enhance self-evaluations.
 - a. Repair opportunity affects the evaluation of self-designed products

(Hamilton, 2003)

- Influence based on context effects (suggesting other unlikely alternative)
 - moderated by the belief whether others are trying to manipulate the choice context.
- People understand context effects (e.g., choice set construction).
- To influence others, people construct a set of unattractive alternatives (attraction effect), or a compromise between two other alternatives (compromise effect).
- Author hypothesized: People correct the contextual effects when they know constructors' intentions (to influence them).
- Results: "Subjects' beliefs that menus had been created (**by their friends**) to influence their choices seemed to enhance rather than limit the effectiveness of the menus." (p. 498) likely due to homophily bias.
 - Evaluated the target more favorably.
- Source credibility, expertise, trustworthiness, attractiveness, and similarity can influence the effectiveness of persuasion attempt (Wilson and Sherrell, 1993)
- Hypothesis: ulterior motive of persuader moderates increase the resistant effect of chooser than group-oriented motive.
 - Subjects are likely to agree (choose) when they know the menu is created by their friends
 - knowing that the menu has been created by a stranger, under compromise strategy, subjects still choose the middle alternative.
- Attraction strategy is more likely to be used than compromise strategy
- Even if subjects understand contextual effects (manipulation), they do not resist because
 - it's hard to recognize characteristics of a local set from the characteristics of a global set. (Simonson et al., 1993)
 - If subjects assume that the most attractive option has been eliminated, they have to choose the best among alternatives.

(Argo et al., 2005)

- Non interactive social presence in the consumption context.
- social forces has greatest influence (Latan? and Wolf, 1981):
 - number (social size) (large > small):
 - * emotions and behaviors: (e.g., stage fright, crowding)

- immediacy (proximity) (closer > far)
- social source strength (importance) (high > low)
- Social Impact Theory
- Study 1:
 - 0 -> 1 person increased positive emotions
 - 1 -> 3 person decreased positive emotions
- Study 2:
 - proximity moderates the impact of social size on emotions and brand selection.

32.3 Interpersonal perception and consumer lay beliefs

(Folkes and Patrick, 2003)

- Info valence: **Negativity bias for products** (negative info about a product has greater influence on brand perceptions than positive info). (Herr et al., 1991)
- **Positivity bias for services** (positive experience from a service provider can lead customers to infer positivity about the brand as a whole than negative experience).
 - Could be because service is more heterogeneous.
 - this effect is greater for novice consumer.
- Study 1: First time car insurance buyers
 - Alternative explanation: Subtyping (Weber and Crocker, 1983), or occupational stereotype consistency, question order are all ruled out.
- Study 2: replicate study 1: compare the effect of info about individual service provider to that of others who is not from the firm.
 - Subjects perceive focal firm employee more positively and consider negative experience from the other firms' agents as outliers.
- Because consumers are predisposed to think that a service encounter in general should be more positive than negative (for, 2005), this assumption could explain why consumers consider positive experience as typical and generalize it to the brand, and negative experience as outliers.
- 3 sources that affect consumers' beliefs:
 - general perceptions of services

- beliefs specific to a firm
- beliefs specific to an occupation
- Study 3 used a critical incident method to examine the following hypothesis: the positive effect is moderated by consumer experience (e.g., stronger for less experience consumers).
 - Valence affects perceived typicality, but experience with a firm did not influence typicality (can't find support for H3)
- Study 4: Replicate study 1 and 2 in a natural setting

(Brough et al., 2016)

- Men are less likely to buy environmentally friendly products than women because of the close association between green behavior and femininity (perceived by both men and women, and both users and observers).
 - Prior research attributes this gap to personality traits (women are more prosocial altruistic (Lee and Holden, 1999), and stronger ethic of care (Zelezny et al., 2000))
 - The link between greenness and femininity could be explained by
 - * target of green marketing usually involved women (e.g., cleaning, laundry).
 - * caring and nurturing from greenness are feminine traits
- Since men are more concerned with gender-identity maintenance (which is kinda surprising from my view), they avoid purchasing green products which might jeopardize their macho image.
 - From social-identity theory: self-concept is also derived from perceived group membership (Turner and Oakes, 1986)

(Wang et al., 2016)

- Smile affects 2 social judgments: warmth and competence
 - Broader smile leads to more warmth, but less competent
 - * Consumers focus moderates this effect
 - Promotion-focused consumers (and low-risk consumption) like bigger smile on warmth
 - Prevention-focused consumers (and high-risk consumption) like slight smile (signal competent)
- Based on stereotype content model (SCM) of social judgments (Fiske et al., 2002)
- Facial configuration has evolutionary purposes.

(Haws et al., 2017)

- Consumers believe healthier foods are more expensive than less healthy foods.
- Due to the dual process model, intuitions based on biased information (processed heuristically) will lead consumers evaluating healthy claims with higher standard (e.g., higher standard for intuition-inconsistent than consistent claim).
- Lay theories or lay beliefs about food = expensive intuition affects consumer decision making process, because this process is low involvement one.

32.4 Emotions, mood and affect

32.5 Persuasion and attitude change

32.6 Judgment and decision making and behavioral pricing

32.7 Goals and Motivation

32.8 Brand personality and consumer -brand relationships

32.9 Culture and consumer behavior

32.10 Prosocial behavior and morality

32.11 Consumer well-being

32.12 Digital marketing and WOM

32.13 Experiential consumption and time

Chapter 33

Model Building

$$U_A = V - P_A - t|x - a| U_B = V - P_B - t|b - x|$$

where

- $\bar{x}$ = marginal consumer = indifferent consumer
- $-t|x - a|$ = Disutility of consuming a product away from ideal
 - transportation cost parameters, weights on the disutility incur when they purchase a product different from the ideal point.
- V = reservation price = max max that the customer is willing to take
- x = location of marginal customer - customer who is indifference from buying from firm A and firm B.

To find the point that a consumer is indifference from buying from firm A and buying from firm B, we equate $U_A = U_B$

$$V - P_A - t(\bar{x} - a) = V - P_B - t(b - \bar{x}) P_B - P_A = 2t\bar{x} + at - tb\bar{x} = \frac{b - a}{2} + \frac{P_B - P_A}{2t}$$

Market Share for firm A = $\bar{x}$

Market Share for firm B = $1 - \bar{x}$

$$\pi_A = P_A \left(\frac{b - a}{2} + \frac{P_B - P_A}{2t} \right) \pi_B = P_B \left(1 - \frac{b - a}{2} - \frac{P_B - P_A}{2t} \right)$$

$$\frac{d\pi_A}{dP_A} = \frac{d\pi_B}{dP_B} = 0$$

$$\frac{P_B}{2t} - \frac{2P_A}{2t} + \frac{b-a}{2} = 0$$

and

$$\frac{d^2\pi_A}{dP_A^2} = \frac{1}{t} < 0$$

$$1 - \frac{b-a}{2} - \frac{P_B}{t} + \frac{P_A}{2t} = 0 \quad 1/2 + \frac{b-a}{4} - \frac{3P_A}{4t} = 0 \quad \frac{t(2+b-a)}{3} = P_A \quad \frac{1}{2} - \frac{b-a}{4} + \frac{2+b-a}{12} = \frac{P_B}{2t} \quad \frac{4/3}{-} \frac{b-a}{3} = -\frac{P_A}{t}$$

Chapter 34

Sales

(Habel et al., 2021) found that consistent with traditional idea, having variable factor in salesperson's compensation plan will increase performance, but also introduce health hazard (more stress which results in emotional exhaustion and more sick days). In cases where salespeople have higher personal ability and more social resources, this harmful effect is mitigated.

Chapter 35

Satisfaction

Customer satisfaction measured using sentiment analysis (Kumar and Zymbler, 2019; Wei et al., 2020).

Another implementation can be found [here](#)

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